TOPICS IN COMMUNICATIVE SKILLS

FOR

UNDERGRADUATE STUDENTS AND SECRETARIES

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PREFACE

Communicative Skills (CS) has been the bane of the progress of many a student, and grappling with it has taken an undue part of learners' time. The search for a remedy to Communicative Skills has often been futile since many teachers are in the dark about its terrain. Again, what often pass for primary texts on Communicative Skills are not in-depth enough, and usually appear as mere supplements for larger textbooks on the English Language. A comprehensive reader such as this one by Rev. P. A. Gborsong (PhD) is aptly intended to fill the gaping vacuum which the absence of detailed textbooks on Communicative Skills has so far created for students and teachers.

The book is made up of chapters, each structured in various sub-headings to teach you the essentials of communication discourse. The work emphasises English language issues to strengthen your spelling, punctuation, concord, usage and powers of expression. In order to help you test your progress, each chapter contains a range of assignments, so that your can check how much you have learned. Lastly, while you are using this book, remember always that learning to communicate is not a struggle. On the contrary; if you enter into the spirit of learning, you will find it a lot of fun.

Written in simple, coherent language which bespeaks the pedagogical experience of the author, the book is aimed as a ready source that meets the urgent needs of students at the higher levels of the educational ladder. It is also very useful as a source – book for teachers. Users of the book may need no assistance since it is carefully designed to be self-instructive. Passages are, also well selected for practice. As an added incentive, there is a useful booklist for the ambitious individual who may wish to aspire higher in the quest for perfection in communication.

Having used Gborsong's book as a source to teach Communicative Skills at both secondary and tertiary levels, I feel very privileged to recommend it to all categories of people whose jobs or studies entail communication of one kind or another.

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INTRODUCTION

s very clear, readable and insightful volume presents a fully comprehensive guide to Communicative Skills programme for university students (and I would add) teacher training colleges, nurses training and schools, polytechnics and all those who intend to continue with their studies in the medium of English at the tertiary level. The book covers all aspects of the programme as it exists now and the students have all that they need to pass this compulsory university course for all level 100 students in public universities in Ghana

The beauty and usefulness of this book is that it has brought together under one roof, into a "one-stop shop" all the various aspects of the programme treated partially by various writers in separate books or publications. All that the student, either alone or guided by the lecturer, needs to do is read attentively and critically assimilate the contents in the full assurance that he/she has in his/her possession all the necessary material for success in his/her examination and all the skills necessary for success in his/her studies at the university.

The book is organised in chapter, 27 in all. Each chapter deals with a specific topic or aspect of the programme, followed by an average of six exercises to develop understanding and tasks based on the essentials of the information given. Model answers are provided where appropriate. The book may, thus, be used in class by the instructor or on self-instruction basis or both.

Another merit of the book is that it aims at, not only developing or improving the necessary language skills of the student, but also equipping him with some of the essential general skills indispensable to academic success, such skills as, note-taking or making from lectures, conferences and book or other written and non-written sources, summary writing, various reading skills, spelling, punctuation (a surprising weakness in our students nowadays), editing, proof reading, public speaking and speech writing (which form an integral part of the first degree programme of universities elsewhere but which, sadly, are absent from ours), and business interviews. This study and other skills should endear the book to students in the sciences as well as those in the arts and social sciences.

I must hope, that the useful book finds a place in the syllabuses of our senior high schools teacher training colleges, nurses training schools and polytechnics and their

contents diligently taught and assimilated so that in future, university students, secretaries and indeed all others who wish to pursue further studies in the medium of English would not need to read Communicative Skills at the university or other institutions of higher education.

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CORPRAL

ATTIPOE

ACKNOWLEDGEMENT

There are few handbooks offering a guide to Communicative Skills. The present book does not attempt to compete with or supplement such works. It has been written in the belief that an extended treatment of Communicative Skills is likely to be more useful to potential users of books of this kind than a sketchy instruction included within the framework of books aimed at other aspects of knowledge.

The scope of the book is virtually limited to the treatment of the problem individuals and especially students encounter. Almost all instructions have been drawn from standard textbooks and past examination questions. The decision is to enable users become very familiar with texts meant for Communicative Skills.

In fact, everybody who embarks upon a work of this kind must inevitably lean on their predecessors in the field. I have found authorities including Jane Opoku Agyemang, P. A. Ogundipe, P. S. Tregido, Abena Dolphyne, G.A.K. Gogovi, Naa Afarley Sackeyfio, John Anum Sackey, etc. whose works I consulted, very helpful. I therefore, wish to express my most sincere gratitude to them.

I am, also, grateful to Dr. Joseph Arko, Dr. Victor Yankah and Dr. Samuel Adjei Sarfo, Miss Emmanuela Arthur and Miss Anita Beatrice Appartaim, all of the Department of English, Mr. Derrick Nii Sackey and Mr. Fred Peniana of the Department of Communication Studies, and Ms. Gertrude Quansah of the Department of Physics, University of Cape Coast, for their encouragement and participation in producing this work.

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DEDICATION

I study your instructions;
I examine your teachings
I take pleasure in your law
Your command I will not forget

Psalm 119: 15 -16

To My students

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CHAPTER ONE

THE IMPORTANCE OF COMMUNICATION

Communication is s very important part of everyday life. It is important to us because it lies at the heart of whatever work people do. No matter how people earn their living–building houses, selling cars, running offices or providing legal advice–the most important skill they will need in order to work successfully is the ability to communicate with other people. Communication, whether oral, written, or non-verbal, is what makes us human and makes us build relationships and carry out our daily work (Desmond, 1987). Though we take the act of communicating for granted, it involves people in a wide range of activities: speaking, listening, reading, writing, editing, proofreading, revising, smiling, nodding, frowning, studying pictures, diagrams and charts, using numbers instead of words.By using one or more of these communication skills, messages are passed from one person to another in order to run a business, school, factory, supermarket or bank.

The ability to communicate well requires more than the skills needed to take a telephone message, to write a letter or to sell an item to a customer. For example, people do not work entirely on their own. Instead, they rub shoulders with typists, clerks, machine operators, directors, colleagues (older or younger, senior or junior) etc. Also, in the course of their work, many people are given information which is secret, such as details of a new motor-car design, of plans to cut prices or of personal details of a member of staff.

The good communicator will, therefore, need to develop not only skills which will enable him or her to work alongside others, but also the personal qualities of tact and discretion so that confidences are not betrayed or feelings of others hurt in careless talk.

Language and Communication

At the heart of all communication is the need to use language effectively. Communication uses a range of 'languages', but in the world today, English in its spoken and written forms constitute two 'languages' which tend to spring to mind. Very often with friends, we tend to 'mumble' without feeling uncomfortable as long as our message gets through. A student writing his/her examination or a sales representative demonstrating a piece of office equipment to important potential customers is quite a different matter. Similarly, a business letter which gives a quotation for a large order will

be different from the jotted piece of information to a friend or room mate. The ability to use English accurately and in a tone and style best suited to a situation is one of the most important communication skills which students and workers need in certain environments. Moreover, when the success or failure of students or of a business depends so much on how well ideas are communicated, it is no wonder that lecturers and managers place so much importance on the ability to use English well.

Whether you are studying before taking up a first job, or whether you are already working, by reading this far you have taken the first most important step towards becoming a better communicator. In other words, you have demonstrated your desire to learn more about the art the art of communication. In fact, the key to your future success is to remember that the ability to communicate is not inborn, it must be learnt. Like anything worthwhile, however, it requires a good deal of determination and hard work, supported by regular practice. But, once acquired, such skills are never forgotten, and they will form a keystone to your future success in whatever career you choose to pursue.

Key Terms in the Communication Process

While you cannot learn every communication term at once, several key terms help you get started. They are the basic terms for understanding the process of communication.

Sender:	The sender initiates the communication.
Receiver:	The receiver is the target of communication.
Message:	The message is whatever the sender communicates to the receiver.
Channel:	The channel is the means used to transmit the message from sender to receiver.
Feedback:	Feedback is the response the sender gets from the receiver.
Interference:	Interference is anything that blocks or hinders the reception or intended message or the feedback.
Context:	Context is the time or place where communication occurs.

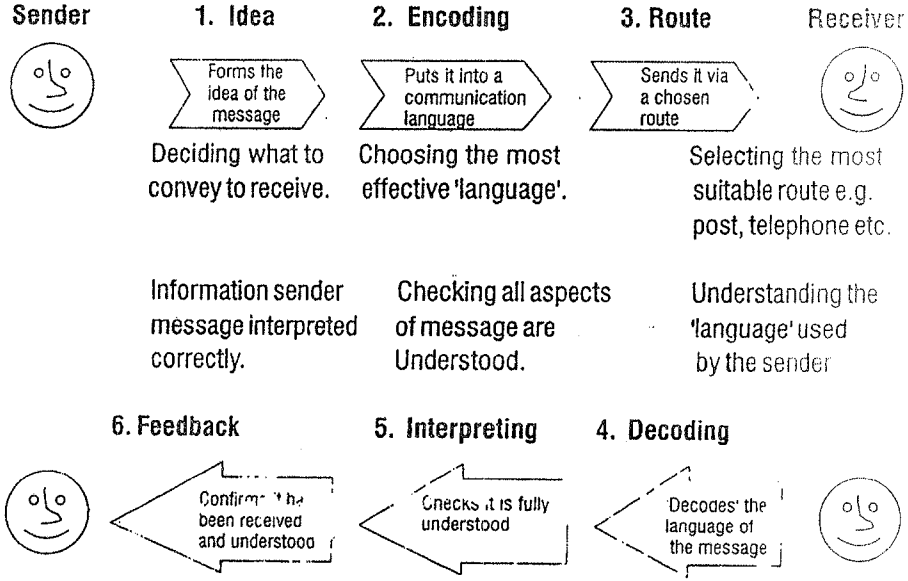
The above terms help us to understand and talk about any communication act.

The Communication Process

To be successful in a future career requires serious efforts. The process of communication is a complex one. There are traps and pitfalls to be avoided in making your way successfully through the maze of adult human relationship. For example, the

receptionist or secretary will certainly find it necessary to possess the skills needed to calm down an angry customer or visitor; the salesman will need some persuasive skills if he is to sell consistently. It is, therefore, important for us at this point to understand the process through which people communicate whether one-to-one, or in groups, whether across a room or over long distances. The diagram below shows this process.

What happens when a Message is Sent and Received?



(From Desmond, 1987)

All six stages must be carefully completed if the message is to be sent, received and acted upon successfully.

Explanation of Concepts

1. Idea

Before a sender can communicate an idea, he/she must first think clearly on these lines:

What, exactly, do I want to 'say'?
What am I trying to achieve?
What kind of person am I 'saying' it to?

Failure to pose such questions at the idea stage often results in thoughts being uttered which may cause embarrassment to both sender and receiver alike:

'Oh, I'm sorry! I didn't mean it to sound like that!'

Also, when ideas are not carefully formed, the message often becomes vague or ambiguous, so that the receiver is unable to understand it to act upon it.

2. Encoding

Having decided upon what message to send and why, the next stage is to select a communication language best suited to the nature of the message and the situation in which it is to be sent. The languages of communication may include the following:

i. The spoken word.
ii. The written and printed word.
iii. Non-verbal communication.
iv. Expression.
v. Number.
vi. Visual and pictorial communication: e.g. charts, graphs, films, photographs, etc.

The electronic revolution has provided us with a wide range of equipment for relaying messages in any of the following 'media' languages: Loudspeakers, telephones, intercoms, film cameras, videotaping equipment, printing presses, word processors, closed circuit television, computers, electronic accounting machines, over-head projectors, etc. There are, however, many pitfalls for the unwary communicator – some messages are best written, so that a record may be kept. Often a quiet spoken word will have the best results; a picture of graph convey instantly what minutes of talk fail to impart. Moreover, whatever language is chosen, it is absolutely essential that it is one which the receiver fully understands – otherwise the process of sending a message is bound to break down.

3. Route

Once the language of the message has been selected, it is necessary to choose the best route for sending it to the receiver. The spoken word may be routed through: face-to-face contact, telephone, intercom, loudspeaker, etc. The written word may be sent through: the postal service, telex, electronic message switching, magazine, journal, circular, etc. Similarly, graph, charts, diagrams or tables may be used to convey number communications.

Care is needed when choosing the route – the postal system may not work fast enough for an urgent message, and so a telephone-call, electronic mail or faxed message may prove more suitable. Similarly, the need to obtain immediate responses to suggestions may require a meeting using the spoken word rather than a series of memoranda to staff. Thus effectiveness is always the main yardstick in choosing a route, followed closely by cost and time.

4. Decoding

At this stage, responsibility for the message passes to the receiver. He must ensure that he/she understands the language used by the sender – it must be common to both of them. This may involve consulting a dictionary, checking on past records or confirming sets of figures. It may, also, involve the sharing or specialist knowledge or work experiences.

5. Interpreting

Not only must the receiver understand the language of the sender, he/she must also be sure that he/she uncovers any hidden meanings or underlying feelings or attitudes which the sender also convey, for example, annoyance and irritation about a situation. Such feelings have to be coped with in addition to supplying, say, a replacement of something.

6. Feedback

Lastly, the receiver must ensure that the sender is made aware of the success of his/her passing on of the message. With the spoken word, a nod or word of agreement may be all that is needed, but with the written word, an answering letter may need to be sent, or a telex message immediately despatched. From the sender's point of view, it is vital that confirming feedback is received; otherwise he will not know whether to proceed with the next part of the message, or whether the receiver is acting upon, for example, the instructions which have been sent to him/her.

From the above discussion, it seems clear that the process of communication is not as simple as we sometimes consider it to be.

CHAPTER TWO

STUDY SKILLS

In this chapter, you will be introduced to some basic study skills like Note-Taking, Note-Making, Outlining, Summarising and Using Abbreviations. These are skills that every undergraduate student requires to enhance his academic performance. The skills are also needed by those whose jobs require writing. Therefore, you will not only find them useful during your course, but also after the course when you are employed.

Taking Notes

A note is a record of the knowledge or information we acquire; and it helps us to get to the knowledge or information at a later time when we require it. For instance, in your lesson, you write down important issues mentioned by your lecturer so that any time you need that knowledge, especially during examinations; you can refer to that note.

Note-Taking and Note-Making

Differences

We can distinguish between note-taking and note-making even though both are very closely related. Note-taking is the faithful recording or writing down what one hears either during a lecture or during an interview. To do this. one needs to pay attention to the speaker so as to write down verbatim the important issues mentioned. Of course, the issues recorded as important vary from one person to another In other words. the recorder determines what he should write down

Note-making, involves selecting relevant points and recording them. Such relevant points may be got from a note that has been taken on a lecture, or from a page one has read. For instance, after recording a note on a lecture, you may decide to read relevant information from some other important sources. Then, you may now put the information you have got from the lecture and the one from the book together. When you sit down to write this, you are making notes.

Similarities

Both note-taking and note-making involve planning. However, not-making involves more planning? Why do you think this is so? It is because when you are taking notes from a lecture, for instance, you have very little time to think of planning. The lecturer

may talk at a rate at which you may you may not be able to plan. But when you are making notes, you do so in a very relaxed atmosphere, so you plan what to write and the order in which you should write it for easy study and recollection. Note-making also involves putting your own thoughts and observations together.

Features of Notes

A good note should be the one that reflects exactly what can be found at a source, that is, either from a book, lecture, etc. If the notes fail to represent the source, then it is a false one. That is, it is irrelevant and, therefore, unreliable.

A good note is that which must be readable and understandable. If the note is written, it is for a future use. If it is referred to later and cannot be deciphered by the writer, then its purpose cannot be realised. Therefore, it is imperative that we write notes that we can read and understand at any time that we need to use them. Is it necessary to write notes?

The Benefits of Note-Making

- Notes serve as a record of what we have studied. Can you readily mention all the courses or topics you have studied so far in the university? If you take your note book(s) you will see them all. This is because the notes serve as a historical record of your studies.
- Notes are very important in our academic work since they serve as a source of reference. The human mind is limited. It cannot store all the information that you require for our academic work. We may forget some but when we write notes on what we hear at lectures or read them, we shall always remember them.
- Notes also serve as a summary of what we have studied or read. Usually, notes are not as long as the information on what we get during lectures or read from books. Notes are far shorter. Therefore, without the notes, anytime we request information on what we have studied, we need to re-read the books we had read or go back to our lecturers for the same long, winding information. But if our notes are available, we can easily read them for the information we need without going to the source.
- Notes also aid comprehension of information. As we shall soon study, we write notes after we have understood them. Therefore, once we have notes on a lecture or book, information is in a language we can easily understand.

- Notes help us identify useful information and realise the relationship that exists among the pieces of information we have gathered. In making notes, we ensure that we select only relevant issues. We also arrange the information under sub-headings. By so doing, we can tell the relationship existing among the points.

Strategies for Making Notes

1. **Good Note-Making in General**

   Listen carefully to grasp the idea before you write.
   Keep notes brief.
   Keep notes organised.
   Use your own words as much as possible.
   Leave wide margins and spaces – to add notes later.

2. **Useful Note Writing Clues**

   Identify key words and main ideas.
   It is easier and better to write phrases – not sentences.
   Use abbreviations.
   Use short headings.
   Number your points.
   Make the page memorable – with colour, illustrations and so on.
   It is sometimes useful to link up points – using arrows, dotted lines,colour, numbers, boxes.
   Note exactly the sources of information.
   Write quotations in a different colour if possible.

3. **Strategies that do not help in Writing Notes**

   Copying chunks of words and phrases.
   Writing more notes than you can use again.
   Writing out notes several times to make them neater.

Shortcuts in Note-Making

Leave Space

Leave spaces in your notes, and wide margins, so that you can add new information and ideas later. (This is much quicker than rewriting your notes to incorporate the new information.)

Make Just One Set of Notes

Aim to have just one set of notes. Visual familiarity will make it easier to find information later, and to recall information during exams.

Use Labels

Carry Post-itlabels with you. When you have an idea, write it on a label and stick this on a blank sheet in a plastic folder. You can move the labels around as you plan assignments.

Number the Pages

Label and number the pages. Cross-refer to information already noted elsewhere, for instance, 'See red file, page 24, Amphibians'.

The Use of Abbreviations

- Abbreviations save time. Use them in your notes, but not in assignments.
- Work out a system you'll remember.
- Stick to your system.
- Introduce a few at a time, so that your notes make sense.
- Keep a 'key' to your abbreviation near you until you know them.

Useful common symbols		Useful common abbreviations	
& (+)	and	e.g.	for example
+	plus, in addition to	i.e.	that is, that means
>	greater/ more than/ better than	etc.	and the rest
<	smaller/ less than	NB	important, notice this
=	is the same as/ equal to	p.	page (pp. = pages)
	is not the same as	para.	paragraph
	because	Ch.	chapter (Chs. = chapters)
∴	therefore	edn	edition
w/	with	info.	information
	female	cd	could
	male	wd	would
→	this leads to/ produces/ causes	govt	government
		educ.	education
		impt.	important
		devt.	development
		C19	nineteenth century

Which abbreviations are used in your subject areas?
You may develop your own abbreviations

Taking Notes during Lectures

As an undergraduate student, you cannot just decide to get a professor to lecture you at any time you wish. There is a time schedule for you and the lecturer, within which time you are expected to listen to them as carefully as you can, for the information that they plan to pass on to you. Some fresh students get into their lecture theatres quite determined to listen and store the whole lecture in their brain. Some other students plan to record the whole lecture on tape. This is allowed only when a special permission is sought from the lecturer. In most cases, however, lectures are generally not recorded. Even when the recording is permitted, the part of the lecture that voice carries is far less than what actually goes on. That is why it is necessary to be able to take notes from lectures.

Taking good lecture notes is a complex task that involves listening carefully to all that the lecturer is saying, analysing and grasping the overall structure of the lecture, selecting the main ideas and distinguishing the important details of the lecture. It also involves the writing of a set of items or notes which you can use at a later time so as to bring the contents of the lecture back to mind. In writing notes for a lecture, the following note should be noted:

Types of Lecture

At this stage, of your course, you are aware of the fact that not all lectures have the same aim. Some lectures are intended to present ideas in the form of a reasoned argument while others offer various pieces of conflicting evidence and then draw a final conclusion. Thus, the student should try to decide at the onset which type of lecture they are listening to. In other words, the organisation of the notes may depend on the lecturer's purpose and method of presentation. How do you determine this purpose? This can be done by considering the nature of the topic of the lecture. For example, a lecture with the topic: "The Fall of the Ancient Ghana Empire" tells us that the presentation is likely to proceed from the issues that led to the demise of the empire. This will include an analysis of the causes.

Apart from the topic, the lecturer himself may mention, in his introduction what he intends to do. This may tell you how the lesson is likely to progress.

Selection of Items

There are no rules governing the volume of notes one should write during a lecture. However, it is not advisable to write down every word the lecturer says. Why do you

think this is so? For one thing, some lecturers speak very fast and so you cannot write everything they say. (Well, with shorthand some may be able to write the whole lecture.) Apart from that some lecturers are full of repetitions. The same idea may be explained or repeated in several other words, so if you write down everything, you may just waste your time. Moreover, you will also be too busy scribbling to listen carefully to the explanations that are being given by the lecturer.

In fact, try not to record the exact words of the lecturer at all, except when recording definitions, or when the lecturer uses a phrase that you consider to be particularly appropriate in a context.

Items to Consider

While the lecturer is speaking, you need to take note of two major items. These are the extra linguistic items and the linguistic items.

Extra Linguistic / Paralinguistic Items

The extra linguistic items refer to the things that the lecturer does apart from using words. These include the lecturer's cues like tone of voice, body language, gestures and so on. For instance, a lecturer may raise the tone of his voice because he regards a piece of information as very important. He may, also wear a frown for an unacceptable response from a students or smile when he is pleased with a comment he is making or one that is a contribution from his students. Thus, such extra linguistic items are important in helping you to select items that you want to write as notes. So, you see why it is not advisable to absent yourself from lectures?

Linguistic Items

The linguistic items refer to the use of words during the lecture.

1. To begin with, you need to take note of the key expressions of the lecturer. From time to time, he may summarise parts of his lectures orally, or write these summaries on the chalkboard. You must regard them as important and so note them.

2. There is also the use of signposts. These are statements which signal the beginning of a lecture. For instance, the lecturer may begin with introductory statements like:

   Today we are going to consider.....
   In this, lesson, now let's consider...
   In our lesson today, we shall study...

Such introductory statements guide you to what to expect in the lecture.

3. As the lecture progresses, the lecturer may use enumerators to guide you in taking notes. These enumerators are either cardinal numbers like, one, two, three, four, etc. or ordinals like, first, second(ly) third(ly), etc, for example.

First, we shall discuss...
Secondly, you will see that....
Thirdly, you will note that...

These enumerators guide you in keeping pace with the lecturer. They also help you to know the number of issues or points raised.

4. The lecturer may also use frames. These are statements which show the beginning and ending of topics and sub-topics. For example,

Let's now look at....
We shall now focus on....
Another way of looking at....
Let's now turn to....
In conclusion...

5. You must also pay attention to foci. These are statements which highlight and emphasise key points. Some examples are

It's important to note that....
Let me remind you that....
One very important reason for
Always remember that...

If a lecturer uses such foci, you must note that what he says is worth noting.

6. The lecturer may also use links. Links are utterances which join sections of the lecture together. Some important ones are

Thus, the solution to...
Nevertheless, one notes that....
Apart from the negative effects of....
On the other hand,.....
Therefore,.....
Consequently,.....
However, we must not forget that...

These are very important in guiding you in taking notes from a lecture.

Methods of Making Notes

Different methods of making notes are identified by scholars. These can be put into two broad groups.

(i) the diagrammatic notes.
(ii) the un-diagrammatic notes.

Diagrammatic Notes

The diagrammatic or formulaic notes are artistically patterned. The items in the notes are written in a particular order to aid understanding. Examples of these notes are the outline and spidergram.

Outline

An outline is a skeletal pattern or plan of a text. In the next session we shall discuss the outline in much detail.

Spidergram

A spidergram which is also referred to as nuclear notes is one that is similar to an outline. One needs to identify the various divisions and sub-divisions of the points stated under them. The diagram is presented in the form of a tree, with the main point at the centre. The divisions spread out with their sub-divisions.

Un-diagrammatic Notes

The un-diagrammatic notes are those taken in block form or in prose form. They are written with no fixed patterns as we may find in the outline for instance. Examples of these notes include the quotation, paraphrase, summary and the headline.

The Paraphrase

Closely related to the quotation is the paraphrase. This involves picking the ideas of an author and writing them in your own words.
If the paraphrase is briefly stated then it becomes a summary. We shall look at the summary later.

The Headline

The headline form records sections of the passage or information in the form of headings as is done in newspapers.

MANAGING YOUR TIME FOR ACADEMIC WORK

Another important study skill is time management. Good time management is essential to success at university. Planning your time allows you to spread your work over a semester, avoid a 'traffic jam' of work, and cope with study stress. Many deadlines for university work occur at the same time, and unless you plan ahead, you'll find it impossible to manage. To meet the demands of study you need to spread your workload over a semester. Work out what needs to be done and when. Work out how to use your available time as efficiently as possible.

Major Steps

A. The first step to good time management is to **prioritise your tasks.** In other words, deciding which task is most important and should be completed first. For example, in a choice between reading for an essay due in four weeks and preparing for an oral presentation in two weeks, choose to prepare for the oral presentation.

B. To prioritise successfully, you must **develop weekly and long term time management plans.** Many students find long, medium and short term planning useful for organising their study as effectively as possible. Planning ahead saves time, worry and energy.

How to Make Time Management Easy

(i) **Complete small tasks straight away** rather than putting them off. This will encourage you to begin tackling larger tasks needing attention.

(ii) **Break difficult or 'boring' work into sections.** This allows you to approach a large task as a series of manageable parts.

(iii) **Don't try to write a whole assignment in one sitting.** Write it section by section.

(iv) If you have a 'writer's block' try writing something-anything daily.

Long and Short-Term Planning

1. Long-Term Planning

Use a Yearly Planner/Semester Planner

When you place a yearly/semester planner on your wall or by your desk it **helps you to plan your work over a semester** and **reminds you about deadlines** and upcoming commitments. You may do the following:

a. Place the planner in a position where you have easy access to it.
b. Write in the dates assignments are due and exams are scheduled.
c. Work out how long you will need to complete each task. Allow yourself plenty of time.
d. Remember to allow for extra workload. If you have several assignments due at the same time, you will need to begin each task even earlier than usual.
e. Set start dates for each task. Write them on your planner. Draw lines back from the due dates to 'start' dates. Use different colour pens for different subjects, assignments or exams. Doing this will give you a graphical indication of how much time you have to complete tasks and cue you to start them.

2. Short-Time Plans

Use Time Slots Wisely: Students often think they have 'no time' to study, but many of them think of study time in terms of 3 hours or more. While long time slots are necessary, medium and short time slots can be used just as effectively. A well-used 15 minutes is more effective than a wasted 3 hours.

Different periods of time suit different activities. For instance one hour or less is useful for:

(i) reviewing lecture notes.
(ii) completing short readings.
(iii) previewing long readings.
(iv) doing problems.
(v) revising for exams.
(vi) jotting down essay plans.
(vii) proofreading an assignment.

3. Medium Time Plans

One to three hours is a good time for more concentrated study. Medium periods can be used for:

(i) more detailed note-reviewing.
(ii) reading for courses/ assignments.
(iii) taking notes from readings.
(iv) drafting/editing an assignment.
(v) revising for exams.

4. **Long Time Plans**

More than three hours can be set aside for:

(i) working on an assignment.
(ii) completing an extensive amount of reading.
(iii) doing research for assignments.
(iv) revising for exams.

During medium and long time periods, divide study time up into one hour sections and take breaks. Try not to study for longer than an hour at a time, as concentration begins to weaken.

Fill in all **the Main Demands on your Time:**

- Units/ lectures and tutorials.
- Hours of work (if you have a part-time job).
- Any regular sport or leisure commitments.
- Mealtimes and regular family commitments.
- Sleep times.

When you have written in the main demands on your time, look at the blank time slots left. This will help you work out how many hours a week you actually have for study.

Next, plan time slots to use for un-related work. Fill in times that could be used as study periods including short, medium and long time slots.

Common Things that Waste our Time

a. Feeling so overwhelmed and anxious about your workload that you 'freeze', put things off and don't get anything done.

Solution

1. **Get started.** Actually starting a task reduces your anxiety about it.
2. **Set priorities.** List all the tasks you have to do in order of importance and urgency, and work through them one at a time.

b. Putting off starting a task because it feels so overwhelming or difficult that you can't face it.

Solution

Break up the workload into small chunks.

This is a very effective strategy. Break up work into as many small, achievable tasks as you can. Then when you sit down to study, you are not facing a huge, daunting pile of work, but one small task.

Complete a 'chunk' every study period. It might be a task or a period of revision. Take a break after completing a 'chunk'. If it's something you've really been dreading, reward yourself when you've done it!

c. Putting off starting a task because you are 'busy' with other things (even though you know you should be studying).

Solution

Feeling that you 'must' complete irrelevant tasks or do lots of 'preparation' before you can start studying is a classic procrastination tactic.

1. **Get started.** If you're anxious about a particular task, starting it can be the first step to reducing that anxiety. Don't put it off - even if you simply jot down a plan about how you will proceed further, at least you've begun.
2. **Set study goals** and vary your study techniques. Try 'chunking' your work (see above) and don't forget your reward.
3. **Make a 'to do' list.** Make a list of what you have to do in order of priority. For example, if an assignment is due next week, then it goes to the top of your 'to do' list.
4. **Be conscious of what you're doing.** If working on an assignment is at the top of your list and you catch yourself just popping out to wash the car — stop yourself and ask: "Why am I doing this now? I'll do it after I've reached my study goal."

d. Putting off starting a task because you won't be able to produce a 'perfect' result.

Solution

Instead of perfection, aim for reasonable results. Rather than aiming for a masterpiece each time, it's better to produce something - and pass - than to put it off for so long that you produce nothing at all.

If you're concerned that you won't manage to produce reasonable results, it's time to get a little help. Consult with your lecturer/ tutor or make an appointment with a Writing

Assistant. Don't be afraid to ask for advice - knowing when and where to find help when you need it is part of taking control of your studies.

e. Daydreaming or 'drifting off'.

Solution

Check your energy level and concentration.

- Take a short break or a little exercise every hour.
- Open a window and walk around.
- Make sure you are well-fed and watered - drink plenty of fluids and don't skip meals. Dehydration and low blood sugar will do nothing for your concentration.
- If you drift off, try visualising a red stop light. Hold that image for a few seconds, then switch to a green light and go back to work.

f. The 'Too Hard' Basket: deciding that "I didn't want to do this course / study / unit anyway!"

Solution

Students do change their minds about their studies. They may feel they have taken the wrong path, or that their talents lie elsewhere. However, changing courses should be rational decision, not a reaction made out of frustration because the work is 'too hard'.

1. **Re-examine your motives** for studying.
2. **Ask for advice.** Discuss difficulties with your tutor or lecturer. Seek support from student services like The Learning Centre. Ask advice from the Counseling Service and the Careers Service. Don't just "throw in the towel!" Before making any changes, be sure about what it is you really want.
3. **Use the 'balance sheet method':**
   - On a piece of paper, write down all the benefits of getting an item done.
   - On the other side of the page, write down all the reasons you can't get it done or have been putting it off.

This activity can help you to define exactly what has been stopping you working. It's likely you'll have a list of benefits (starting with 'relief that the task is finished!') and a few reasons (such as "I really don't understand this assignment") you can then challenge yourself to sort out.

Factors to Consider When Planning Your Time

1. Be Flexible

Some weeks will be busier than others, and unforeseen things can happen. Remember that a timetable is only a plan or a guide. You don't have to follow it religiously every week, but try to stick to your plan as best you can. If you plan a study time slot and miss it, don't panic - look at the schedule and rearrange your time.

2. Be Realistic

A great deal of time management is really about taking responsibility for your work. Therefore you need to be realistic about your time. Be aware of how much time you have and manage it effectively.

Be realistic about the amount of time used to study and complete assignments. Different tasks require different amounts of preparation time. For example, you might only need a few hours to prepare for a tutorial, but writing an assignment will take significantly longer.

You can't produce well-researched and written work unless you give yourself enough time to think, research and write. Brilliant assignments are not produced the night before, so start them in good time.

3. Over Commitment

Before you undertake study, you need to realistically assess all the demands on your time. Consider:

- paid employment.
- family obligations.
- domestic duties.
- sport, leisure or civic commitments.

Good time management won't help if you are overcommitted. If, for example, you study full time, spend more than 12 hours per week in paid employment and spend every evening in the gym, you won't have much time left to study. If you suspect you might have taken on too much, reassess your commitments, prioritise and compromise.

4. Seeking Help

It's easy to procrastinate when you experience difficulties with an assignment, but putting off starting only means you will have less time to work on it. If you miss an

assignment deadline, you will lose marks. So, if you think you need some assistance, ask for it. Remember, good time,management includes good self-management. Talk to your tutor about difficult assignments, or visit services like The Learning Centre or The Counselling service. Don't put off seeking advice - the longer you wait, the more anxious you'll feel.

Some **Useful Suggestions to Students**

Some of the following comments from university students at the end of their first year discuss issues of study and time that might sound familiar (Field, Gilchrist & Gray, 1989). The comments are about two areas: planning ahead without getting obsessed about it, and developing effective habits for dealing with worry and stress.

Planning Ahead Without going Overboard:

"Compared to school, it's not that the work is harder, it's just that it's more detailed and therefore more time-consuming ..."

"Instead of procrastinating, start thinking about the assignment right away so that you're the first one to get to the books. Most importantly, if you get a good start on an assignment you allow yourself enough time to deal with any unexpected problems ..."

Effective Habits for Dealing with Stress:

"Having some fun or relaxation on the weekend gives me enough strength to regain my sanity to start another week ..."

"Even though I'm not finding everything awful or the workload too great, I get anxious sometimes. Last week, for example, I was sick and didn't get half as much done as I had planned. So I have more to do this week. I'm finding right now that I can't get all my reading done. So I just have to read what is most important, as I know I can't possibly read every single thing ..."

CHAPTER THREE

READING SKILLS

There is a common assumption that all kinds of reading materials should be read in similar ways. Do you think this is appropriate? Is that the way you read all materials that you come across? In fact experienced readers approach different reading materials differently. Why do you think this is so? It is probably because of the purpose for which you are reading both materials. Thus, we need to adopt different reading styles in response to different reading materials. In this chapter, we shall consider some reading styles and some bad reading habits that we form.

Reading Styles

Considering the kinds of material we read as mentioned above, we can identify three major reading styles. These are skimming, scanning and close reading. Let's study them

Skimming

Skimming is a kind of fast or speed reading which involves reading quickly in order to get the gist of a reading material or passage. It is sometimes done to locate a specific section. By skimming, one does not pay attention to individual words, figures and phrases but rather seeks general information or ideas. For instance, if you want to skim a chapter of a book you may quickly look at items like:

(i) The heading of the passage: This is to give you an idea about what the passage is on.

(ii) The sub topics : If there are any sub-topics, or sub-headings, they may throw light on the information contained in various sections of the chapter or passage.

(iii) Topic sentences : The topic sentences are sentences which contain the controlling ideas of each paragraph. When you glance quickly through them, you may get an idea about the message of the chapter.

(iv) Illustrations and diagrams: If there are any illustrations or diagrams they may give you hints about the information in the chapter.

(v) Highlighted words and expressions: There are words and expressions that have been given some emphasis by the author and are written in italics, capitals or underlined. A quick glance at them will give you some idea about what you are about to read.

Which materials do you usually skim? Sometimes, you may skim through newspapers or stories. It is also useful to skim through books before you do a thorough reading for making notes. Even before you go in for a lecture, it is useful to skim through the chapter that is about to be taught. This would enhance your understanding. Can you think of any other way skimming can be used? Let us skim through this passage in two minutes.

Nowadays people travel swiftly all over the world, and goods are sent from one country to another across thousands of kilometres of sea. But at one time this was not so. People lived in their own towns and villages, grew their own food, made what furniture and clothes and buildings they needed, and often knew very little about other towns and villages. Perhaps the only time they travelled away from their own homes was to fight against other people.

There have always been men who wanted to travel, however, even if out of curiosity to see what other countries were like. And men soon began to carry goods for short distances between their homes, or from one village to the next. Before wheels were invented, the usual way of travelling and taking anything anywhere by land was to walk. Even after wheels were invented, roads were needed for the wheels to go on, so people still went on walking wherever there were no roads. Some of the footpaths which you see everywhere will have been there for many hundreds of years.

When men wanted to carry anything, in some countries they carried it on their heads, as they still do today. Sometimes they carried loads over their shoulders, or perhaps pulled them on boards or pieces of wood which slid along the ground.

There were two other ways of travelling about without using wheels. One was by sitting on animals, and in the parts of Ghana where the tsetse fly is not common people still ride on horses, and sometimes they use donkeys for taking goods. The other form of transport was by water, and where there were rivers which were not too swift, men have always travelled in some kind of canoe or other type of boat. Quite heavy loads can be carried in larger canoes – much heavier than men could carry on their heads or on animals.

Nowadays, of course, most of our transport is on wheels. First of all the railways were important, and our first one was from Sekondi to Tarkwa, and then to Kumasi. Later, Kumasi was joined with Accra, and the Central Province Railway, with its extension to Kotoku, links Accra with Tarkwa and Takoradi.

Railways can carry very large quantities of goods and many people on one train, but they are now much less important than roads in our transport system. Roads cost less to build, and thousands of cars and lorries can travel on them. There are in any case no railways north of Kumasi, but there are over 32,000 kilometres of roads throughout Ghana, compared with only about 1280 kilometres of railways.

Lorries and buses of all shapes and sizes carry goods and people everywhere, both on the smooth trunk roads and on the second and third class roads. Looking after the roads is a costly task because of the damage done during the rainy season, but without our roads it would be difficult indeed to carry the goods we need all over the country.

Water transport is still used in some places, but not as much as at one time. It is hoped that more and more people will use Lake Volta as a quick and easy way of travelling and carrying goods between the very many places on its shores.

The newest form of transport, both within Ghana and between Ghana and other countries, is by air. Aircraft carry passengers between Accra, Takoradi, Kumasi and Tamale. Aircraft from other countries use Kotoka International Airport, from where people can fly all over the world.

Because we have no natural harbours, and a sea coast only to the south of the country, there is little sea transport between places in Ghana. But of course at Tema and Takoradi ships from other nations can be seen, bringing goods and people from overseas and taking our exports to other countries. Takoradi exports our timber and Tema exports our cocoa, but both ports handle many other types of goods

When you think of the numbers of people and the quantity of goods which move about the country and the world all the time, try to imagine how different life would be without these many forms of transport.
(Continuation English. Book 2.)

Scanning

Scanning is a good method of speed reading. It implies glancing speedily over a text to locate specific information. For instance, if you are interested in finding a name on a list, or getting a specific answer to a question, or getting a figure from a passage, scanning is the method of reading to use.

Scanning operates on the following principles:

a. The reader must have an idea about the item he is looking for
b. The reader must focus on only one or two items at a time. It is useful scanning for several items at the same time;
c. The information that the reader is looking for must be a short one. That is either figures, words or expressions
d. The reader does not need to read the whole passage. He may skim some parts, skip others and pay attention to some parts.

Now scan the passage above.

Close Reading

Close reading is not a speed-reading method as we saw in skimming and scanning. As the name implies, it is the kind of reading done when the reader's aim is to examine a text carefully. It enables the reader to get the full meaning of the text. By so doing it takes more time than skimming and scanning. Every aspect of the text including the spelling and meaning of the words, sentence structure, punctuation and capitalization, as well as everything that goes to give meaning to the text carefully considered. At the end, it is sometimes possible for the reader to remember parts of the passage, or all the major issues raised in the passage for analysis. Let us read some passages closely.

Read the following passage closely and explain it to your mates.

Not only do our homes shelter and protect us, but they also provide us with somewhere for rest, sleep, meals, relaxation, conversation, family meetings, and other activities of a happy and comfortable life. Just as birds have nests, and wild animals have dens or lairs, so men also have homes.

From the very earliest times people made homes or shelters of some sort. At first they lived in caves or trees tops, or in huts on the ground or above lakes. Their huts were built with branches, leaves and bush strings. Some used mats which they plaited, and thatch or wattle and daub for the walls.

Gradually men have learnt to make better buildings with walls of mud, stone, bricks, cement blocks, and even metal. Now there are roofs made of metal sheets, slate, shingles, concrete, felt, and even glass. People who move about, such as soldiers or scouts, sometimes put up tents which give them temporary shelter. And there are still simple buildings of mud or stone and thatch, which provide good shelter.

Building a house is a very interesting activity, involving many people. Can you think of the different workmen, industries, materials and processes that may be involved?

Anyone who wishes to build a house must of course first have the money to pay for it. Next he must have a plot of land and an approved building plan. This shows details of the land and the surrounding areas, and the working drawings for the house itself. A building plan prepared by a qualified licensed draughtsman shows the front view, the ground plan, the end view, and other views, together withal measurements. It also gives details of the materials to be used. This plan has to conform to the various building regulations of the Government and other bodies.

Because of his qualifications the draughtsman knows these regulations and follows them strictly. Some of them are concerned with the sizes and positions of the rooms of the building. Other regulations concern sanitation, lighting and ventilation.

Both the Medical Officer of Health and the District Engineer of the local area have to approve the building plan, and then a Tax Clearance Certificate has to be issued by the Central Revenue Department before the owner can start the actual building.

Even then the local Building Inspector has to make sure that the builders start in exactly the right place. This is called the 'building line'. When they dig the holes for the foundations of the house he must see them, and he must approve of the mixtures of concrete and other materials which they use. From time to time he inspects different stages of the work and ensures that the regulations are being followed. The laws about the building of houses are strict and have to be obeyed, otherwise the building must be pulled down. Why do you think this is?

Quite a large number of different workmen build a house. Engineers, draughtsmen (both men and women), masons, carpenters, bricklayers, thatches, plumbers, electricians, painters and cabinet makers are among the many who may take part.

Many different items, too, go to make a house. Builders may use bricks stone or sandcrete blocks, cement, sand, concrete, stones, water and scaffolding. They may also use metal, wood, roofing sheets, asbestos, plywood, pipes, paint, cables, glass, screws, nails, bolts, hinges and locks. And of course the various workmen use their special tools and machines in doing their specialized work.

Think what part each of the workmen already mentioned plays in the building process. What tools, machines and materials does each of them use? How does each one do his work? Which job interests you most, and why?

Of course, houses are not the only kind of buildings. In our villages, towns and cities we find all sorts of special buildings such as factories, shops, warehouse, garages, power houses, places of worship, schools, offices, prisons, hospitals and court houses. Think also of cinemas, restaurants, markets, stadiums, museums, libraries, and many others.

(Continuation English. Book 2.)

Read the following passage closely and answer the questions based on it.

The earth contains a large number of metals which are useful to man. One of the most important of these is iron. Modern industry needs ***considerable*** *quantities of this metal, either in the form of iron or in the form of steel.*

A certain number of non-ferrous metals, including aluminium and zinc, are also important, but even today a majority of our engineering products are of iron or steel.

Moreover, iron possesses magnetic ***properties****, which have made the development of electrical power possible.*

The iron ore, which we find in the earth, is not pure. It contains some impurities ***which we must remove by smelting.*** *The process of smelting consists of heating the ore in a blast furnace with coke and limestone and reducing it to metal. Blasts of hot air enter the furnace from the bottom and provide the oxygen which is necessary for the reduction of the ore. The ore become molten, and its oxides combine with carbon from the coke. The non-metallic* ***constituents*** *of the ore combine with the limestone to form a liquid slag. This floats on top of the molten iron, and passes out of the furnace through a tap. The metal, which remains, is pig iron.*

We can melt this down again in another furnace – a cupola – with more coke and limestone, and tap it out into a ladle or directly into moulds. This is cast iron. Cast iron does not have the strength of steel. ***It is brittle and may fracture under tension.*** *But is possesses certain properties which make it very useful, in the manufacture of machinery. In the molten state it is very fluid, and, therefore, it is easy to cast it into* ***intricate*** *shapes. Furthermore, it is very easy to machine it. Cast iron contains small proportions of other substances. These non-metallic constituents of cast iron include carbon, silicon, and sulphur, and the presence of these substances affects the behaviour of the metal. Iron which contains a* ***negligible*** *quantity of carbon, for example, wrought iron, behaves differently from iron which contains a lot of carbon.*
(WAEC, 2000)

(a) *Name two metals, mentioned in the passage, which do not contain iron.*
(b) *In* ***four*** *words, one for each, mention the* ***four*** *things necessary to the process of converting iron ore into pig iron.*
(c) *Give two properties of cast iron which, according to the writer, make it very useful in the manufacture of machinery.*
(d) *Put the Italicised sentenced into your own words.*
(e) (i) *Give the grammatical name for the expression 'which we must remove by smelting';*
(ii) *What is its function?*
(f) *For each of the following, find a single word or phrase that can replace it in the passage:*
(i) *considerable*
(ii) *properties*
(iii) *consists of*

(iv) *constituents*
(v) *intricate*
(vi) *negligible*

Close reading is the technique a good student should adopt in reading reference books and notes. Used this way, it enables the student to acquire certain useful vocabulary and expressions that he/she can use in connection with his subject.

Close reading can be considered in two forms depending on the reader's concentration and memorization of facts in the text. There are also Intensive and Extensive Reading habits.

Extensive Reading

Extensive reading as the term implies, refers to reading widely with the purpose of getting information to enrich your personal knowledge. It is not scholarly to concentrate on only your notes or just some particular reference books. One needs to read journals that give information that the individual needs. For instance, as an Arts student you need some knowledge about science or on economics and, of course, general knowledge about the world around you. Without these, you may be narrow minded. The reading that one does to get this knowledge is referred to as Extensive Reading. Do you read extensively? What materials do you normally read? That is good.

You may note, however, that extensive reading does not involve as much concentration as you read your notes for examinations. On the other hand, it is, sometimes, done in a more serious manner than skimming and scanning. The concentration depends on the kind of information and the interest you have in it. For example, you may be interested in a passage because it deals with a health problem that is very common these days. Knowing about it will help you to protect yourself and help other people around you to do the same.

Intensive Reading

Intensive reading is the close reading that is undertaken for academic or for professional work. Intensive reading is the one we do for examination or as teachers when we intend to teach the information to students. It, therefore, requires more concentration than we may do in Extensive reading because failure to note certain issues in the reading is likely to create problems. For example, you are likely to answer your examination questions wrongly. Similarly, if a teacher does not read his information closely for teaching, he will end up deceiving not only one student but all his students together with other people who will be at the receiving ends of the students.

NEGATIVE READING HABITS,

Vocalization and Subvocalization

Vocalization and subvocalization are reading faults that refer to pronouncing words based on the lips or using a pointer to pick out words. They are the outward signs of reading word-for-word. When you read word-for-word your reading will be very slow and this makes understanding rather difficult.

Do you read that way? Some people do because they want to impress other people. That is why it is very common for children who wish to impress their parents or teachers. You vocalize words you are reading only when your purpose is to give yourself some training in pronunciation or when you are reading for other people to hear.

Fixation or Fixity Gaze

Fixation or fixity gaze comes close to subvocalization. It is also a process of reading word-for-word. Here you fix your eye on a word at a time. It is entirely unnecessary to fix each individual word with the eye because we read for meaning but not for words. Fixation or fixity gaze is often the result of a long-standing habit of reading aloud in class. When we have passed the elementary stage, we read to encourage ourselves to read silently and faster.

To be able to read faster we should make a quick sweep of a line with our eyes by taking in groups of words at a time. This is because ideas in a sentence are organized in groups of words. Look at the way the following text is grouped into meaningful segments

The ability/to select/important notes/and to paraphrase/is essential/for effective note-taking/in many cases/ all you need/to note down/is the controlling idea/in each paragraph.

Thus, if we train ourselves to read a text by fixing our eyes on a group rather than the single words, we are likely to read faster than our usual speed.

Regression

Regression is a reading habit which refers to the practice of reading and going back immediately to read what we have already read. Sometimes we do this probably to get the pronunciation of a difficult word right in our mind. It may also be because we have failed to understand what we have read. What do you think causes this? It may be due to inattention. If one has a divided attention, poor reading posture or is under some psychological stress, regression may occur frequently and this slows down our reading.

When you come across a word with a 'difficult' form, you should not stop but you should carry on with your reading task. In a long text the word may recur. Even if it does not, you can always look it up in a dictionary after the reading task is done.

Regression, however, permissible if you, do not understand what you are reading. For it is better in the long run to regress a few sentences or even a paragraph to gain understanding rather than read without understanding or delay understanding. This is because delaying understanding may force us to re-read a whole chapter which is longer than re-reading a paragraph.

FASTER READING

We must note that faster reading is never an end in itself. It only makes it possible for us to read as much as is expected of us. What's more important is for us to adjust our speed to the text we are reading. Reading at a constant speed is not a good habit because not all texts are the same. Some texts are more difficult than others and some contain more facts than others. Good readers vary their reading speed to suit the level of difficulty of a text. If a text is easy to understand, we need to read it fast. On the hand a difficult text should be read fairly slowly. This implies that even within the same text some portions may be read faster than others. Let us read the two passages under close reading again. Which should be read faster ?

The SQR3 Approach

A popular reading approach is the **SQR3** reading strategy. Let us study it to help us in our studies. SQ3R is an abbreviation that can be interpreted as follow:

S - Survey
Q - Question
R - Read
R - Recall
R - Review

It is a very useful method of approaching a passage such as a chapter of a book which you will want to study or master. We shall study the abbreviation 'survey'.

Survey

The survey constitutes the first stage of the reading approach. This stage is like the skimming process which we discussed. The purpose is to find out whether the book or piece of material will be useful for your purpose, before you begin to do a close reading. To survey a book you consider the following:

Title
Author
Date of first publication and the present edition
Preface and introduction
Content page
Chapter headings and sub-headings
Index

The Title

The title of a book is the item that first strikes you about it. It gives you a hint about the subject area of the book, whether it is science, economics, religion etc. It also gives a hint on what it is likely to be discussing. Consider the following titles.

1. The study of language
2. A course in Oral English

Can you guess what the books bearing the above titles will be talking about?

Author(s)

Having studied the title of the book, it is necessary to look at the author(s) or editors. You may be probably interested in the work of a particular author. Even if you know the title of his book it may happen that other writers have written using the same title. Therefore, you must look at the author to be sure he is the one whose work you are looking for. If you are not looking for any particular author you may consider authors who are authorities in the subject area you are dealing with.

Can you remember some great authors in your courses? Mention some of them.

Date of First publication: This information will help you to know whether the information in the book is current or not.

Question: Before you start reading the book you need to put down some questions that you hope to get answers to . These questions actually guide you while you read.

Read: Here you do the reading. Usually silent reading with sober reflection helps your understanding of what you read.

Recall: You need to use a few strategies to help you remember what you have read. No leaning takes place when you cannot remember what you read.

Review: You need to read over your facts from time to time. As you read, you make changes in the text according to new information that you discover in your studies or research.

Let us look at some important comprehension strategies.

Comprehension Skills

To understand a passage well, one needs to have a wide stock of vocabulary. This is because it is in words that you get the meaning of a passage. In other words, we communicate mostly by the use of words; so if you are not able to understand the words that make up the expressions, (phrases, clauses, sentences, etc) you will find comprehension rather boring, if not difficult. It is just like listening to someone speaking a 'foreign' language to you.

The passages that are set for various examinations are selected according to the students' ability. We, therefore, do not have to be scared if we are to do comprehension exercises. However, one problem with the exercises sometimes is that some words or terms are brought into the passage and students are asked to give their meanings according to the way the words/expressions are used in the passage. Such words/ expressions are used in a way as to make their meaning recoverable from context. We shall see how to do this.

Meanings of Words in Context

Suppose your friend asks you what 'cumulative' or 'exotic' means, or if your younger brother looks up from a book and asks you if you know what 'grotesque' or 'dyslexia' means, you would not be able to answer their questions unless the words are well known to you. However, most of the words you encounter will not be isolated; instead you will find them surrounded by many other words, and are used in specific situations that will help you guess their meaning. The whole situation in which a word is found is termed as its ***context***. There are two types of context. These are (a) *verbal context* which refers to the other words in the sentence or phrase, and (b) ***physical context*** which is the circumstances in which the word is used.

By paying careful attention to the context of a word, it is often easy to guess its meaning fairly accurately. We shall look at each of these contexts more closely.

(1) Verbal Context

The words which go with the new word usually provide a lot of 'context clues' to its meaning. Look at these examples:

(a) The dust particles ***gravitated*** slowly to the bottom of the pool.
(b) ***Adventure*** implies excitement and danger.

In the first example the verbal context clues ('the dust particles', 'to the bottom of the pool') tell us that 'gravitated' must certainly refer to the movement of quite heavy objects

in water. It is, therefore, not hard to us to think of what particles will naturally do in a pool of water and so guess the meaning of ***gravitated*** – something like 'to move slowly downward.

Likewise in the second example, it is not difficult for us to think of the possible meaning of *adventure* because of the other words, 'excitement' and 'danger'. Sometimes a word may have more than one meaning; it is the context clues that must help you to arrive at the meaning the writer expects you to have. Look at this example:

Bills relating to taxation must originate in the House of Representatives.

In this example the verbal context clues (relating to taxation, House of Representatives) tell us that that 'bills' must certainly refer to law or legislative acts and not some other meaning to the word such as 'part of the head of a bird' or 'a statement of debt'. Look at another example:

Many of the students ***bombed*** the examination.

The context clues – ***students, examination*** imply that the word 'bombed' is not talking of that weapon atomic or hydrogen bomb) but rather an exam.

Sometimes, of course, the other words surrounding the unfamiliar word may mislead or even deepen our puzzlement. In this case, look further. Frequently, the context clues missing in the sentence are contained in the paragraph. Let us look at the following two paragraphs. Do not look up the meanings of the bolded/italicised words but rather try to guess their meaning from the verbal clues given.

The folk-tale started with only narration by skilful storytellers on moonlit nights. It was usually told at a time when everyone had returned from the day's labour and was resting. In fact, it was expected to provide ***respite****, not only for the young ones, but also for adults. The belief of our forefathers was that one could* ***infuse*** *aspects of* ***morality*** *into stories so as to condemn evil and recommend good. Since stories are hardly forgotten, more so when they are interesting and probably accompanied by songs. The folk-tale was regarded as an easy way of* ***imparting*** *moral to the members of the society. It was also used as an effective means of* ***modelling*** *the behaviour of the people, an important means of social control.*

The folk-tale might be in the form of a myth or legend but usually the story must be modelled in such a way as to create in the minds of the listener the fear of the unknown as a means of checking the excesses of man. The tale, in this sense, will succeed in enforcing the norms of a traditional society.

The story always ends with a warning to the audience to be careful because they may be faced with a similar situation. This warning may help immensely in the awakening in the individual, the desire to improve by leaning from other mistakes.

Exercise 1

Number your paper 1 – 8 along the left margin. After each number, copy the underlined word in each of the following sentences. Then examine the context clues, and write down what you think the word means. You may check your answers in your dictionary after you have finished the exercise. **Example:**

Mr. Duvor is an ***affluent*** man but his cousin is unfortunately poor.
(affluent - – rich.)

Exercise 1

1. This word is ***ambiguous***; it can have two meanings.
2. They wanted ***remuneration*** in money or gifts; their only reward would be the knowledge that they had saved the child.
3. The ***epitaph*** on his tombstone was brief: 'Here lies one who died for his country'.
4. The trapped animal struggled for hours but could not ***extricate*** itself from the snare.
5. After a cursory examination of only a minute or so, the doctor said that the child probably had not been seriously hurt.

Exercise 2

1. Because of the ***devastating*** nature of any outbreak of fire, nobody purposely starts one except with intent to destroy another.
2. The men ***darted*** in and out of the nearby houses and shops, rescuing things and taking them to safer spots, from being destroyed by fire.
3. After what seemed to the impatient children an ***interminable*** time, the boring hour came to an end.
4. He was suffering from ***insomnia***, and the doctor gave him some sleeping tablets.
5. Although she profited greatly by the action, the queen could not ***condone*** the murder of the baron.
6. They were evidently at a loss but were all the same holding themselves admirably well, trying to look like men of ***integrity***.

You may go over the exercise again and see how the context clues have helped you.

(2) Kind of Context Clues

There are various kinds of context clues but three are particularly useful, clear and helpful. Writers are often aware that some of their words may not be immediately clear to all of their readers, and they ensure complete understanding by adding little definitions or shorter synonyms. Usually these little definitions or synonyms are preceded by 'or'. A writer may put down:

A country may become ***affluent*** or ***rich***

or something similar. Other times wordings like: ***that is***, or, ***in other words***, etc are used. A person writing about dyslexia may say:

'Dyslexia...is a mysterious condition which prevents children from learning to read.'

Sometimes these explanations are made by the use of appositive or appositive phrases. (An appositive is a noun or pronoun that follows another noun or pronoun to identify or explain it.) Example:

My older brother ***Wisdom*** is thirty-five.

The appositive is italicised. An appositive phrase is made up of an appositive and its modifiers. Example:

A good all-round athlete, this boy is a promising candidate for the decathlon, ***the Olympic event that tests ten different skills.***

Elizabeth, ***our newest classmate***, comes from Elmina, ***a town near Cape Coast.***

(Appositive phrases italicised). Appositives that define are often punctuated with commas, as in the sentence:

'The opprobrium, ***and the deep public disgrace***, of his treason stayed with him all the years of his life.'

Here the word 'opprobrium' is made clear by the appositive, 'the deep public disgrace.' Look at these other examples.

1. The others questioned the ***veracity*** – the truthfulness of these reports.
2. Officially these assassins were viewed as ***regicides***, as murderers of their king.
3. She gave us the most ***succinct***, or brief answers that she possibly could.
4. These medical students have decided to become ***paediatricians***; that is, doctors specialising in the care and diseases of children.

(3) Physical Context

To know the actual circumstances surrounding the use of a word is its ***physical context***. it is often essential to distinguish between two meanings of the same word. Take the word 'foul' for instance; if you are watching a baseball game, the word ***foul*** means one thing; if the game is basketball, it means something else. Similarly, the word 'coach' means different things at the railway station and at a gymnasium.

So far, we have been discussing words in context, or how to get meanings of words in context. Both kinds of contexts – verbal and physical – should be carefully noted, for both help to discover the meaning of unfamiliar words.

CHAPTER FOUR

NOTE-MAKING – THE OUTLINE

An outline is a major tool for effective studies and good communication. It is a skeletal pattern or plan of a text.

An outline must indicate not only the detailed component ideas of a communication but also how they relate to one another. In effect, the major divisions and minor sub-divisions of the outline should correspond exactly to the main ideas and the most important details of the material. Furthermore, the relationship illustrated in the outline between the main ideas and between the important details and the main ideas must perfectly match the relationships expressed in the material.

In order to achieve the desired accuracy, very specific rules such as the following must be adhered to when outlining:

Rules Concerning Outlining

Labelling of Divisions

a. There is a precise formula for labelling the various divisions of the outline. A system of notation is used whereby different sets of symbols represent different levels of ideas. (I, II, III; A. B, C; 1, 2, 3). Each set of symbols is used to sub-divide the ideas of the level above it. For example, roman numerals represent the most general level of ideas of any given text; capital letters are used to indicate the sub-division of those ideas. One of the most commonly used systems of notation illustrated below consists of a set of symbols which are ordered from the general to the specific. That is, the symbols on any line are used to indicate more general ideas than those on the line below and are used to indicate less general ideas than those on the above. This system of notation is as follows:

I, II, III, IV, V, etc. Major divisions on communication
A, B, C, D, E, etc. Sub-division of major divisions
1, 2, 3, 4, 5, 6, etc. Sub-division of A, B
a, b, c, d, e, etc. Sub-divisions of 1, 2, 3
(1), (2), (3), etc. Sub- divisions of a, b, c,
(a), (b), (c), etc. Sub-divisions of (1), (2), (3).

b. Another commonly used system of notation consists of the use of Arabic numerals to number ideas and full stops to indicate the sub- divisions of the ideas. For example, major ideas are indicated by:

1. Major division 1
   1.1 Sub-division
2. Major division
   2.1 Sub-division of 2
   2.1.1 Minor-division
   2.1.2 Sub-division 2:2
   2.2 Sub-division
   2.3 .....
   2.3.1 Sub-division of 2.3
   2.3.2 .....
   2.3.3 .....
   2.3.3.1 Sub-division of 2.3.3 i.e. sub-division 3 of 2

Rules Concerning the Sub-Division of Points

a. The rule of multiple sub-divisions in obligatory in outlining. That is. every section which is sub-divided must have at least two parts, and the basis of outlining is the division of large topics into smaller ones.
b. All entries on any given level of division in the outline must be given label.

Further Divisions

a. You should be able to recognise by now, for example, when two or three examples are given of a sub-division which you have entered in the outline under the small letter a.
b. These should be indicated separately by Arabic numerals in parenthesis – (a), (b), (c), etc.

Now let us attempt outlining some passages

PASSAGE 1

In every nation, even before writing was known, people made up songs for special occasions, such as funerals and religious ceremonies. They also had songs to be sung at work, like the ones you can still hear when fishermen are drawing in the nets or crops

are being harvested. The stories of famous or terrible happenings were also handed down from one generation to another in the form of songs.

The songs our ancestors composed were all poetry. There are several reasons why the literature of every nation begins with poetry. For one thing, it is easy to remember. Then, like a song, it has pleasing or interesting sound and, like a dance it has strong rhythm. We dance and sing when we are excited. Poetry is specially suitable for putting excitement and strong feelings into words.

It is important to remember that we do not read poetry to obtain information. We read it in order to feel the same sort of pleasure as singing or dancing gives us. When singing or dancing, we pay attention to the rhythm and the tune. In poetry we will miss much of the pleasure if we do not pay attention to the rhythm and the tunefulness of the words. We enjoy it most if we read it aloud and not too fast.

The above passage can be outlined as follows:

Songs as Poetry

1. Types of songs
   a. funeral
   b. work-place songs
      (i) songs sung by fishermen
      (ii) songs sung by reapers
   c. songs that tell the history of a people

2. Early songs were poetry
   a. they were easy to remember
   b. they had pleasure and sound effects
   c. they had strong rhythmic patterns
   d. they aroused strong emotions

3. Best ways to read poetry
   a. read for excitement, not information
   b. read paying attention to rhythm and tunefulness
   c. read for best effects by reading aloud and slowly

PASSAGE 2

Read the following passage carefully and then write an outline of it

Unless some action is taken, there is a real danger that alligators and crocodiles will soon become extinct. The first reaction of many people will probably be "good riddance". But in fact the crocodile does not really deserve its sinister reputation.

In general, crocodiles are afraid of men, and will always retreat than attack if they can. It is true that there are occasional rogue specimens which become man-eaters, but the same applies to most large carnivorous animals. There are many areas where the natives consider crocodiles harmless, and swim through crocodile infested waters without hesitation.

In the United States, there is already a legislation to protect young specimen and there are special crocodile farms. But elsewhere, numbers of crocodiles are diminishing alarmingly.

There are many contributing factors. The clearing of swamps and rivers and contamination by sewage is destroying breeding places in many places. Hunters not only shoot crocodiles, but in some places, use high explosives which kill the young as well as the adults.

Palestine and Mauritius lost their last crocodiles twenty years ago, and in the last year or two they have vanished from the lower Nile and Egypt. Their numbers are diminishing rapidly in Kenya and surrounding countries in places where the animal was commonplace ten years ago, it is now a curiosity.

The depredations of hunters are the prime cause of diminishing numbers. The crocodile hide is one of the most valuable in the world. Game wardens in most countries are not interested in crocodile and regard them as a menace to deer and other games. But in fact the diet of crocodiles is mainly water beetles, frogs, crabs, fish and small mammals.

What is more, in some places, its destruction has surprising biological repercussions. In some parts of Florida the disappearance of alligators led to a considerable increase in the numbers of snakes. In Louisiana, the muskrat has increased for the same reason, and is doing considerable damage with its burrows along the banks of the Mississippi. In some parts of Africa, some vermin have increased following the extermination of crocodiles.

It is imperative that crocodiles be protected, destruction of their eggs and young specimens forbidden, and hunting controlled. This will be essential if these creatures and the hide industry depending on them – are to survive. The possibilities of crocodile farming also need to be looked into more closely. Crocodiles could also provide a source of food – in some places in West Africa, crocodile meat is regarded as a delicacy. *(Com. Skills Exam, March, 2002)*

Outline

The Need to Protect the Crocodile

1. People's reaction to the dying out of crocodiles
   a. good riddance
   b. but crocodile seen as:
      (i) harmless
      (ii) avoiding contact with man
      (iii) occasional rogues as with all carnivorous animals
2. Causes of dwindling numbers in crocodile population
   a. diminishing breeding grounds through clearing of swamps and river banks
   b. contamination by sewage
   c. hunting for its hide
   d. destructive hunting methods, e.g. explosives
   e. Indifferent attitude of Game Wardens
3. Results of uncontrolled killing
   a. crocodiles extinct in some areas like Palestine, Mauritius, Lower Nile
   b. rapidly diminishing numbers in others e.g. Kenya
4. Consequences of the loss of crocodiles
   a. biological
      (i) increasing snakes in Florida for example
      (ii) increasing muskrat burrows along the Mississippi banks
      (iii) increasing dangerous vermin in parts of Africa
   b. economic: disastrous for industries exploiting its hide
   c. sources of good meat in some parts of Africa.
5. What to do
   a. legislation required to protect crocodiles and other eggs
   b. encouraging crocodile farming
   c. controlled hunting

PASSAGE 3

In the **Universal Declaration of Human Rights**, the liberties outlined are clearly stated as belonging to everyone. In almost all societies however, women have been traditionally held as inferior, or subject, to men. Even in societies where women have the vote, equal opportunities of education and equality before the law, there is still a large measure of prejudice and discrimination. Women often find it harder than men to get jobs for which they are equally well qualified; women's rates pay are sometimes lower than men's and married women are particularly unfortunate in many countries being discriminated against in such things as taxation, family allowances and the owning of property and even in having to get written permission from their husbands before taking paid employment.

It is to combat inequalities like those that the Women's Liberation Movement has arisen in many parts of the world. So successfully has pressure on the government been in Britain, for example that a Sex Discrimination Act was passed in 1975. While removing many of the obvious injustices against women, this kind of legislation can result in many absurdities. For example it is an offence in Britain for a prospective employer, when advertising a post, to state the sex of the required applicant – but obviously there are some jobs for which men and women are not equally suitable. Who would want a male nanny to look after three little girls, or a female P. E. instructor in a men's prison? Surely in these days of equality, prisons, hospital wards and all other institutions should become co-educational; or should it be cohabitation? So sensitive has opinion become on this issue, that one sometimes sees references to a 'chairperson' presenting over a meeting; and it has been frivolously suggested that we should all rejoice in the privilege of belonging to personkind.

Where should it all stop? Most women do not want the kind of equality that makes men and women socially identical. The French saying, "Vive la difference!" suggests that the difference between men and women perhaps is something to be cherished rather than denied. Perhaps the sanest thing to do is to return to the Universal Declaration of Human Rights and use it as a basis for a rational equality, worthy of the intelligence of mankind. *(Com. Skills Exam, March, 2001)*

Outline

Topic: Over-Stretching Gender Equality

A. The Universal Declaration of Human Rights conferring equal rights on both sexes
   1. but instances of universal perception of women as inferior to men
   2. a. however some societies granting equal rights in areas of law education and voting
      b. but these same societies discriminate
         (i) against all women in job opportunities and equal pay
         (ii) against all married women in taxation family allowance, property ownership and obtaining permission from husbands to take up paid jobs.

B. The role of the Women's Liberation Movement in fighting these inequalities.
   1. the movement's success in getting passed the Sex Discrimination Act of 1975.
   2. content of the Act
      a. offensive for a prospective employer, when advertising a post, to state the sex of the required applicant.
         (i) male nanny for little girls
         (ii) female P. E. instructors in the men's prison
      b. encouraging the creation of strange vocabulary such as "chairperson" and "personkind"
      c. restoring sense and balance
   3. to re-visit the Universal Declaration of Human Rights document
   4. to restore equal rights to all without making men and women socially identical.

SUMMARY OF THE PASSAGE

Heading: Over-Stretching Gender Equality

Although the Universal Declaration of Human Rights confers equal rights on both men and women, it is almost universal that women are discriminated against in all societies. While it is true that some societies grant equal rights to both gender in areas as voting, education and the law, they nonetheless do discriminate against all women in job opportunities and equal pay. Married women suffer even more. They even must obtain husbands' permission to get a paid job.

It is inequalities like these that the Women's Liberation Movement has set out to fight in many parts of the world.

In Britain, the movement achieved success, particularly in getting Sex Discrimination Act of 1975 passed. The Act made it an offence for an employer when advertising for a post to ask the applicant to state his/her sex. Obviously, there are flaws in the Act as not all jobs are suitable for both sexes. Nobody wants male nannies for small girls. Neither it is reasonable to appoint a female P. E. instructor to a job in men's prison. Or do we intend to make prisons and hospitals wards *cohabitational*? So funny is the situation that harmless words are being replaced by awkward ones like personkind.

Surely, we need to restore sense and balance in our fight for equal rights. The starting point is the Human rights document itself. It surely will help us restore equal rights to all without necessarily making men and women socially identical.

PASSAGE 4

Read the following passage carefully and write an outline out of it. Give your outline a heading.

The ostrich, the largest of the species of birds in the world at the present time, lives in the drier regions of Africa, outside the actual deserts.

The female ostrich normally produces about twenty eggs every rainy season which is the breeding time. The eggs are cream-coloured, often over a kilogram in weight, and about fifteen centimetres from end to end. For a nest, the ostrich scraps a shallow hollow in the sand with its feet.

When the female ostrich begins to lay her eggs however, she does not begin in her own nest. Instead, she goes off in search of the nest of neighbouring females and lays two or three eggs in each of them. After eight or nine eggs, she returns and lays the rest-up to twelve in her own nest.

Because of the sizes of the eggs, the female ostrich lays one every two days, so it takes her three weeks to finish laying in her own nest. During that period she spends a lot of time away from her nest looking for food. And while she is away, other females visit her nest to lay their eggs among her eggs.

Sitting, the female ostrich can comfortably cover about twenty eggs, so before settling down, she pushes the surplus ten or so eggs out of the nest. The rejected eggs, however, never include any of her own.

The period of incubation is about forty-two days. Usually, the female sits on the eggs during the day, while the male is away looking for food and other females to mate with, and returns to sit through the night so that the females can go in search of food.

Of all the eggs laid by a colony of ostriches only a small number hatch into young birds. There are times when nests are left unprotected. For there are too few males to sit on all the eggs at night. Thus predators raid the nests and break open and eat the eggs. In fact, nearly 80% of the nests are destroyed. But even if a particular female's nest suffers this fate, there is a good chance that one or two of her eggs will be hatched in the nest of one of her neighbours.
(Com. Skills Exam, February, 199[illegible]

OUTLINE

Heading: The Ostrich and its Eggs

1. Habitat. The fringes of African deserts
2. The Ostrich Eggs
   a. number – about 20 per season
   b. colour – cream
   c. weight – over 1 kilogram
   d. size – 15 centimetres from end to end
   e. nest – a shallow hollow in the sand
3. Breeding Time: The rainy season
4. Breeding Habits
   a. laying a couple of eggs in four or so nests of neighbours
   b. laying a dozen or so more in own nest
   c. comfortably accommodating 20 eggs
   d. pushing aside 10 surplus eggs of her neigbours
5. Incubation
   a. a forty-two-day incubation period
   b. female sitting on eggs during day: male away feeding and mating
   c. male sitting on eggs at night: female away feeding
6. Predators: raiding 80% of nests at night: too few males to sit on all eggs.
7. Reason for wayward laying of eggs: essentially a survival mechanism.

PASSAGE 5

What will the final quarter of the twentieth century be like? The stresses and strains of communism and anti-communism will long be with us, providing periodical alarms. Nationalism and race will provide plenty of problems. What will happen to Israel, hemmed in by hostile Arab neighbours? Will South Africa persevere in her lonely but determined policy of Apartheid? Will the United States accomplish the final emancipation of the Negroes without serious upheaval? We may be sure of dramatic scientific advances. Old problems would be solved by brilliant inventions: new problems will be created. Doctors and brains have already lengthened the average life span. Now, if multiplying mankind is not to perish from hunger, more food must be produced and fewer babies born. Mankind must learn to use its new power safely, and this will require agreement between nations. Shall we, for instance, see a mighty co-operative effort to 'farm' the oceans and produce enough food to banish the fear of world famine? Or shall we witness only the extermination of the whale through uncontrolled fishing by the rival countries? Fresh chapters of history will be written as problems like these are tackled or (at our peril) shirked through lack of energy and imagination.

Heading: The Final Quarter of the 20th Century

A. Politics
   1. communism and anti-communism
   2. nationalism and race
      a. Israel and Arabs
      b. South Africa
      c. U.S.A.
B. Science
   1. old problems solved – e.g. high death rate
   2. new problems created – e.g.
      a. overpopulation
      b. shortage of food
C. International relations. Alternatives:
   1. co-operation – leading to, e.g. 'farming' of the oceans.
   2. rivalry-leading to e.g., extermination of the whale.

PASSAGE 6.

The American energy crisis has become a grave problem. Until the 1950's, the United States was effectively self-sufficient in energy from indigenous sources. Since then, however, American energy consumption has steadily outstripped domestic production.

This widening gap has been filled by imports, first from Canada and Venezuela, but now in the main from the Middle East. In spite of attempts to restore self-sufficiency, the United States is still importing over forty per cent of its oil.

There are many factors contributing to this worsening situation. On the side of supply, the development of nuclear power has been slower than was forecast. The expansion of the coal industry has, likewise, lagged behind expectations. In addition, tenacious objections to the Alaska pipeline have long delayed the exploitation of those oil reserves. On the side of demand, the situation has unquestionably been made worse by a deliberate policy of low pricing. For natural gas and all oil products, prices have been made lower, and demand consequently higher, than in other industrial countries. The concept of energy conservation has played no effective part in official American policy.

One effect of this situation has been to upset international prices. It has effectively created the power of OPEC by creating conditions under which the producers control the market. By tying the American economy to the political instabilities of the Middle-East, it has created a series of new diplomatic and military problems. At an industrial level, also, there is increasing resentment because, as a result of the low cost of energy in America, the United States can produce goods more cheaply, and thus has an advantage in competition with the rest of the world.
(Parry, 1979)

Take notes from the passage, by completing this outline.

Heading: The American Energy Crisis

1. Facts .....
   a. until 1950s .....
   b. now .....
2 Causes .....
   a supply .....
      i. .....
      ii. .....
      iii. .....
   b. .....
3. .....
   a. .....
   b. .....

c. .....
d. .....

Notice how the Passage is Constructed.
The first paragraph opens with a statement of the central idea not out of the paragraph but of the whole essay. The rest of the paragraph explains the facts about the crises, and how it has developed. Each sentence follows logically from the one before, with appropriate connecting phrases (e.g. 'since then', 'however', 'This widening gap'). The paragraph ends with a precise statement of the present situation.

The second paragraph begins with a topic sentence that covers everything that the paragraph contains.This sentence also bridges the gap between the paragraphs by looking back to the previous paragraph and looking forward to what this paragraph is going to contain.The phrase 'this worsening situation' refers back to the situation described in the first paragraph; the phrase 'many factors contributing' looks forward to the points that are to follow. Two major factors are mentioned in the paragraph – supply and demand. Under the general heading 'supply ', three specific examples are given. It is easy to distinguish these examples, because the second and third both contain connectors which indicate that new points are being added.

The third paragraph also starts with a sentence that looks back to the first paragraph ('this situation') and forward to what is to follow ('one effect'). This sentence is not however, a topic sentence for the whole paragraph, as it refers specifically to one effect. Each subsequent sentence mentions another effect. These are less easy to distinguish from each other than those in the second paragraph, because only one of them contains a connector to show that a new point is being introduced.

PASSAGE 7
During your education you may have had to study some subjects that do not interest you or that do not seem to have any value. Nevertheless, they are subjects that must be studied and passed. It is helpful to realise as a matter of fact that any subject is of interest and value. Many people have found it interesting and have even made a career of the subject. It is you who has no interest. How can you develop interest?

First, think of how and why the subject is important to your general education. Physics may not seem interesting to you, but if you want to understand space exploration, a little

about the anatomy and function of your body, a little biology will be helpful. The extent and variety of your interests help you to understand the modern world and to measure your growth as an educated, well-rounded person.

Second, think how the subject is related to other subjects or to other times, places, problems and purposes. Although your study schedule is broken into separate and individual courses, you are not learning isolated ideas or information. Ancient history has some relationship to current events, physics and philosophy are closely connected in many ways; mathematics is useful in economics; psychology and sociology are reflected in literature. A subject that does not seem interesting in itself may be very interesting in relation to other subjects.

Third, interest depends upon understanding. If you do not understand the rules of baseball or cricket, you cannot have much interest in watching the game. But if you take time and trouble to learn the rules, you may find it an exciting sports. When you begin to study a new subject, try to keep an open mind. Do not start by thinking the subject as boring or difficult. Most of all do not fall behind in your preparation, reading, classroom and home work. When you fail to learn one point of information, all of the following information that depends on it will not be clear to you. Because you do not understand, you will lose whatever interest you may have started with. To maintain interest and concentration, study regularly and do not be afraid to ask questions or seek help for anything which you do not understand.
(Parry, 1979)

PASSAGE 8

Most towns have grown slowly over many years, so that an ideal plan has not been followed. Nevertheless, nowadays, most local authorities require a plan for any new buildings in an urban area, and only give permission to build if this is satisfactory. This prevents housing from developing in unsatisfactory areas. It also makes the town more pleasing in appearance. Ideally, in such a town, any factories will be built away from the houses. This will reduce the pollution and noise which otherwise would affect the people in the living areas. The sewage works, if any, and refuse tips should also be sited away from houses on the outside of the town. The prevailing wind should blow any unpleasant smells away from the town.

The local authority may also limit the number of houses built in a particular areas to prevent overcrowding and the spread of diseases. The houses should therefore be well

spaced to allow through breezes. In this respect, the sides of hills are ideal. Such areas will also have good drainage.

Swamps should be avoided at all costs, because of the insects which breed in them. All areas of stagnant water should be cleared around houses to stop mosquitoes from breeding.

Damp conditions also favour the growth of fungus, which is most unhygienic. To ensure that houses are dry, the foundations should be laid on a good loam soil, preferably with a good rock sub-soil for support.

To prevent the damp rising up from the soil, the walls should contain a damp-proof course. This consists of a layer of pitch or a synthetic layer which is complete waterproof, laid in the walls about 20 cm above the soil level. Thick polythene may also be laid under the floors to prevent rising damp. In every damp regions in the tropics, the houses are constructed on stilts. In the monsoons, or wet seasons, the water flows quite freely under such houses. Storm drains are also built around houses in regions where heavy rainfall occurs.

The building materials from which houses are constructed usually depend on the local supplies. The best house materials are stone, bricks or concrete, as these substances are very strong. Outside walls should have two layers of brick separated by a central cavity filled with air. This cavity provides insulation against the heat outside, thus keeping the house cooler. Wooden houses are poorly insulated in comparison. If houses are made of wood, great care must be taken to protect them from termites.

Insecticides in parts may be used. The wood can also be sprayed. Mud huts can be a source of infection, unless the walls are kept clean. To do this, they should be lime-washed: the lime-wash is antiseptic and also shows up any dirt.

Corrugated metal, although it is a poor insulation is certainly expensive roofing material. Roofs constructed from metal should have a ceiling beneath to act as an insulator. Care should be taken that spaces in roofs do not become infested with animals such as rats, snakes, bats or insects.

Palm thatch roofs are thick and trap air, and are often a fire risk. On the floor, tiles make a good surface, since they are cool and easy to keep clean. Tiles are expensive, but some

form of linoleum or plastic covering can be used instead. Hard-beaten mud floors are excellent, when they are properly made and looked after.
(Com. Skills Exam, February, 2002)

PASSAGE 9

Write outline notes on the following passage, observing consistency in numbering and in grammatical form:

The collective efforts of some of the advanced countries in trying to help us resuscitate Ghana's educational system through support for the reforms underline the crucial position from which they view the contribution of education to our development pursuits. The FCUBE programme which has received so much publicity is seen as the foundation of a firm and productive education system for the anticipated economic take-off by the year 2020.

It is however sad that we as a nation are failing in our duty to systematically move towards the achievement of this vision. We seem to be making adhoc decisions and providing stop-gap measures and yet, hope to turn the system around. We have since the 1960s implemented programes such as the continuation school system, the Experimental Junior Secondary Schools, the Education Sector Adjustment Credit [EDSAC] and the Primary Education Programme [PREP] without conclusively informing the nation about the outcome. Indeed, most of these programmes were abandoned in mid-air without any evaluation to determine the degree of achievement of set goals.

Only two years ago, we were busy implementing PREP. Today, that has been swept away by FCUBE without many teachers knowing why this is so.

In 1990, we decided to replace a seven-year secondary school programme with a three-year one. A lot of people especially educationist, felt this was too drastic and likely to affect the quality of entrants to our universities, but the government went ahead to implement the new programme in spite of obvious constraints. The result was the disaster recorded by the first batch of SSS students in 1994.

By sheer dedication, however, the teachers in the senior secondary school have come to adjust to the demands of the programme and many parents can now afford to smile when SSS results are released. The universities are also beginning to have confidence in the SSS graduates. Now, the government is once again asking this nation to back it in

sacrificing those children who are about to enter the senior secondary school this year by reducing the duration of the course by six months. This is outrageous. Many of us still believe that as recommended by the Education Reform Review Committee Report of 1994, the duration of the senior secondary school course should be four years. To expect kids that are hardly 15 years of age to stand up to such a demanding task is being uncaring.

A change in the academic calendar is by all accounts a desirable thing, but this should not be at the expense of the children. The practice of government always looking for ways of making savings in educational matters is an unhealthy practice that only goes to create more problems for the system.
(Com. Skills Exam, February, 1998)

CHAPTER FIVE

SUMMARY WRITING

Definition and Purpose

According to the Webster's *Third New International Dictionary*, Vol. III, Summary is,

> A short restatement of the main points (of an argument) for easier remembering, for better understanding or for showing relations of the points.

Summary implies detecting what is important in a group of sentences given or utterances made and stating it briefly. By this, you simply select the most relevant issues from a long passage and say them in fewer words than the passage does. It is something we do everyday at almost every moment we speak. You may doubt this conception, but imagine a conversation you may have with a friend: You first think of many things to say; then you consider some as more important than others and so select them before you start. That is summary.

Also, imagine you want to tell a friend a very long story just before he leaves on a long journey, but you realise that the time you have is so short that you cannot finish what you wish to say. This does not mean that you will start the story and break it to continue after many months. Rather you would bring out only the most important parts of the story, which you feel your friend is interested in.

Let us consider another example of the summary we do in our everyday life. Take it that your friend is absent from lectures on a particular day. Just after lectures, he/she comes to ask you: "Ato, what did you do at lectures today?" The first thing that you may do is to mention the various subjects or lessons that you had at the lectures. For example, you may say:

> Oh, Professor Tetteh came to teach us a new topic in Mathematics. The Geography lecturer also came; and then English, Economics, and we also had Commerce.

This is the information you consider most relevant. You now go on to mention the various topics you treated during each lesson. For example, "In Maths, we learnt Simultaneous Equations, Quadratic Equations", etc. You may then go on and on to bring out details of the day's work. However, never will you be able to say exactly everything

that happened during the lecture – the lecturer's questions, answers, gestures and so on, or students' questions to the teacher, answers, etc. Apart from the fact that the above illustrates our everyday use of summary, it indicates the importance of it. In fact, if we do not use summary when we are speaking our speeches will be like long and uninteresting; full of fun, signifying nothing.

Points to Consider When Summarising

Before we practise summary as we will do during our examinations, let us look at certain things which we should bear in mind. It is usually quite a difficult task to attempt summarising a passage you cannot comprehend. It is like trying to describe something you have never seen or heard of, so that anyone who hears your description will instantly realise your failure. Really, you must make a conscious effort to understand what you read before you summarise.

Also, follow the trend of communication. The passage is like a friend telling you about something. If you lose the string of thought, you cannot follow what you are being told, unless you ask him/her to start again either from the beginning or from a particular point which you can quite remember. Similarly, when you realise at a point of the passage that you have lost the line of thought, it is just good that you quickly start from either the beginning of a paragraph or somewhere within the passage to help you understand what you are reading.

This skill is the ability to see when the text is giving you the information that you require. It is the ability to see what the author is telling you at every point in the text. It consists of many smaller skills such as:

(i) The ability to see when something is being mentioned as the cause of another thing.
(ii) The ability to know what the author is referring to when he uses expressions like:
  (a) "in spite of these drawbacks"...
  (b) "with these incentives"...

When you are reading you use all these and other skills.

To take note of the first sentence (most often the topic sentence) of every paragraph is very good if you want to do well in summary writing. This is because many good essays have their main ideas stated in that sentence. All other sentences in the paragraph may

illustrate what has been said in the topic sentence, emphasise it (by saying it in a different way) or add more information. Below is an example of a unified, coherent, adequately developed paragraph. As you read it, observe the statement developed.

> *Together, the eyewitness report constructs a detailed description of the yeti. Its body is stocky, apelike in shape, with a distinctly human quality to it, in contrast to that of a bear. It stands five and a half to six feet tall, and is covered with short coarse hair; reddish brown to black in colour, sometimes with white parches on the chest. The shoulders are heavy and hunched. There is no tail.*

You would see that every sentence that follows the first sentence contributes to the description. What is that? It is the yeti. Let us look at another example:

> *Because of the devastating nature of any outbreak of fire, no one starts one except with intent to ruin another. On this occasion, it might have been a spark from the vulcanizer's fire. One thing is certain; no one saw it coming, neither did anyone notice when it started. With the November dry winds tossing up things in its way and blinding everyone with dust, the fire was not discovered until it was burning wide and wild. It had already begun to weave its tail of destruction. Tongues of flames were leaping right and left, widening their areas of authority and sparing nothing in their greedy adventure.*
>
> *What was needed was quick action, quick, sharp action. Reactions, of course, came in answer to a woman's long piercing scream for help. Within minutes, everyone did something according to their own judgement. Some cut down hedges and fences, trying go create a wide gap between the ferocious fire and the unburnt areas. Some others darted in and out of the nearby houses and shops rescuing things and taking them to safer spots. Others still were collecting sand and water and throwing them into the fire.*
>
> *In spite of all this, the fire, fanned by the wind, continued to gain ground. It raged from one structure to another bellowing in anger. When at last the fire got to the road, finding nothing more to devour, it stopped short as its flame died down. It died down much slower than it had begun.*

What do you consider to be the main idea of the first paragraph? ***One would realise that it talks about the outbreak of fire***. Look at how the writer described how the fire started or the initial stages of the fire.

Now, what did he do in the second paragraph? Like we have seen in the above, every passage is about some ideas but just as you would have to organise your ideas when writing composition, the writers of the passage too have organised their ideas in a certain way. This indicates that you do not have to look closely only at the first paragraph but rather you would have to consider the way ideas shift from paragraph to paragraph. In other words, we have to look at how each paragraph contributes to the passage. Let's look at the passage again.

One notes that in the second paragraph, the writer talks about the people's response to the fire. Then in the third paragraph, he talks about the ending stages of the fire.

Occasionally, a writer may state his main idea in the middle or ending paragraphs. But if we read very closely, such a style may not disturb our comprehension.

Sometimes, the most important idea of a paragraph is stated in the middle or in the last sentence, especially when the writer moves from particular or specific examples to a generalisation. If therefore, you wish to do well in summary, it is essential that you take note of the (topic) sentence of each paragraph.

The topic sentence has the following main functions:

1. It provides a transition. That is, it opens with a reference to what has preceded it, a repetition of it or even a kind of summary, and then goes on to introduce a new topic.
2. The topic sentence often suggests an organisation or structure for the paragraph.
3. It may also present a topic. That is, the manner in which the topic sentence introduces the subject for the paragraph varies with the nature of the subject.

Consider the following outline of a paragraph to see the relationship between the topic sentence and the ideas expressed in the subsequent sentences.

The items enclosed in the commas have to be left out in the summary so that one can have:

This state of affairs reveals our gullibility

6. Hinduism, perhaps the earliest form of religion known to man, is more than 3000 years old; yet it exists to this day even though Sanskrit, the language in which its literatures were originally written, has long since passed out of use

This can be summarised as.

Hinduism exists whereas Sanskrit is extinct.

V **To avoid rhetorical questions.** Such questions are meant to enable the reader reflect on the issue under discussion. For example:

1. One may be puzzled as to why some countries are tagged third world nations. Is it that they did not exist as nations when the so-called "first world" and "second world" nations were taking shape? Or is it that there were no human beings in such third world countries until very late in history?

The rhetorical questions in the above text have to be left out in summary. The text can be summarised as:

One is puzzled as to why some countries are termed third world nations.

VI **One must not include ideas that are not stated in the passage that one is summarising.** Sometimes, examining bodies intentionally bring a passage on a very familiar issue, probably, one that is being discussed countrywide. In this case, certain very familiar issues are left out, and a candidate who is not careful is likely to betray his ignorance by including issues in his/her summary. We shall see some examples as we go along.

VII **Note that in summarising, the points in the summary do not correspond sentence for sentence, with the passage.** In an examination, when one writes a whole sentence from the passage, it is termed as "lifting' and one scores no mark at all for such an answer. Similarly, one must avoid repeating ideas or words in one's answers.

How to Answer Summary Questions

To present a good answer to a summary question is as important as identifying the answer within the text. In fact, you may know the answer but if you do not present it properly, you may not earn any mark at all. Your answer, of course, depends on the nature of the question.

Most summary questions do not refer to actual paragraphs in the passage, but simply say, "State the various reasons why the writer disapproves of..." and so on. Questions of this kind sound vague and difficult, but are less so for any candidate who has already grasped the main theme or idea of the passage and each paragraph in it, and tried to "rebuild' it in his own mind. If you are uncertain how much of the passage is relevant to the question you are attempting, you may find it helpful to glance at the other questions too. This is because questions hardly overlap each other so the limits of one question tend to be defined by the others.

Most questions, sometimes, state how many sentences are required in the answers. This too is a great help. If, for example, you are told to write two sentences, you know you have to divide the relevant material into two roughly equal halves and write one sentence on each. You must decide on this before you start framing your answer. In addition, make sure you write two sentences. Each sentence may contain several clauses, joined by *and* or *but* (which must be used sparingly), but each must begin with a capital letter and end with a full stop. Try, however, to make the second sentence flow naturally from the first, as if they were both part of a continuous passage.

One can give a preamble when he is required to give two or more sentences. For example:

The recommendations of science are:

1. sleep moderately.
2. exercise gently.
3. smile occasionally.

This type of answer helps the candidates to save time for other questions. The only danger is that, any error in the preamble given affects all the three answers given. In other words, if there is any deduction of marks in the preamble, all the three answers will have the same deductions.

As undergraduates, however, you should compose your answers into a short paragraph. It should be noted that you should approach your summary answer quite differently from your answers to comprehension questions. A typical comprehension question is a genuine question to which there is really only one correct answer, and if the examiner is sure that the answer you give is fundamentally correct he or she may not worry too much about how you express it. However, a typical summary question is not really a question at all. It is rather an instruction to summarise part of the passage. Therefore, your answers should consist of carefully constructed sentences, which should make perfect sense to a person who has not even seen the original passage or question on it. That means that your answers must not contain pronouns unless it is clear what is being referred to.

It is noteworthy to use the base sentence type in your answers to remove redundant words. Such redundant words mostly include adjectives and adverbs. They may attract a deduction of marks.

1. Subject + Verb + Object
   Example:
   The boy recognised the thief.
2. Subject + Verb
   Example:
   The teacher arrived.
3. Subject + Verb + Complement
   Example:
   John was a student.
4. Subject + Verb + Object + object
   Example:
   The old woman told us a story.
5. Subject + Verb + Object + Complement
   Example:
   The students elected Susan prefect.

Avoid being wordy and you will get your summary answers correct.

Let us observe how to approach summary writing as we go along to attempt giving answers to some questions on summary.
Before we start our practice on summary writing note the following:-

1. Read the whole passage first, and read it until you have thoroughly grasped the whole gist of it. That is
   (a) what it is about, and
   (b) what it says.
   Do this, paragraph by paragraph.
2. Read the first question carefully, noting which paragraph or paragraphs in the passage relate to it.
3. Write the answer in rough. Be sure it includes all the main points. Correct all errors of grammar and remove all redundant words.
4. When you are satisfied, copy your answer out neatly in the proper place.

You are moving towards success.

SOME EXERCISES ON SUMMARY

Normally, a passage is brought and students are asked to say in a certain number of sentences something very important in the passage. With this type of summary, one observes that a particular idea is stated in a very long sentence, or in two sentences, which are not very close to each other, and candidates are to put this idea in three or more sentences. At other times, too, students are asked to put the ideas together in one sentence. Let us now consider some examples.

> Should the teacher discover that the learners do not understand the concept taught, he should re-state the points in simpler, clearer order to make himself more clearly understood. This is usually the stage at which the revision of his method would be in order. If, for instance, he had utilised the lecture method earlier, he might now like to try the discussion method.

Sample Question:

(a) In two sentences, one for each, briefly describe the two things a teacher should do if he discovers that learners do not understand the lesson.

Sample Answer

The teacher should teach in a more practical way. He should vary his method.

You would observe that the answer to the question has been given elaborately in the paragraph and you are requested to say it without illustration. Now look at another example.

PASSAGE

White's a good drugstore. It is very modern and clean inside. A drugstore should always be clean. Housewives like to sit. have tea, coffee, or a soft drink, and gossip there after shopping. White's is a good place to buy soap, razor blades, shaving cream and toilet articles. There is always a large choice and the prices are always reasonable

a) White's Drugstore is good because
   White's is
   a) modern.
   b) clean inside
   Housewives sit there to
   (a) gossip
   b) have tea
   c) have a soft drink
   A variety of articles are sold
   toilet articles
   prices of goods are reasonable

Notice the main characteristics of this outline

i) It includes all the main ideas, in the same order as in the passage
ii) It does not contain any ideas that are not in the passage
iii) The points are all expressed in the same grammatical form

How to Summarise

Summary can be done in various ways depending on what the examiner requires of you. One could be asked to summarise a whole paragraph or chapter in a certain number of words or sentences. That is, you are to reduce the paragraph to a fewer number of words than it is in the passage

Selection

To make a summary or notes is simply to select some of the information that one has read, and to write it down briefly. If you are going to select some information, this forces you to reject all other information. It is essential, therefore, for you to know exactly what you should select and what you should reject. The examination question will tell you the kind of information that you should select. It is your risk to see where this information is given in the text, so to select it for summary and to reject all other information. Let us consider some examples

Joe and Esi went down to the river to fill their buckets with water. On their way home Joe slipped and fell, knocking Esi over at the same time. They got up slowly, feeling themselves all over to see if they were badly hurt or not. Joe had a bad bruise on his forehead, probably caused by hitting his head against the bucket when he fell, but Esi was not hurt at all.

Question

(a) Why did Joe and Esi go down to the river?

Which information should be selected in answer to this question? Is it necessary to mention what happened on their return? No. The only information required is the reason why they went to the stream. That is:

They went down to the river to fetch water.

This is the information that should be selected for your summary.

(b) What injuries did Joe and Esi sustain?

You must ask yourself what information should be selected in answering this question. Let us consider some possible information.

(i) Joe slipped and fell.
(ii) Joe knocked Esi over.
(iii) They felt themselves to see if they were hurt.
(iv) Joe had a bad bruise on his forehead.
(v) Esi was not hurt at all.

Your task is to decide what injuries they sustained, and nothing else. Thus, a good answer would be:

Joe received a bruise on his forehead but Esi was not hurt.

II **To remove all examples which are meant for clarification;** for example:

1. ***When Mary got to the market, she decided to visit places*** like Esi's Chemical store, the butcher's shop (i.e. abattoir), the fish sellers' stalls, etc.

The above can be summarised as:

When Mary got to the market, she visited places ***or*** Mary visited places in the market.

2. Nowhere perhaps has the progress of the road system been more marked than in Ghana. ***The past ten years has seen a great improvement*** in the system. In1954, for example, 29,000 miles of maintained and classified roads existed, while ten years later this has risen to 46,000 miles. Only a small proportion of this mileage is tarred.

This can be summarised as:

There has been improvement on roads in Ghana.

III To remove figures meant for support

One can notice in the above passage that figures have been given, but have been omitted in the summary. In other words, figures or numbers are not included in summary. Consider the following:

(1) In 1954 for example, 29,000 miles of maintained and classified roads existed, while ten years later this has risen to 46,000 miles. Only a small proportion of this mileage is tarred – 2,000 miles in 1954 and some 7, 000 miles in 1964, but much has been done to improve surfaces throughout the system.

One can summarise the above as:

There has been an increase in the length of tarred roads.

or

Tarred roads increased considerably.

2. In Ghana's six-year development plan, out of a total expenditure of 570 million pounds, it was originally estimated that some 34 million pounds would be spent on construction or improvement of roads and bridges. Of this, it seems likely that the ***rate of expenditure on roads in the plan last two years will exceed that in the past.***

This can be summarised as:

Expenditure on roads now will exceed that of previous years.

Note that figures have been left out in the summary.

IV To remove all parenthetical examples:

Such examples are usually clauses or sentences within sentences, and are, usually enclosed in brackets, commas, and dashes. Let us consider some examples:

1. Some research suggests that fear (a beguiling, seductive motive thatone is often tempted to encourage) may be an effective means to get attention, but not a good way of encouraging behaviour. Fear tends tofocus on what learners should not do, which often gives no direct clue as to what to do instead...and why.

The item put into brackets in the above have to be removed because it is an extraneous piece of information. Therefore, the passage can be summarised as:

Some research suggests that fear may be effective in getting attention, nevertheless, not an encouraging behaviour.

2. Before books were printed, manuscripts (which means 'hand writing') had usually been made in monasteries, where there were special writing rooms called the scriptoria.

The main idea of the above passage is:

Before books were printed, manuscripts used to be written in monasteries.

3. No one – at least of all the Westerners, whose history is littered with the odious debris of materialism, greed and violence – is competent to pronounce another's religion inferior.

In the above, none of the items with the dashes form part of our summary. The whole idea is:

No one can brand another's religion inferior.

4. After all, religion – its outer form that is – like everything else in the world must be dynamic to survive.

This can be summarised as:

Religion must be dynamic to survive.

5. This state of affair, in which everything native or traditional is seen to be evil or at best inferior, reveals our gullibility.

Despite the record industry slump, jazz records are springing up elsewhere. The reason for the boom is not hard to find. The mediocrity of most current pop music is one reason. Another strong factor is the courage of a few record producers in the 1970's who independently started issuing jazz releases that the big record companies had shunned. As buyers developed a taste for the music, producers found themselves with unexpected hits and jazz acquired a flock of new fans. Now, live jazz may have a bigger following in Africa than in the United States.

Sample **Question**

(a) In ***four*** sentences state the reasons given by the author for the boom in the popularity of jazz.

Sample **Answer**

1. The mediocrity of most modern music is a reason for the boom in the popularity of jazz.
2. A few record producers of the 1970's have courageously exposed jazz music independently.
3. Many buyers have developed a taste for the music.
4. The producers of jazz had found new hits.

PASSAGE 1

For general reading, there are several hints you might bear in mind; you will say, '*How very obvious these hints are*;' agreed, but are they so obvious that they have become second nature?

Don't expect the literature of knowledge or information exposing books to contain a story. If the information (history, geography, criticism, science, techniques, etc) is conveyed in an orderly, lucid manner, that should be enough. In fact, however, you will find that much history, geography, criticism and even science is attractively written, but you have no business to expect it to be attractive. The pleasure of expository literature is primarily intellectual, only secondarily aesthetic.

On the other hand, don't expect the literature of imagination – poetry, drama, novels, and short stories – to have a moral or 'message' for primarily it is not didactic. Its aim is to delight – to enrich us emotionally – to move us. No imaginative literature as a matter of logic – of arguments and propositions – is to be criticised by the standard applicable to

the literature of knowledge, except in as far as all literature whatsoever should be artistically coherent and consistent.

Midway between the literature of knowledge and the literature of imagination stand the essay and the imaginary conversation, of which the latter usually approximates more closely to the literature of knowledge, whereas the former may emphasise either one or the other. Do not, therefore, be dogmatic about this halfway literature where the writer has considerable freedom.

On the other hand, the literature of knowledge may be structural, as in history, analytical as in thesis; critical as in literary or artistic or musical criticism; structural, analytical and critical, as in philosophy; or persuasive as in theology or propaganda. So, on the other hand, the literature of imagination is of various kinds, poetry being epic, lyrical, dramatic, reflective, etc, drama begin comedy, farce, tragedy, comedy; fiction being short or long, the novel itself being historical, domestic, adventurous, satirical, etc. Be careful; do not condemn one genre for differing from another.

Question

(a) The writer states four hints for general reading. Sum up three of these in three sentences.

Answer (Plan)

1. What to expect in reading expository writing.
2. What to expect in reading imaginative literature
3. What to expect in reading the essay and imaginary conversation.
4. What to expect of the several genres.

Answers

By reading expository essays we expect knowledge or information. In imaginative literature, we expect enjoyment. The essay and conversation may teach or give information.

PASSAGE 2

Marriage in the country is an agreement between two families or clans. Marriage in the town is becoming more and more an agreement between a man and a woman, although many marriage customs are still followed. Only the richer and best-educated people get married in church and often much money is spent on the ceremony. Few men in the towns can support more than one wife.

Many people avoid marriage altogether. The number of educated women is rapidly growing. They seek an equal relationship with men, which they cannot find in customary marriage. They don't obey a man and are therefore unwilling to tie themselves by marriage. The emigrant workers who leave their wives in the country are content to live with women who cook for them and look after the house as long as they agree with each other. Men and women are trying to find a new way of living together, both inside and outside marriages. This leads to much changing of partners and adds to uncertainty and lack of performance in the social life of towns.

In the country, children were trained by their family and by their clan to follow the customs of their people and they often get through a programme of initiation before they become full members of the tribe. In towns it is not possible for children to be given this traditional training, which is not replaced by the book learning taught at school. Many children, moreover, do not go to school. Because of the break-up of many marriages and the large members of children born of temporary unions, parents often have little control over the behaviour of their children. Other children escape to the towns from the homes in the country, live in odd corners and seek living in any way they can. It is easy for children to fall into bad ways and many take to theft and other forms of crime.

In two sentences state the effects of

(a) marriage on Africans moving into town.
(b) non-formalised relationship replacing marriage.

Questions (Plan)

(a) Marriage: an agreement between two equal partners than between families or clans
(b) No formalised relationships replacing marriages.

Answers

(a) Marriage is becoming an agreement between equal partners rather than between families or clans. Many people engage themselves in non-formalised relationships in place of marriages.
(b) Children lack traditional training and so become delinquent.

PASSAGE 3

Very briefly, before going any further, we must consider how historians can know what happened in those distant times. Many things about those distant times are not yet

known. But we have three valuable sources of information and each has given us a great deal of historic knowledge.

The first is 'archaeology'. This word comes from a Greek word that may be roughly translated as meaning, "The study of what is old." But archaeology has come to have a special meaning. It means the study of material remains and ruins of the past, of the tools, weapons, pots, house foundations, ancient settlements and towns that vanished people have left behind them. This is a fairly new study in West Africa. Yet archaeology has already provided good information about the past of West Africa and it will certainly provide much more.

The second source of historical knowledge is 'Oral tradition'. This is the history – partly legend and partly truth – which generations of our ancestors have passed down by word of mouth. West African, like other regions of Africa, is rich in such historical traditions, or oral history. People set aside a special group of men whose task it was to learn, remember, recite and afterwards teach to their sons and successors the historical traditions which they in turn, had received from the forefathers. These remembered traditions are sometimes very helpful to historians. But they have to be taken with care for, these traditions also tell of things which did not happen, or did not happen in the way they are said to have happened, or not for the reasons that are given in the short story.

Then there is a third source of knowledge about the distant past of West Africa. This is generally less valuable than the two, but now and then it is more valuable. It consists of the "books" that were written by North Africans and Arab travellers and historians. Many such books were written by scholars who wrote Arabic. Some of them are of great value. Much later, Europeans, also began to write books about West Africa in Portuguese, French, Dutch and other European languages; and a few of their books too are full of useful information. From these and other sources of knowledge, among them the facts that are known about the country and climate of old West Africa come a clear picture of the way that people lived.

(a) Historians inform us in the piece about the basis of historical study. In three sentences, each giving a source of West African history and the way it is used by historians write them.
(b) In one sentence, state why oral tradition is not very reliable and would, therefore, have to be taken with care.

Answers (Plan)

(a) Archaeology (how is it used?)
Oral tradition (how is it used?)
Books (how are they used?)

(b) Oral tradition (may be false)

Answers

(a) Archaeology, which involves the study of the remains of (ancient) people, is one of the sources of West Africa history. Another is oral tradition by which special men study the past and pass it onto successive generations. The third is by reading books written by Arab and European scholars.

(b) Oral tradition brings out untrue stories sometimes.

PASSAGE 4

Failures moan that successful people get their breaks not through their own efforts but through some vague notion of dumb luck. I believe, however, that lucky people owe their achievement to a positive attitude to life and good planning.

When at 50, Nana was dismissed from her job, she gracefully moved into her own dream house. Her colleagues were stunned. "Had she stolen from somewhere?" They wondered.

But Nana had learnt from childhood that nothing was more essential to one's well being than shelter, and had determined that when she grew up she would buy her own house.

When socialist policies made hire purchase possible, Nana saw her opportunity there and grabbed it. She scraped and punched from several part time jobs, paid the required deposit, and collected the keys to the estate house before she was 27.

The friends who used to laugh at her for being over-ambitious now play down her careful planning and industry with the remark that she was "just lucky".

Another successful figure is Anum. At age 30, he decided that the furniture in his official bungalow was only fit for a Dickensian workshop. When furniture prices were slashed at a sale, he emptied his savings account and bought an 8-piece velvet suit. Anum took both the risk of temporary bankruptcy and his toddler's destructiveness into account, and swore he would replenish his account and control his band of infant destroyers. Now with his children grown up, and the suit refurbished, Anum's residence is fit for a

king. His colleagues are bemused by his "luck". I put it down to his ability to take a calculated risk.

Lucky people have the knack of getting out of themselves and viewing their performance objectively, with a view of improving upon their output. When Asiamah became the Dean of his Faculty, he found that he was expected to chair many academic functions. He had never been chairman of anything more formal than last year's harvest at the residents' church. So, he attended every function which the celebrated Fatima, the acclaimed mistress of ceremonies, presided over. He studied Fatima's attractive steering style. Within weeks Asiamah was very well accomplished. He had turned his initial problem into an opportunity to learn new skills. Observers congratulated Asiamah on his "luck" of being born a chairman.

Yusef is also considered a "lucky" guy. In 1987, he invested 1,000 Dalasi in Gantia Limited. Five months later, Gantia's share started falling. Yusef retrieved only 800 Dalasi from his original investments because that firm went bankrupt. They dismissed Yusef as being "just lucky". I say that he has the ability to cut down losses and change course.

Thirdly, gregarious people tend to be described as "lucky". In striking contrast to the stand-offishness of most intellectuals, Dr. Quist was truly outgoing. He took every opportunity to talk to messengers and typist about very personal matters. Friends marvelled at how Dr. Quist's novels portrayed human experience so graphically. "He is just lucky", they grimace. But I wonder. Does one get an insight into the nitty-gritty of real life and produce best sellers just by being lucky?

Friends say Rabs is lucky. She had bred into the party wearing a pair of jeans and ***boubou*** only to find the other guests dressed to kill. She was having a good time when suddenly the heavens broke loose. Every one of the guests was drenched to the skin. Rabs giggled ceaselessly. "You are lucky you don't have your expensive shoes soaked nor your priceless damask ruined;" Rabs twittered, "Lucky, am I? When I walked in I was dressed like your poor country cousin. Now, this rain has levelled us all into soggy mice". And she laughed again. "I am laughing at myself", said Rabs, "If I don't laugh at myself what right will I have to laugh at others?"
(West African Exam Council)

Question

In six sentences, one for each, summarise those habits that the writer recommends for people who want to be "lucky".

Answers

1. Firstly, lucky people plan their lives. Secondly, they take calculated risks. Thirdly, they recognise their shortcomings. Fourthly, they cut down on losses and change causes. Yet another habit of lucky people is that they are gregarious. Finally, lucky people have a sense of humour.

PASSAGE 5

Let us take a look at one of the many ancient virtues that Sunday school teachers used to make us believe will take us to heaven. Sister Victoria preached *'temperance'*. Sister said that everything was good for our souls provided it was done with temperance. Many of my classmates loved the word "temperance", because as Sophia used to say, "the word came tripping off our tongues and made us sound learned".

Modern scientists have gone through tons of research materials, and have come full circle to conclude that if we want to live safe and sound, we should do everything with *moderation*. Science says that sleep is a tonic for our bodies, provided the habit is not over-indulged in. Six hours of sleep each night at regular times, will make us live for a long time; eight hours of sleep each night will slumber away a third of our lives; ten hours of sleep each night will make us grow old before our time.

Heart surgeons tell us that gentle daily exercise protects us from heart attack, but that irregular outburst of vigorous exercises will kill us in no time.

Beauticians warn us that occasional smiling relaxes the muscles of the face, but that persistent grinning from ear to ear disturbs the smoothness of the face and makes us wrinkle up and look old before our time.

The conclusion of both religions and science merge into the single lesson that for anything to give us its full advantage, it should be done with lukewarm indifference. Tony is not all sure that he likes temperance and the welfare of his soul, nor moderation for the good of his body. He does not find either virtue interesting enough. His main consolation is that his two colleagues, Boat and Akua also dislike indifference.

Tony's elder sister, Emerald, had warned him that it is immature to divide the world into only blacks and whites. Emerald endorses the biblical and scientific view that most of the world is really created in some distinct, and uninteresting grey; different shades and tints of grey.

Tony had promised that he might accept uninteresting moderation when he has one foot in the grave. Right now, however, he means to discover the joys of living dangerously
(West African Examination Council)

Questions

(a) In one sentence state the main advantage of the virtues.
(b) In three sentences summarise the recommendation of science.
(c) State the difference between temperance and moderation in your own words.
(d) Find the suitable title for the passage. Your answer does not have to be a sentence.

Answers

(a) ~~The virtues are good~~/serene/healthy.
(b) To begin with, science recommends that we sleep moderately. In addition, we should exercise ourselves gently. Moreover, science recommends occasional smiles or
The recommendations of science are
    (i) sleep moderately.
    (ii) exercise gently.
    (iii) smile occasionally.
(c) While temperance is used by religion moderation is used by science
Temperance caters for the souls while moderation caters for the body
(d) Science and religion uphold the same virtues.
(e) Science and religion agree on healthy living.

PASSAGE 6

Fish is the main source of animal protein in Ghana and the NCWD identified fish smoking as one of the major income-generating activities whose operation can be considerably improved and made more efficient by the introduction of simple technology. Kokrobite, a fishing village near Accra, was chosen as a site for a pilot project and, a new fish-smoking kiln designed by the Department of Fisheries was introduced to a group of women. After trying the kiln for a couple of months the women rejected it because they

saw it was not very suitable for their purposes. One thing was clear, however. The design of the kiln was so different from anything that they were familiar with that they had difficulty in getting used to it. Moreover, although the kiln was a more hygienic way of smoking fish, the qualities the women smoked with were not as dramatic an improvement on their traditional methods as was the case with the gari processing and oil extracting equipment, and the women were therefore not too keen on continuing with it.

In the meantime, the NCWD had heard about a new fish smoking technology, designed by the Food Research Institute of the Council for Scientific and Industrial Research in Ghana, which was successfully being used by the women of Chokor, a suburb of Accra. The Chokor oven, as it became known, had been designed by the Food Research Institute in close collaboration with the women of Chokor. It is designed with a few innovations. The mud (or now sandcrete) oven is rectangular in shape, and about half a metre from the ground. The rack on which the fish is smoked is made of sheet of rectangular wire mesh, the same measurements as the top of the sandcrete oven.

The mesh is bounded on the four sides with wooden batons in such a way that when several trays are stacked on top of the other on the sandcrete oven, they act as chimney through which smoke from the firewood below travels upwards, smoking and drying the layouts of fish on the trays in the process. This means that the women can smoke several layers of fish at a time, between the four and twelve layers, using the same fuel. The number of layers depends on the size of the fish and the smaller the fish, the more the layers. From time to time, the women rotate the layers of fish bringing to top trays from the bottom to ensure that all the layers are evenly smoked and dried.
(West African Examination Council)

Question

(a) In six sentences, one for each advantage, summarise the advantages of the new kiln over the traditional method of smoking.

Answer

First, the new kiln is more hygienic. Secondly, it is faster to use. Thirdly, it helps to smoke more fish at the same time. Fourthly, it uses less fuel. Fifthly, the new kiln is more reliable. Finally, it smokes fish better.

Or

(i) The new kiln is more hygienic.
(ii) It is faster to use/it saves time.
(iii) More fish can be smoked at the same time.
(iv) It uses less fuel/it is economical.
(v) It is more reliable/it is more efficient.
(vi) Fish is better smoked/fish is evenly smoked.

There are other advantages apart from the six mentioned above. These include:

- It is more acceptable.
- Some of the characteristics are similar to the traditional one.
- It is adaptable to the size of fish or it is versatile.

PASSAGE 7

Those who see nothing wrong with make-up argue that man must continue to improve on God's creation; else, we would return to the culture of the Stone Age. We go in for the latest fashions in dresses and decorate our houses; why should women not paint their lips or even their bodies? To them, make-up heightens the beauty of women and gives them the angelic brightness that God intended for them.

But, like the true discipline of Hamlet that I am, I would complain to my Ophelia, "God has given you one face, and you make yourself another". Unpainted houses may look unfinished and dull, but I do not see unpainted lips ugly and incomplete. On the contrary, it retains the innocence God gave it. I believe a woman who uses make-up primarily intends nothing but to charm and lure men.

Besides, I do not know any religion that advocates make-up. Emboldened by Moses' law against the use of earrings, one saint forbade women to smear their face with "Ensnaring" devices of cunning, while another one asked, "What have rouge and white to do on a Christian woman's face?" Why then should a woman perforate her ears or nose or even dye her hair?

Even feminists—supporters of women's rights—would like women to avoid using make-up for, they say, it is one of the tools men use to subdue women. Instead of yielding to that male chauvinist 'pigs' who would have them concentrate on their looks and so fall easy prey to their rights. Beauty cannot be a substitute for hard work, they

believe nor can it create self-esteem. No wonder they demonstrated so vehemently against beauty contest in America in the 1960's.

Environmentalist and animal rights group also come up strongly against the use of cosmetics. Many living animals and plants are destroyed every year to manufacture make-up, and this threatens the environment. In 1984, they pointed out, experiments were conducted on more than seventeen thousand living animals and plants in experiment for the benefit of man; surely, it must be for something better than creating make-up to beautify a woman's face. We should not deny our children the beauties of nature just because some women would like to have facelift.

Perhaps, the most important argument against women's use of make-up is the risk to their health. Over the years women have been casualties of cosmetics and lead poisoning. Modern scientists have warned that cancer can be caused by skin bleaches and hair dyes, and Michael Jackson can testify that hair spray can cause burns. Indeed, using make-up can be painful, costly and deadly.
(West African Examination Council)

Questions

(a) In one sentence, state why according to the writer women use make-up.
(b) In five sentences, one for each, state the evils of make-up.

Answer

(a) Women use make-up to heighten the beauty of God's creation.
(b) (i) No religion advocates make-up.
(ii) It is one of the tools men use to subdue women.
(iii) Make-up destroys the environment.
(iv) It is risky.
(v) It is painful, costly and deadly.

PASSAGE 8

The world's universities are bursting at their seams; every faculty has recently had to close its doors to hundreds of heart-broken applicants. Archaeology is no exception; and that is as it should be, for without this discipline, the world would have been deprived of very useful bits of knowledge. One shudders at how badly off the world would have been for the lack of such useful knowledge.

For instance, last Friday, the 13th of August, every news bulletin carried the item of a most exhilarating archaeological finding. Nine-thousand-year old fossils dug up from 15 miles below the earth's surface had revealed that, in pre-historic times, teenagers chewed gum. The experts know that the teeth of the fossil definitely belonged to a teenager because although they were not as developed as fully-grown adults, they were much stronger than a child's would have been. The gum had been solidified from sap from a birch tree and must have been sweetened with honey with mint leaf added for flavour.

Further research has promised to determine whether chewing gum was medicinal. The suspicion was that it was; otherwise why would a teenager in the bloom of youthful exuberance lie dead with his gum securely wedged between his molars? Research would also establish whether he did so with relish.

The excavation and its attendant analysis had so far cost 18 billion American dollars, the newscaster said. A further 10 billion had been allocated to the archaeological consortium to resolve the related questions that puzzle modern scientists, historians and sociologists – indeed the whole of the academic world.

Anum chewed his lower lip as he gazed at the pre-set radio that was excitedly bashing the details.
(West African Examination Council)

Questions

(a) In one sentence, summarise the general usefulness of archaeology.
(b) In three sentences, one for each, summarise the points that further research should clarify about pre-historic chewing gum.

Answers

(a) Archaeology has unearthed useful knowledge.
(b) Further research would establish whether the teenager enjoyed chewing his gum. It would, also, establish whether the gum was chewed till it lost its sweetness. It would establish whether pre-historic chewing gum was favoured by mothers of teenagers. It should establish whether pre-historic chewing gum was medicinal.
(c) Pre-historic chewing gum was plant-derived, sweetened and flavoured.

PASSAGE 9

1996, Ghana has been bitten by the 'save the children' bug that was imported into the country from the west where cold-hearted parents treat their young in unspeakable ways. Foreign newspaper articles screech out atrocities against children, thus justifying their 'save the children' crusade.

Local newspapers, however, are worried about why Ghana is faithfully following western suit. Suddenly, this country's media are lamenting over its own brood of street children – neglected, abandoned urchins and deprived children – whose examination fees have not been paid by their supposedly irresponsible parents. But do these horrors reflect the true situation?

Ghanaian society abounds in adults who sacrifice their all to see their children through various stages of attainment. Parents give up their meals that their little ones will have their fill. During the1983 starvation spell, elders sold their heirlooms that had been in their families for years, in order to feed their young. There are many recorded single incidents of whole villages pooling resources to push a single child through higher education. In those accounts, the beneficiaries develop a sound social sense which leads them into ploughing some of their own earnings back into their communities. These days, what children give back in return leaves much to be desired. City children are particularly insensitive. They smash their parents' cars, steal their mothers' jewellery, give away all their parents video cassettes to "friends" they can hardly remember. They dress so scruffily that anyone would think they were rejects some cats dragged in from some rubbish heap. Adolescents have upset so many parents that when the Ministry of Education decreed that all pupils should wear the same –styled uniform, Ashanti mothers, with their characteristic wit, christen the uniform "Oblara ba nye" meaning "Everybody's child has become a pest".

If the actual situation is researched into with sincerity, the nation will scrap these children-worshipping cults that are of no use here, since no Ghanaian children need salvation. Instead of them, the nation should institute a Parents' Protection Council. That will be a much more relevant answer to a crying need, because counsellors can, for one thing, assuage parents' fears that their children's boisterousness is bringing the world to a premature end. For another, parents' protection councillors may be able to persuade the children that they are sent to school for their own good and not for their parents' ego.

(West African Examination Council)

Question

(a) In one sentence, state why western countries need a "Save the Children" institution.
(b) In one sentence, state the Ghanaian media's response to the foreign "Save the Children" crusade.
(c) In two sentences, one for each, state the way Ghanaian adults treat their children.
(d) In one sentence, summarise how city children in particular repay their parents' kindness.
(e) In one sentence, summarise why the writer wants the nation to set up Parents' Protection Council.

Answers

(a) Western countries treat their children badly/western parents treat their children badly.
(b) Ghanaian media portray similar examples of maltreated children.
(c) (i) Ghanaian adults pamper their children/Ghanaian adults put their children first.
(ii) Ghanaian adults pool their resources to help children into better ft[illegible]
(d) City children repay their parents with bad deeds/City children are ungrateful to their parents.
(e) The Parents' Protection Council will calm parents' fears and convince children that their parents' cares are for their own good.

PASSAGE 10

Last night, a thirty-two-seater bus caught fire in my town. There had been no previous sign that anything was amiss. Its young driver was reversing into an alley when suddenly a huge explosion shattered the silence of the dusk. Smoke started spreading. Ten minutes later tongues of fire licked their way into the thickening darkness.

Some of the women bystanders screamed hysterically as if they thought piercing screams could quench the fire. Some took to flapping and whisking, and whipping their fingers in the fluttering way while most of them generally showed extreme agitation. Others slammed their palms first on their bellies then on their heads, and back to their

bellies again. Still others wailed that of all the catastrophes that could befall mankind that particular burning spectacle was the very worst.

As spectators started milling around, and the women kept up a sturdy wailing and gnashing of teeth, one man remembered to run home and telephone the fire service. When he rushed back to announce that the firemen would be down directly, the women breathed a sigh of relief. They mumbled their hasty thanks to the man, and then off they went again, screaming their heads off as the fire raged on. One blast followed another as the tyres exploded. When the fuel tank exploded with a huge bang, the women shrieked the more. They knew there was nothing more to be salvaged; and their hearts went out to the vehicle owner and his family.

Meanwhile, the men had gathered in a circle at a safe distance away. Their eyes were focused on the smothering bus; their minds could not have been farther off. They were now discussing the inflationary factors that were ending the cedi hurtling down.

Everyone had forgotten about the call to the fire service. One long hour and half later there suddenly came the whining drone of the fire engine. As the women fell back they started booing expressing their scorn, loud and clear. One asked sarcastically, "Are you coming to water the burnt offering?" Instead of keeping a dignified silence, one of the firemen retorted, "Just like a woman. You are not even interested in what happened to us on our way here?" The hooting and the booing rose again. Two of the men stepped forward, and, calmly asked the fireman to explain to the women what had happened to them since his station was not far away.

The women shrieked their displeasure and jeered again. One female voice yelled above the noise, "Spare us the cold rationalisation. Just make that bus come back to us."
(West African Examination Council)

Questions

1. In three sentences, one for each, state three qualities that characterise women.
2. In three sentences, one for each, state three qualities that characterise men.

Answers

(a) 1. Women are demonstrative/emotional.
2. Women identify with people in distress.
3. Women are sarcastic.

(b) 1. Men remain calm.
2. Men are preoccupied with affairs of state.
3. Men are practical/rational.

PASSAGE 11

In the Universal Declaration of Human Rights, the liberties outlined are clearly stated as belonging to everyone. In almost all societies, however, women have been traditionally held as inferior, or subject, to men. Even in societies where women have the vote, equal opportunities of education and equality before the law, there is still a large measure of prejudice and discrimination. Women often find it harder than men to get jobs for which they are equally well qualified; women's rates pay are sometimes lower than men's and married women are particularly unfortunate in many countries being discriminated against as in such things as taxation, family allowances and the owning of property and even in having to get written permission from their husbands before taking paid employment.

It is to combat inequalities like those that the Women's Liberation Movement has arisen in many parts of the world. So successfully has pressure on the government been in Britain, for example that a Sex Discrimination Act was passed in 1975. While removing many of the obvious injustices against women, this kind of legislation can result in many absurdities. For example, it is an offence in Britain for a prospective employer, when advertising a post, to state the sex of the required applicant – but obviously there are some jobs for which men and women are not equally suitable. Who would want a male nanny to look after three little girls, or a female P. E. instructor in a men's prison? Surely in these days of equality, prisons, hospital wards and all other institutions should become co-educational; or should it be cohabitation? So sensitive has some opinions become on this issue that one sometimes sees references to a 'chairperson' presenting over a meeting; and it has been frivolously suggested that we should all rejoice in privilege of belonging to personkind.

Where should it all stop? Most women do not want the kind of equality that makes men and women socially identical. The French saying, "Vive la difference!" suggests that he difference between men and women perhaps is something to be cherished rather than denied. Perhaps the sanest thing to do is to return to the Universal Declaration of Human Rights and use it as a basis for rational equity, worthy of the intelligence of mankind.
(Com. Skills Examination)

Summary of the Passage

Heading: Over-Stretching Gender Equality

Although the Universal Declaration of Human Rights confers equal rights on both men and women, it is almost universal that women are discriminated against in all societies. While it is true that some societies grant equal rights to both genders in areas as voting, education and the law, they nonetheless do discriminate against all women in job opportunities and equal pay. Married women suffer even more. They even must obtain husbands' permission to get a paid job.

It is inequalities like these that the women's Liberation Movement has set out to fight in many parts of the world.

In Britain, the movement achieved success, particularly in getting sex Discrimination Act of 1975 passed. The Act made it an offence for an employer when advertising for a post to ask the applicant to state his/her sex. Obviously, there r flaws in the Act as not all jobs are suu9table for both sexes. Nobody wants male nannies for small girls. Neither it is reasonable to appoint a female P/E. instructor to a job in men's prison. Or do we intend to make prisons and hospital wards *cohabitational*? So funny is the situation that innocent words are being replaced by awkward ones like personkind.

Surely, we need to restore sense and balance in our fight for equal rights. The starting point is the Human Rights document itself. It surely will help us restore equal rights to all without necessarily men and women socially identical.

PASSAGE 12

The question of whether or not there is a significant relationship between intelligence and creativity is crucial to a discussion on the teaching of creativity. This is especially so since educational research findings would counsel that teachers should adjust their instructions to reflect the level of intelligence of learners. This issue has always proved a hard nut to crack because phenomena not easy to explain often surface during the process of intelligence measurement. For instance, ***dropouts from normal academic institutions have been known to emerge as great inventors late in life*** while ***pupils highly praised as high achievers turn out to be uncreative***. Thomas Edison, reputed to be one the greatest inventors in the world, never had a high school education nor did the Wright Brothers who discovered the first aeroplane. Albert Einstein, the greatest physicist was said to have a low intelligence while in the primary school. In all, though

education has been proved to greatly enhance vocational and technical skills, it appears that academic intelligence does not always tally with creative intelligence. During the 1960's, a study carried out in the United States showed that there are only modest relationships between intelligence quotient and performance in creative thinking tests. In fact, an earlier study in Chicago University concluded that intelligence quotient tests are not useful in identifying students of varying creative abilities.

Some of the highlights of the Chicago University are worth discussing more closely. The study sought to distinguish the characteristics of learners having high intelligence quotient from those having high creative intelligence. The results showed that highly creative students were not among those having the highest intelligence quotient and vice versa. It was also found that while the highly intelligent students were conventional and hardly ever showed ***traits of fantasy***, the highly creative learners ***made significantly greater use of fantasy and imagination in exercises involving narration***. Besides, the highly intelligent group preferred very conventional professions such as medicine, engineering and law whereas the highly creative ones preferred very unconventional vocations like inventing, fine arts, space travelling and the like. On the social side, the highly intelligent group showed very little ***liking for humour*** while the highly creative showed ***agreat tendency to be humorous***. Finally, while the highly intelligent enjoyed the teachers' favour and highly overran into trouble, the highly creative students were much often out of the teacher's favour.

(a) In ***one*** sentence, summarise the argument used by the author to show that academic intelligence is distinct from creative intelligence.

(b) In ***five*** sentences, one sentence for each finding, summarise the ***five*** findings of the Chicago University's study, as shown in the passage.

PASSAGE 13

The ideal classroom atmosphere allows for learner's questions. Where, after the end of a lesson no questions are asked, the teacher should not be pleased with himself. In fact, the exact opposite might be the case. Unfortunately, many a teacher-trainee gets scared of learners' questions when the lesson has been poorly delivered, or that learners challenge the teacher's authority through question. In reality, however, questions asked sometimes when the lesson has succeeded brilliantly. Even when learners ask questions because they are somehow confused, the teacher should endeavour to handle the questions with skill. So, let us consider how one might handle some typical learners' situations.

Quite often, learners ask questions on a point which the teacher has just finished dealing with. The teacher feels frustrated and angry since he might fail to see how a normal learner would fail to comprehend when he had just presented in a very clear and simple language. He could do better not to boil over. Rather, he might do one of two things.

First, he might ask another question in return. This might serve to probe why the learner could have failed to see the point. A question asked from a learner who appears to have failed to follow the teacher's point might enable that learner to reason out the point on his own. It might also serve to draw out from the learner the kind of response which could show what problems he actually has. A good question asked in response by the teacher might also serve to show that the learner had been allowing his mind to go on adventure while the lesson was in progress. This, done quite often, would serve to warn the learners to be attentive whenever a lesson is on.

Second, rather than ask another question in response, the teacher might throw that learner's question to the class. He might do this for an important reason. Should most of the others signify that they can tackle the question, this will re-assure the teacher that he has not failed as the nature of he learners' question might have suggested. Should most of the others fail to signify their ability to answer it, however, the teacher should accept that he has not presented the point as clearly as possible.

Should the teacher discover that the learners genuinely do not understand the concept taught, he should restate the points in simpler clearer language. He might use illustrations, examples, analogies, etc in order to make himself clearly understood. This is usually the state at which changing his method would be in order. If, for instance, he had utilised the lecture method earlier on, he might not like to try the discussion method.

1. In ***two*** sentences, one for each, state what learners' question:
   (i) do not necessarily indicate.
   (ii) often indicate.
2. In ***two*** sentences, one for each, summarise the two approaches which a teacher could adopt in dealing with questions from learners.
3. In ***two*** sentences, one for each, briefly describe the two things a teacher should do if he discovers that the learners do not understand the lesson.

CHAPTER SIX

ORAL PRESENTATION SKILLS

As a student, you engage in public oral presentation every time you speak in class. You probably speak before groups of listeners in other situations as well. Whether your audience is large or small, friends or strangers, your objective as a speaker is to convey a message to your listeners. In this unit you will study and apply principles that will help you to be a more effective public speaker.

Kinds of Speech

Speeches may vary from formal to informal, depending on the occasion, the purpose, and the audience. An address to parliament, for example, is a very formal speech. A committee report at a club meeting, on the other hand, is relatively informal.

In addition to being formal or informal, a speech may be either prepared or impromptu. A prepared speech is planned carefully before it is delivered. If you were giving a speech to your English class on the life of Dr. Kwame Nkrumah, for instance, you would do the needed research, organise your material, write your note cards, rehearse, and then deliver your prepared speech.

On the other hand, if you were asked in class to summarise the first chapter of Achebe's ***Things Fall Apart***, your answer would be an impromptu speech. Other examples of impromptu speeches include unscheduled announcements, speeches accepting unexpected awards, and other talks that you give on the spur of the moment, without preparation.

Considering Purpose, Audience, and Topics

In deciding on a speech topic, you should consider who your audience is, what subjects might interest them, and what would be appropriate for the occasion. A group of students new to your school, for example, would probably be interested in an informative talk about the layout of the school and the activities and services available to them. The same talk would not be very interesting to students who had already been attending your school for several years.

Besides considering appropriate topics for your listeners, think also about the purpose of your speech. If you decide to make a speech on an excursion, you have several

An informative speech focuses primarily on factual, objectives information. A persuasive speech is necessarily an expression of your opinion. The more strongly you can support your position with facts and other evidence, however, the more likely your audience is to accept it. You may need to include any of the following kinds of information in your speech.

1. *Explanations:* You may need to explain unfamiliar concepts to your listeners, telling what something is, why something happens as it does.
2. *Definition.* When you include an unfamiliar term or use a word in an unusual way, you need to define it for your listeners.
3. *Examples and illustrations:* You can clarify what you are saying by giving examples of general categories or by using illustrations, which are extended. Such examples and illustrations must be detailed.
4. *Statistics:* Use statistics – (facts in the form of numbers –) only sparingly, so that they interest your listeners and give authority to your points.
5. Quotations: The statement of another person, cited exactly as originally spoken or written, can add variety and impact if chosen carefully.
6. *Anecdotes:* You can use a brief account of an incident to amuse, inspire, or enlighten your audience. Be sure that any anecdote you use relates directly to the ideas in your speech and is appropriate for your audience and the occasion.

Organise the Speech

Organise your materials into a speech with an introduction, a body, and a conclusion. Because the body of the speech contains most of the material, it is the part that you should develop first.

The major points that you plan to cover in your speech are the main headings under which you organise your material into subheadings. This will help your audience to understand your main ideas and the information that supports them.

The Parts of a Speech

The body of your Speech: There are various ways to recognise a speech so that your ideas are clear and in an order appropriate to your topic and purpose. Note the following methods:

1. Use topical order when you can divide your topic into distinct parts.
2. Use chronological (or time) order when your topic involves a step-by-step process or a historical progression.
3. Use spatial order when your topic involves physical or geographical relationships.
4. Use order or importance when you rank your headings from least to most important or from most to least important.
5. Arrange your materials according to cause and effect when your speech topic deals with the reasons behind an event or with the result of an event
6. Organise your speech by comparison and contrast when you point out similarities and differences between situations, persons or concepts.
7. Organise a speech by the problem-solving method when you define a problem and evaluate alternative solutions, as in many persuasive speeches

Introduction to Speech

The purpose of the introduction is to create interest in your topic, to show why it is important, to establish common found with your listeners and to lead them into the body of your speech. You present your thesis statement, in the introduction and give some indication of how the speech will be organised.

To make your introduction effective and to arouse your listeners' interest, you may want to include a rhetorical question, a quotation or a piece of little-known information. Keep in mind that any material you use in your introduction should relate directly to what you will say in the rest of your speech.

Conclusion of a Speech

Your conclusion should sum up your speech and leave a strong impression on your listeners' minds. In an informative speech, this is your last chance, to help your listeners to understand and remember the information that you have presented. In a persuasive speech, it is your last chance to influence their opinions and actions.

Different kinds of conclusions are appropriate for different kinds of speeches. An informative speech may end with a restatement of your position, a striking statement, a challenging question, or a call for action. An entertaining speech may end with an anecdote, a quotation, a startling statement, or a question

possibilities. You can inform your listeners about an aspect of excursion, persuade them to try a particular excursion method, or entertain them with a funny story about excursion. You must always consider your purpose, your audience, and your topic in relation to one another.

Planning a Speech

The key to making a successful speech is good planning. Adequate attention to each step in the preparation process makes the next step easier. These are the steps to follow:

1. Selecting and limiting your topic.
2. Gathering information and developing ideas.
3. Organising your speech.
4. Preparing and rehearsing your speech.
5. Delivering your speech.

Selecting and Limiting a Topic

Any subject that interests you can be the source of a good speech topic. In choosing a topic, you should think about your own experiences, knowledge, observations, work, hobbies, or special interests. You may also find a topic by talking to friends and family members or by getting ideas from radio, television, films, books, newspapers, or magazines.

Sometimes you will be assigned a general subject, such as solar energy, the English novel, or computer technology. At other times you will choose your own topic. In both situations you must limit your topic so that it will be narrow enough for you to cover well and also be appropriate for your audience, and your time limit.

General and Specific Purposes

The general purpose of your speech is to inform, to persuade, to entertain, or perhaps some combination of these purposes. Your specific purpose is a more exact statement of what you want your listeners to know, to feel, to think, or to do. For example:

General Purpose		Specific Purpose
To inform	=	I want my audience to learn how a scuba operates.
To persuade	=	I want my audience to support distance education.
To entertain	=	I want my audience to be amused by my experiences when I worked as a clerk.

Thesis Statement

After you have determined your general and specific purposes, you are ready to write a thesis statement. In clear, specific language, the thesis statement tells your audience what you are going to talk about. Study how the preceding statements of specific purpose are incorporated into thesis statements in these examples.

General Purpose		Thesis Statement
To inform	=	Today we will look at the part of a scuba tank and see how they function
To persuade	=	Distance educational, television can benefit us as Ghanaians; we should all support it
To entertain	=	Let me tell you from my own experience some of the funny things that can happen to a clerk.

Your Time Limit

The amount of time allotted for your speech is another factor for you to consider when you are limiting your topic. Knowing how long you will be speaking will also help you as you gather information and organise your speech. If you have been given a time limit for your speech, discuss the matter with the person in charge.

Gathering Information

Sources of Information: Information for your speech may come from different sources. List briefly some of the pieces of information you need to meet your specific purpose and to support your thesis statements. Depending on your topic, any of the following sources may provide the information you need.

1. Personal knowledge, observations and experiences.
2. Books, newspapers, magazines, pamphlets, encyclopaedias and other reference materials.
3. Radio, television and films.
4. Speeches, lectures and public meetings.
5. Interviews with friends, family members or experts on the topic.

Kinds of Information: The material you present in your speech may be facts, your own opinion, someone else's opinion or opinion supported by facts. All of these kinds of information may be appropriate, depending on the topic and purpose of your speech. You should, however, be sure to distinguish between facts and opinion and to use then appropriately.

Sentence Structure for Speeches

Since your audience must grasp and remember the words of a sentence in just one hearing, spoken sentences should not be too long or complex.

Keep the following in mind:

1. A simple sentence with a clear sequence or subject and verb is easy for your audience to understand. A compound sentence, one that has two or more independent clauses, is also easy to follow. For example:
   "Wages continue to go up, but prices keep rising faster."
2. A complex sentence is easier to understand when the subordinate clause follows the main clause.
   "The next decade will require new ideas, new approaches and new concepts because you cannot approach the future with yesterday's tools"
3. As a speaker, you need not avoid ending sentences with prepositions if the effect is natural.
   "This is the first issue for us to be concerned with."
4. You can use commands, exclamations and questions as effective ways to awaken interest.
   "Never understand your own creative power."
   "The results were amazing!"
5. You may occasionally use partial sentences in a speech to achieve a certain effect.
   "Today, not tomorrow."
   "More courses, more options, more knowledge"
6. By using parallel structure, you can lend a rhythmical quality to parts of your speech, making your message both pleasant to listen and easy to understand.
   "We get vitamin A from carrots and spinach, vitamin C from oranges and tomatoes and vitamin D from fish oils and sunshine."

Signals and Transitional Words

Signals are words or phrases that alert your listeners to what is coming next in your speech. You insert signals to tell them what to expect for or to indicate key points or shifts in focus.

Signal of purpose: "I would like to tell you about ....."
"I will present evidence to show....."

Signal of background information: "let us see how this situation came about..."

Signal of key points: "There are three basic types of ....."

Signal of supporting material:
"An example of this is"
"In a recent survey ....."

Transition words and phrases contribute to coherence by establishing the connections between your basic ideas and your supporting material and between parts of your speech. Note the following kinds of transitional words and phrases:

Likeness: Moreover, in addition, and similarly, likeness.
Contrast: But, on the other hand, however, nevertheless, although, conversely.
Emphasis: even more important, chiefly, significantly, indeed.
Example: For instance, as an example, specifically, such as, that is.
Consequence: thus, it follows, as a result, therefore, so, then, hence.
Chronology: Finally, next, then, at least, later, as soon as, until, prior to, before.
Restatement: In other words, that is, in short, in effect.
Conclusion: Finally, to sum up, in closing, all in all.

Repetition and Summary

You need sometimes to repeat for your listeners. Repeating the same idea in the same way ensures that your listeners take note of it, remember it, and realise that it is important. If repetition of the same words threatens to become monotonous, you can relate the same information in different words. This technique is also helpful if you think your listeners may not have understood the idea as you phrased it originally.

Statement: During the Gilded Age, the economy of the United State experienced rapid growth.
Repetition: Remember that we saw earlier that the economy of the United States experienced rapid growth during the Gilded Age.
Restatement: The economy of this country expanded at a remarkable rate during the late 1800's.

A summary is a general repetition or statement of points made in your speech. The summary forms a total picture of the parts under discussion. You may summarise one section of your speech before continuing with the next section, as well as summarising the entire speech in your conclusion:

"As you recall, the three characters in the novel had similar backgrounds, experiences, and expectations, but each was a distinct individual."
"I have presented to you the advantages of joining the hiking club and have shown you how hiking can be fun and educational."

Things to Avoid

When you are thinking about the words you want to use in your speech, keep in mind the following pitfalls that can weaken your presentation.

Generalisation: A generalisation is a statement that includes every member of a category or every occurrence of an event. For example

Generalisation: "*All* artists live unconventional lives."
"Gossip always leads to trouble."

A generalisation can be disproved by finding just one exception.
If one artist leads a conventional life, the generalisation in the preceding example is not valid. You can usually limit a generalisation by changing or inserting a word or a brief phrase. You can say for instance "some artists live unconventional lives," or "Gossip frequently leads to trouble."

Other words that appear in your generalisation are *everyone, anytime, completely, constantly, every, invariably no*, and *none, as well as, all* and *always*. Words and phrases to replace them include *may, often, some, few, usually, sometimes, frequently, in most cases*, and *for the most part*.

Keep in mind that not all statements containing such words as "all" and "always" need to be changed. The statement "All triangles have three sides" has no exceptions and is a valid statement.

Jargon: Many occupations and areas of interest such as sports and hobbies have their own special vocabularies or expressions. In a speech, avoid using this special language, called jargon, unless your audience is also familiar with the terms.
If you are giving a talk to the chess club, you can include specialised terms that other chess players would know. If you give a talk on chess to another audience, however, you should limit your use of jargons and explain those terms that you need to use.

Clichés: Some words and expressions have been used so often that they have lost their flavour or impact. Avoid using these clichés, or trite expressions; they do not stimulate interest or contribute to understanding. Examples of trite expressions include *nice, great, terrific, awful, few* and *far between, last but not least, nervous as a cat*, and so on.

PREPARING AND DELIVERING A SPEECH

Having outlined your speech, you are ready to plan for delivering it to your audience. With good preparation, your presentation is likely to be successful.

Preparing Yourself to Speak

You can use certain techniques to help you prepare for an effective delivery. Depending on how you plan to deliver your speech, you may need to know how to make and use note cards or how to write your manuscript. You should consider also the use of visual aids, rehearsing your speech, and your setting.

Using Note Cards

You can use note cards as a guide when you deliver your speech. You should have a card for your introduction, another for the conclusion, and a varying number for the body, depending on the length and complexity of your speech. Each card for the body of your speech should not contain more than one main idea with its subheadings and supporting information.Write key words and phrases on the cards to help you remember your points.

Write out in full any material you must present in exact form, such as quotations and statistics. Include names, data and other important information .You may want to use different coloured inks for main ideas, subheadings, and supporting material.

Write on only one side of your note cards. Do not crowd your notes. Write clearly so that you may be able to read them at a glance. Number your cards so that you can keep them in order.

SPEAKING BEFORE A GROUP

Your delivery is a significant factor in how your listeners respond to your speech and how well you achieve your purpose. Your voice, posture, gestures, and use of eye contact are all important.

Using your Voice Effectively

Variety in the rate, loudness, pitch, and quality of your voice helps to express your thought and feelings. In addition, vocal variation keeps your audience interested.
The quickness or slowness with which you speak and the length of your pauses constitute the rate. You may want to vary your rate enough to heighten interest without sacrificing clarity.

Your voice must be loud enough to be heard easily, yet not so loud that your audience find it unpleasant. Try lowering and raising your voice for emphasis. Also, try not to pitch your voice too high or too low. Let your pitch vary, however, within a comfortable range.

The quality of your voice should be pleasing, and alive. Work to overcome such problems as harshness, breathiness, or nasality (speaking through the nose).

Posture, Gestures, and Eye Contact

Stand straight, but not stiffly, as you deliver your speech. Avoid leaning on a desk or lectern. Feel free to move about, provided your movements are natural and do not detract attention from what you are saying.

Gestures can be effective in reinforcing your meaning. Use gestures as you would in every day conversation. If you relax and concentrate on your topic, your gestures may be more natural.

Avoid the following detracting gestures and movements: locking your hands and arms behind or in front of your body, covering your mouth with your hand, pacing nervously, leaning, jingling objects in your pockets, twisting your hair or a ring, standing in a frozen posture, and rocking or swaying

Remember to make eye contact with your audience. Look at your listeners, and not on the back wall, the floor or the ceiling. Let your eyes move from face to face, establishing personal contact.

Avoiding Nervousness

Almost everyone is nervous about making a speech. If you have prepared your speech well and rehearsed until you know the material thoroughly, you will be more confident. Concentrate on what you are saying and remember that the message is what is most important.

The more you practice before others, the more easily you will be able to speak in public. Many speakers never completely overcome nervousness, but by selecting a topic you care about, preparing carefully, and taking time to rehearse and refine your techniques, you will feel more comfortable. You will reduce your nervousness and increase your confidence.

EXTEMPORANEOUS AND IMPROMPTU SPEECHES

Sometimes you make a speech with little or no preparation. When you prepare your notes in advance and then speak without notes, or with a few brief notes, your speech is **extemporaneous.** When you speak on the spur of the moment, with no preparation, your speech is **impromptu.**

Impromptu speaking requires a lot of thinking on your feet. So does **extemporaneous speaking,** for it involves delivering a planned message in the language of the moment. You can practice by reading a short story or an article; when you finish it, summarise aloud what you have read. Use a tape recorder or have a friend listen.

Another way to practice is to have a friend suggest topics for you to speak on without preparation. The more you practice with thinking on your feet, the more you develop self-confidence and ease.

Even if you do not feel completely confident, you can help yourself and convince your audience by standing straight, using a strong voice, avoiding nervous mannerisms, and looking directly at your audience. Pause when you think about what to say next, rather than filling in with such expressions as "you know", "well", "um" and so on.

When you speak extemporaneously, give special thought to how you will open and close your speech. A strong opening will catch the attention of your listeners, and a strong closing will get your point across and leave no doubt about your purpose.

In impromptu speaking, try to apply the same principles. Take a deep breath before you begin and think of the opening. Ask yourself "What is my thesis statement?"

Before concluding your speech, pause and ask yourself, "What are the main points I need to summarise? What idea or feeling do I want to leave with my audience?" If you concentrate on the message and not on yourself, your speech is likely to be effective.

CHAPTER SEVEN

CONVENTIONS OF USAGE–SPELLING

There are many ways to approach spelling problems. Some of these ways will be explained in this Chapter.

Good spelling skills are valuable. They are important for writing different kinds of letters. They are vital for filling out forms and applications. As you grow older and write more, they will become even more necessary.

To show people that you are careful and informed, you will need to be able to spell correctly.

How to Become a Good Speller

1. Find out your own spelling enemies and attack them. Look over your past papers and make a list of mis-spelled words. Study these words until you can spell them correctly.

2 When you speak, pronounce words carefully. Sometimes people mis-spell words because they don't say them well. Be sure that you are not blending syllables together. For example, you may write *probabily* for *probably* if you are mis-pronouncing it.

3. Make a habit of looking at words carefully. Practise seeing every letter. Store the letters in your memory. Many people see a word again and again but don't really look at it. Then they make mistakes like writing '*safty*' for '*safety*' or '*sayed*' for '*said*'. When you see a new word or a tricky word, like 'necessary', look at all the letters. To help yourself remember the spelling, write the word several times, you may want to keep a list of the new words for later practice.

4 Find a memory device to help with problem spellings. Memory devices link words with their correct spellings. Below are some devices. They may give you ideas for other words. For example:

* Separate (*ara*) Only a rat makes us <u>separate</u>.
* <u>Principal</u> (*pal*) The principal is my <u>pal</u>.

* Tragedy (*age*) Every age has its <u>tragedy</u>.
* Sponsor (*or*) Or, <u>are</u> you the <u>sponsor</u>?
* Pursue (*pur*) Pursue Sue's purse snatcher!
* Guidance (*dance*) I dance with <u>guidance</u>.
* Embarrass (*rr,ss*) I turned really <u>red</u> and felt <u>so</u> silly.

5. Proof-read what you write to make sure that you have spelled all words correctly, reread your work. Examine it carefully, word for word. Don't let your eyes race over the page and miss in spellings.

RULES FOR SPELLING

The following are some helpful tips to good spelling. It is taken from Christ,(1982).

A. The Final Silent 'e'

When a suffix beginning with a vowel is added to a word ending with a silent 'e', the 'e' is usually dropped. For example:

make + ing	=	making
confuse + ion	=	confusion
expanse + ive	=	expansive
advise + or	=	advisor
believe + able	=	believable
fame + ous	=	famous

When a suffix beginning with a vowel is added to a word ending with a silent 'e', the 'e' is usually kept. For example:

hate + ful	=	hateful
bore + dom	=	boredom
safe + ly	=	safety
hope + less	=	hopeless
sure + ly	=	surely
move + ment	=	movement

B. Words Ending in 'y'

When a suffix is added to a word that ends with 'y', which follows a consonant, the 'y' is usually changed to 'i'. For example:

noisy + ly	=	noisily
happy + est	=	happiest

try + ed	=	tried
carry + age	=	carriage
fifty + eth	=	fiftieth
heavy + ness	=	heaviness.

Note this exception: When –'ing' is added to a word which already has a 'y', the **'y'** remains. Look at these:

bury + ing	=	burying
deny + ing	=	denying
cry + ing	=	crying
apply + ing	=	applying

When a suffix is added to a word that ends with **'y'** following a vowel, the **'y'** usually is not changed. Look at these:

joy + ful	=	joyful
stay + ing	=	staying
pay + ment	=	payment
annoy + ed	=	annoyed

C. The Addition of Prefixes

When a prefix is added to a word, the spelling of the word stays the same. For example:

un + named	=	unnamed
dis + appear	=	disappear
in + formal	=	informal
im + mature	=	immature
re + tender	=	retender
un + known	=	unknown
il + ligible	=	illegible
in + appropriate	=	inappropriate

D. The Suffixes – 'ly' and – 'ness'

When a suffix-**'ly'** is added to a word ending with **'l'**, both **'l's** are kept. When **'ness'** is added to a word ending in **'n'**, both **'n's** are kept. For instance:

mean + ness	=	meanness
open + ness	=	openness
practical + ly	=	practically
careful + ly	=	carefully

E. Words With the "Seed" Sound

Only one English word ends in ***Sede***: *Supersede*. Three words end in ce*ed*: *exceed, proceed, succeed*. All other words ending in the sound of "*seed*" are spelled *'cede'*.

concede	precede
recede	secede

F. Words with 'ie' or 'ei'

When the sound is long ***e*** **(ç)**, the word is spelled **'ie'** except after ***'c'***.

belief	relieve
yield	fierce
achieve	shield
niece	brief
field	chief

However, ***'e'*** comes before ***'i'*** when it follows ***'c'***. For instance:

receive	ceiling
perceive	deceit
conceive	conceited
Receipt	conceit

These words are exceptions:

either	weird
species	seize
neither	leisure

G. Doubling the Final Consonant

Words of mono-syllable, ending with one consonant following one vowel, double the final consonant before adding – ***'ing'***, - ***'ed'***, or – ***'er'***.

sit + ing	=	sitting
hop + ed	=	hopped
shop + er	=	shopper
sad + er	=	sadder
stop + ing	=	stopping
let + ing	=	letting

The final consonant is not doubled when it is preceded by two vowels

meet + ing	=	meeting
break + ing	=	breaking
loan + ed	=	loaned
train + er	=	trainer

EXERCISE 1

Choose the right word from the words in parenthesis.

1. Nyamekye and Araba built (their, them, they're) own house.
2. The Indian (lead, led) his tribesmen to the hunting ground.
3. (Who's, Whose) bicycle has racing stripes?
4. If I (loose, lose) this cheque, I won't eat lunch.
5. A shark is vicious because of (its, it's) double row of teeth.
6. Did Fati (accept, except) the invitation to your party?
7. I study best in a well-lit, (quiet, quite) room.
8. The (capital, capitol, Capitol) in Washington, D.C., is built on a hill.
9. Are you taller than (your, you're) sister?
10. We will play the game (weather, whether) it rains or not.

EXERCISE 2

Choose the right word from the words in parenthesis

1. We had to hunt for the bull that got (loose, lose).
2. The (principal, principle) character in A Christmas Carol is Ebenezer Scrooge.
3. Jaguars seem fierce, but (their, there, they're) afraid of dogs.
4. A fire engine will (lead, led) the parade.
5. Although bats don't see at night, they (hear, here) where they are.
6. Does your brother know that (your, you're) planning a surprise party?
7. Ceramics is creative, and it's fun, (to, too, two).
8. Golo is the only batter (who's, whose) left-handed.
9. The city of Austin is the (capital, capitol, Capital) of Texas.
10. Everyone (accept, except) Musa went down the giant slide.

EXERCISE 3

Find the mis-spelled words and spell them correctly.

1. May I speak to you privatly?
2. Kwame's lovely new jacket is reverseible
3. Naki's hobbies are bakeing and raceingstock cars.

4. The poor stray dog was harmless and homless.
5. Dotse said she was sincerly sorry for leaving.
6. The summer night was strangly peaceful.
7. Tettey's behaviour was completly unexpected.
8. Our coach was giving us guidence in shooting baskets.
9. My relateives held a birthday celebration for my cousion.
10. After escapeing from their pen, the cattle came chargeingacross the field.

EXERCISE 4

Find the mis-spelled words and spell them correctly.

1. The tide receeds twice a day.
2. The pass receiver streaked down the feild.
3. Mr. Opata gave his neice a wierd mask.
4. The Southern states seceeded from the union.
5. Some people who achieve fame become concieted.
6. Martha feircelydefended her beleifin ghosts.
7. The parade proceded to the pier at the edge of town.
8. The fire cheif succeded in controlling the blaze.
9. A detective percieved footprints on the ceiling.
10. An overture preceeds either an opera or a musical.

EXERCISE 5

Add the Suffixes as shown and write the new word.

1.	tour + ed	=	9.	leak + ing	=
2.	moon + ing	=	10.	mad + er	=
3	star + ing	=	11.	stir + ed	=
4	sip + ed	=	12.	troop + er	=
5.	seat + ed	=	13.	flat + er	=
6.	keep + er	=	14.	big + er	=
7.	slam + ing	=	15.	clap + ed	=
8.	grab + ed	=	16.	hop + ed	=

EXERCISE 6

Correct any spelling mistakes that you find in the following words.

a.	reconaissance	=	j.	embarass	=
b.	physicsist	=	k.	gaurantee	=
c.	sucesful	=	l.	paraleled	=

d.	riverted	=	m.	vasccinate	=
e.	quarreling	=	n.	suculent	=
f.	piccadily	=	o.	disatisfied	=
g.	mocassin	=	p.	acesibility	=
h.	conoiseur	=	q.	superilious	=
I	Committee	=			

EXERCISE 7

Certain words may be spelt in two different ways. Can you give the second way of spelling each of the following words?

a. biased
b. burnt
c. cipher
d. connection
e. enquiry
f. focusing
g. gipsy
h. hiccup
i. jail
j. pigmy

EXERCISE 8

Correct any spelling mistakes you identify in the following words.

a. biere
b. deciiet
c. receipt
d. seize
e. weild
f. tieer
g. weiire
h. mein
i. relieve
j. freize
k. cieve

EXERCISE 9

Correct any spelling mistakes you identify in the following words.

a. biere
b. deciiet
c. receipt
d. sieze
e. weild
f. tieer
g. weiire
h. mein
i. relieve
j. freize
k. cieve

EXERCISE 10

Prepare to write the following words from dictation

accessories
industrial
postponed
spiritual
strengthen
strictly
studying
substitute
suggest
surprising
symptom
tentative
together
tragedy
tenacity
tremendous
unanimous
undoubtedly
various
variety
vigorous
representation
prejudiced
probably
proportion
proposition
quantity
quiet
reciprocate
recognise
refrigerator
interpret
introduce
jewellery
length
library
lengthen
luminous
lightening
literally
mahogany
miniature

sophomore	mischievous
several	mausoleum
secretary	museum
ridiculous	old-fashioned

CHAPTER EIGHT

CONVENTIONS OF USAGE–PUNCTUATION

When we talk with someone, we put words together in a certain way to express our thoughts. Sometimes we drop our voice. That tells the listener we have finished a thought. Sometimes we raise our voice. That tells the listener we are asking him or her question. If we are excited, perhaps we scream. Sometimes we pause. What happens when we write? There is no change in voice to guide the reader. Instead, there are conventional signs like capital letters and punctuation marks to guide him or her. They help in the same way that pauses and changes in voice help our listener. Let us study some of these punctuation marks.

The Period/Full Stop

Use a period at the end of a declarative sentence (a statement). A declarative sentence tells us something.

e.g. This is my poster for the exhibition.

Use a full stop at the end of most imperative sentences. An imperative sentence includes requests, instructions, or orders. For example:

Put your poster on the bulletin board.

Use a full stop after an abbreviation or after an initial. We often write words in a shortened form to save time and space. These shortened forms of words are called **abbreviations.** On calendars, the names of the days are often abbreviated. For example, **Mon.** stands for *Monday*. Except for such abbreviations as Mr., Mrs., Ms., A.M./ and P.M, avoid using abbreviation when you write sentences.

Here are examples of other common abbreviations. Notice how some abbreviations have two or three parts, with each part standing for one or more words. A full stop is then used after each part of the abbreviation.

St.	=	Street/Saint
Mt.	=	Mount/Mountain
R.R.	=	Railroad
P.O.	=	Post Office
U.S.A.	=	United States of America

D.C.	=	,District of Columbia
in.	=	inch
doz.	=	dozen
Dr.	=	Doctor
Mr.	=	Minister
Mrs.	=	Mistress
Ms/Miss	=	(no longer form)

Full stops are not used after some abbreviations:

CB	=	Citizen's band
FM	=	Frequency Modulation
M	=	Metre
PBS	=	Public Broadcasting System
USAF	=	United States Air Force
ML	=	Millilitre

The two-letter abbreviations, such as *IL*, *OH* and *CA* are written with capitals and no full stops.

If you are not sure whether an abbreviation should be written with/without full stops, look up the abbreviation in a dictionary.

We often shorten a name to its first letter, which is called an initial. Always use a full stop after an initial.

P. L. Travers (Pamela Lyndon Travers)
J. C. Penny (James Cash Penny).

Use a full stop after each number or letter that shows a division of an outline or that precedes an item in a list.

The Question Mark (?)

Use a question mark at the end of an interrogative sentence. An interrogative sentence is a sentence that asks a question. For example:

Where are we?
How did you get there?
Are you surprised?

The Exclamation Point (or Exclamation Mark) (!)

(a) Use an exclamation point at the end of an exclamatory sentence and some imperative sentences. An exclamatory sentence is a sentence that expresses strong feelings. For example,

Jackie struck out! It is wonderful!
Be careful!

(b) Use an exclamation point after an interjection.

An interjection is a word or group of words used to express strong feeling. It is one of the eight parts of speech. Words often used as other parts of speech may become interjections when they express strong feeling.

For example: Oh!How beautiful!
Now!
What an ending!

The Comma (,)

Commas in Sentences

Commas tell the reader to pause. The pause keeps the reader from running together words that should be kept apart. When you write a series, use commas to separate the members of the series. Two words are not a series. There are always three or more words in a series. For example,

For breakfast, we ordered juice, cereal, bacon, eggs, and milk.
The children entered dogs, cats and rabbits in the show.

In a series, commas are placed after each word except the last.

You can see how important it is to separate the parts of a series by looking at these sentences. For example:

(i) Kwaku stuffed himself with cheese, pizza, ice cream, sandwiches, chocolate milk and peanuts.
(ii) Dadzie bought potting soil, marigold seeds and fertiliser at the plant store.

Note that both sentences contain the same words, in the same order but the punctuation differs. The writer has to use commas correctly to tell the reader what Bob ate.

Place a comma after 'yes', 'no', or 'well' when these words start a sentence. For example,

(a) Yes, I'm going.
(b) Well, I'll see you there.

When you use 'and', 'but', and 'or' to combine the sentences, put a comma before these words.

(a) We ran fast. We nearly missed the bus.
(b) We ran fast, but we nearly missed the bus.

Use commas to set off the name of a person spoken to. If the name comes at the beginning or end of the sentence, one comma is enough. If the name comes in the middle of the sentence, using one comma is not enough. If the name comes in the middle of the sentence, place one comma before the name and another comma after it.

1. Please, answer the phone, Jim.
2. Ginny, may I use your pen?
3. I believe, Mark, that you are right.

Set off an appositive by commas. An appositive is a word or group of words that means the same as the noun just before it. The appositive gives more information about the noun.

The words in italics in the following sentences are appositives.
Notice that they are set off by commas.

1. Mr. Azumah, *the Scoutmaster*, moved away.
2. Our neighbour, *Ms. Denoo*, drives an ambulance.

Separate the parts of a date by commas. If the date appears in the middle of a sentence, place a comma after the last part.

E.g. On November 7, 1962, Eleanor Roosevelt died.
We'll expect you on Tuesday, April 4.

Notice that you do not place a comma between the month and the number of the day.

Separate the name of a city from the name of a state or country by a comma. If the two names come in the middle of a sentence, place a comma after the second name, too. For example:

My grandmother was born in Accra, Ghana.
We left Tantri, Cape Coast, at noon.

Commas with Quotations

Use a comma to set off the explanatory words of a direct quotation. When you use a quotation, you are giving the words of a speaker or writer. You are said to be quoting the words of the speaker or writer. If you give the exact words, you are giving a *direct quotation.*

Usually, you include explanatory words of your own, like

1. Mary Kay said, or Adjoa answered, or Phyllis asked,
2. The police officer told my friend, "I know you are a cocaine dealer".
3. The M.C. announced, "The movie will begin in ten minutes".

In the above sentences, the explanatory words come before the quotation. A comma is then placed after the last explanatory word.

Now look at this quotation:

"I want to go home," moaned Lisa.
"He taught us," the students answered.

In the above sentences, the explanatory words come after the quotation. A comma is then placed after the last word of the quotation.

Sometimes the quotation is separated into two parts. For instance,

"One of the people in this room," the detective said, "is the murderer."

The preceding sentence is an example of a divided quotation. It is called *divided* because it is made up of two parts that are separated by the explanatory words. A comma is used after the last word of the first part that is separated by the explanatory words. A comma is used after the last word of the first part. Another comma is used after the last explanatory word.

The quotations you have just looked at are all direct quotations.
A quotation can be either direct or indirect. In an indirect quotation you change the words of a speaker or writer to your own words. No commas are used.For example,

Kamasa said that he had to make a phone call.
The policeman told my arrested friend that he knew my friend was a cocaine dealer.

Commas in Letter Parts

Use a comma after the greeting in a friendly letter and after the closing of any letter.

Dear Agnes,
Sincerely yours,
Yours sincerely,

The Use of a Comma to Avoid Confusion

Some sentences can be very confusing if commas are not used in them. Here are two examples of such sentences:

1. Going up the elevator lost power. (confusing)
2. In the grocery bags were in demand. (confusing)

Now notice how much clearer a sentence is when a comma is used:

1. Going up, the elevator lost power.
2. In the grocery, bags were in demand.

Over punctuation:- Never use a punctuation mark unless you know a reason for it. When in doubt, leave it out.

a. Subject and Verb: Do not put a comma between a subject and a verb.
   According to the ancient Greeks earth, air, fire, and water made up the universe.
b. Verb and Completer: Do not put a comma between a verb and its predicate noun or pronoun or direct object.
   Andrew Ditsa said that you could cover a great deal of country in books.
c. Series: Do not put a comma before or after a series.
   Wilhelm Roentgen in 1901, Albert Einstein in 1921 and Percy Bridgman in 1946 received the Nobel Prize in physics.

d. Adjective and Noun: Do not put a comma between an adjective and the noun it modifies when the adjective precedes the noun.
   The dark-skinned, straight-haired Indians lived in North and South America for thousands of years before Columbus came.
e. Preposition and Conjunction: Do not put a comma after a preposition or between a conjunction and its clause.
   Great chunks of ice often break away from the tips of glaciers, and these chunks then float in the ocean as icebergs.
f. Paired Words or Phrases: Do not use a comma to separate two words or phrases joined by a coordinate conjunction.
   The praying mantis seems quite intelligent and will come to its master to be fed.
g. Other Punctuation: Do not use a comma next to any mark of punctuation other than quotation marks, parentheses, and the full stop after an abbreviation.
   "Who is the strongest man in Ghana today?" asked Will.

The Apostrophe

- Use an apostrophe to show possession. To form the possessive of a singular noun, add an apostrophe and 's' after the apostrophe–
  - dog + 's = dog's
  - lady + 's = lady's
  - James + 's = James's.

- To form the possessive of a plural noun that does not end in 's', add an apostrophe and an 's' after the apostrophe.
  - gentlemen + 's = gentlemen's
  - geese + 's = geese's

- To form the possessive of a plural noun that ends in **s**, add only an apostrophe.
  - dogs + s' = dogs'
  - ladies + s' = ladies'

  There are some other uses. Can you guess?
- It can be used in contractions like can't, don't etc.
- It can be used in time modifications such as in a **week"s** time, an **hour"s** journey etc.

- It can be used in forming plurals in letters, abbreviations and figures. Look at these, How'many **B"s** do we have. Ten **MP"s** and Five **DCE"s** have supported the idea.
  In the **1960"s** many African countries became independent

The Hyphen

In writing, you often run out of space at the end of a line and can fit in only part of a word.

Use a hyphen after the first part of a word at the end of a line. The second part of the word is placed at the beginning of the next line, without punctuation.

Before you choose a career, *inves-*
tigate many fields.

Only words of two or more syllables can be divided at the end of a line. Never divide words of one syllable, such as slight or bounce. If you are in doubt about dividing a word, look it up in a dictionary.

A single letter must not be left at the end of a line. For example, this division would be wrong: *a-mong*. A single letter must not appear at the beginning of a line either. It would be wrong to divide 'inventory' like this: *inventor-y.*

The Colon

The colon has several uses. Use a colon after the greeting in a business letter.

Dear Mrs. Winter:
Dear Sir:

Use a colon between the numerals that tell the hour(s) and minutes.

8:30 A.M.
3:30 P.M.

Remember to capitalise the letters and to use periods after each letter in the abbreviations A.M. and P.M.

The Semicolon

There are two ways to combine two related clauses into one sentence. The first way is to use a conjunction, such as *'and'*, *'but'* and *'or'* to connect the sentences. When you write that kind of sentence, you use a comma before the conjunction.

Judge Marino announced her decision, and the courtroom emptied quickly.

The second way to combine two related sentences is to use a semicolon (;) alone. The semicolon takes the place of both the comma and the conjunction.

Judge Quanoo announced her decision; the courtroom emptied quickly.

Quotation Marks

Direct Quotations: When you want to write what someone has said or written in a person's exact words, you write a *direct quotation*. If you do not write their exact words, you have an *indirect quotation*. Study these sentences.

Direct quotation: Steven said, "I will come over".
Indirect quotation: Steven said that he would come over.

The quotation marks in the sample (direct quotation) mark off Steven's exact words. They were, "I will come".

Put quotation marks before and after the words in a direct quotation. Quotation marks [“”] consist of two pairs of small marks that resemble apostrophes. They tell a reader that the exact words of another speaker or writer are being given. Quotation marks are not used with indirect quotation. Separate the words of a direct quotation from the rest of the sentence with a comma or end mark, in addition to quotation marks.

1. Jane said, "The dog is hungry."
2. "The dog is hungry," Jane said.

Notice in the first sentence above that the comma comes before the quotation marks. However, the second sentence starts with the quoted words, and the comma falls *inside* the quotation marks.

Now look at these sentences carefully.

1. My mother asked, "Are you hungry?"
2. Ama replied, "We're starving!"
3. "We're starving!" Bill replied.

You can see that in these sentences the question marks and exclamation points fall inside the quotation marks.

Place question marks and exclamation points inside quotation marks if they belong to the quotation itself. Place question marks and exclamation points outside quotation marks if they do not belong to the quotation.

Did Dad say, "Come home at seven o'clock"?
I was shocked to hear her say, "I'll go"!

Remember to capitalise the first word of a direct quotation.

Divided Quotations

Sometimes a quotation is divided. Explanatory words like 'she said' or 'he asked' occur in the middle of the quotation.

"My favourite movie," Mensah said, "is the original 'King Kong'."

Divided quotations follow the capitalisation and punctuation guidelines presented already. In addition, these rules apply:

1. Two sets of quotation marks are used.
2. The explanatory words are followed by a comma or a full stop. Use a comma if the second part of the quotation does not begin a new sentence.

Use a full stop if the second part of the quotation is a new sentence.

"I believe," said Dede, "that you are wrong."
"I can't go," Yao said. "My homework is not done."

3. The second part of the quotation begins with a capital letter if it is the start of a new sentence, as in the second example above. Otherwise, the second part begins with a small letter.

Titles

Put quotation marks around the titles of stories, poems, television programmes, reports, articles and chapters of a book. For example,

"Ananse and the Wisdom pot" (a story)
"The Vultures" (a poem) and
"Taxi Driver" (a television programme)

Underlining

In the case of books and long poems, the titles are underlined. For example,

Mariama Ba: So long a Letter (a book)
John Milton: Paradise Lost (a poem)

Sometimes titles of books, long poems, magazines and motion pictures are typed in italics. If this is done, underlining becomes unnecessary.

EXERCISE 1: ***Using End Marks***

Correctly copy the following sentences. Supply the missing periods, question marks, and exclamation points.

1. The soccer game was still going on at 8:30 PM
2. Does George know what a hobbit is
3. Yao trained his dog to catch a Frisbee in its mouth
4. Get help fast
5. When is Tara coming
6. Cheryl has an appointment with Dr. H P Lewis tomorrow
7. Move to a seat with a better view
8. Wow I never saw such a huge cave before
9. Elena entered her giant sunflower in a contest
10. May I borrow your ruler

EXERCISE 2: Using Commas Correctly

Copy these sentences. Place commas where they are needed.

1. A catamaran has two hulls but it has only one sail.
2. Mayor Baba a friend of Senator Stevens rode with him in the parade.
3. Charles Xornam is famous for drawing Charlie Esi Lucy and Snoopy.
4. Florence are you going to the movie with us?
5. "Satellites" Ms. Lee said "are used for communications weather reporting and navigation".
6. Do you mean Paris France or Paris Ontario Canada?
7. Well Yaa has enough money and she wants to buy the hat.
8. On July 20 1969 the United States landed two astronauts on the moon.
9. "You should take an umbrella" Joe reminded his mother.
10. When the train moved the street became much quieter.

EXERCISE 3: Using Apostrophes correctly

Rewrite the following sentences. In each sentence, make a contraction of the words in Italics. Change any underlined word to show possession.

Example: *Let us* go to Ode house.

Let's go to **Ode's** house.

1. *He will* mail Mother a letter.
2. *They have* always bought cider here.
3. Bret dog*did not* wake up.
4. I *do not* know how to ice skate.
5. Eddie book was not over-due.
6. *She had* already left her grandmother house.
7. You *should not* phone again tonight.
8. Isabelle *will not* copy anyone work.
9. *You are* ready early.
10. The smaller children *could not* see the acrobats stunts at all.

EXERCISE 4

Restore the capital letters and punctuation in the following passages.

A. the following was written on the gravestone of an army mule here lies maggie the mule who in her time kicked a general two colonels four majors ten captains twenty-four lieutenants forty sergeants two hundred and twenty privates and a bomb

B. i cant understand it said mr abdulai oh what cant you understand said hisfriend well said mr abdulai just look at this suit im wearing the wool was grown in australia the cloth was woven in yorkshire the buttons were made in india the suit was made in london and i bought it in cairo whats so remarkable about that asked his friend isn't it wonderful said abdulai taking no notice of the interruption that so many people can make a living out of something i have paid for.

EXERCISE 5

Restore the capital letters and punctuation in the following passages.

A. you are a very small chap said mr sackey yes sir im small enough returned paul thank you sir for sackey had lifted him into the seat and done it kindly too whos your tailor inquired sackey after looking at him for some moments its a woman that has made my clothes said paul my sisters a dressmaker my tailors burgessand co said sackey fashionable but very dear paul had the wit to shake his head as if he

would have said it was easy to see that and indeed he thought so your fathers very rich isnt he inquired mr sackey.

B. (i) why did you say i told you why i thought i had made myself clear to all i mean who were paying attention.

(ii) the old fashioned remedy of counting a flock of sheep that leisurely pass by the poet wordsworth included in his sonnet to sleep as one of the ways in which he had tried to cure insomnia.

(iii) he tried to run faster but couldnt do it on the fresh rise he nearly tripped and fell but kept up cresting the hump of the field he could see a tall screen of poplars andsome willows in the fold below and forced himself limping down to them at the bottom was a stream.

EXERCISE 6

Copy and punctuate the following sentences correctly.

1. Art it seems to me should be simplified – Jones
2. The motor vehicle office does not open till 9 15 am
3. On the flight to South Africa our plane stopped at Namibia Zimbabwe and Timbuktu
4. Antarctica is a continent with a special distinction it does not have land areas below sea level
5. Some carpets are very closely woven for example a carpet in the Metropolitan Museum at Art in Accra has more than 2490 knots per square inch
6. A leading manufacturer of board games Parker Brothers prints more fake money for its games than the total amount of real money printed throughout the world
7. This winter Nora tried growing these potted plants impatiens poinsettia azalea and camellia
8. The following famous painters all died of the Black Plague Ato Yeboah Razak and Ibrahim
9. The longest single span bridge in the world is the Verazzano Narrows Bridge the Mackinac Straits Bridge is the longest suspension bridge measured between anchorages
10. In 1867 USA purchased Alaska from Russia for $7200000 this was our greatest bargain for we thereby acquired a land rich in gold and furs

EXERCISE 7

Copy and punctuate the following sentences correctly.

1. Kangaroos and opossums resemble each other in at least one way they are both marsupials
2. Some insects can move at incredible speeds for example a mosquitos wings move at the rate of 1000 times a second
3. The flight to Dallas will take off at 4 20 we can make it if we start from home by 3 00
4. Common pets are cats dogs canaries parakeets and tropical fish uncommon pets are snakes monkeys cheetahs and ocelots
5. Luther Burbank originated new varieties of fruits and vegetables potatoes corn peas artichokes apples peaches and berries
6. The weather report guides sea and air navigation and helps farmers protect their crops it also aids us in planning our daily lives
7. A hurricane can be clearly seen on a radar screen that is the white blips form an image that resembles exactly the shape of the storm
8. Ato Davids said little things affect little minds
9. These are the birds of paradise great emeralda lesser emeralda red emeralda king emeralda superb emeralda and magnificent emeralda
10. The rose family includes many kinds of trees and shrubs among its members are the apple cherry peach pear plum quince and strawberry

EXERCISE 8

Copy and punctuate the following sentences correctly.

the report entitled overcoming high staff turnover has now received the personnel managers careful study mr ofori agrees with its major recommendations which he feels should be discussed at next weeks management committee meeting the need for the company to tackle the problem is urgent if staff continue to leave the firms employ at the current rate we shall to quote an apt if colloquial proverb find ourselves up the creek without a paddle I therefore recommend that you circulate the report to the following staff who are directly concerned with employee supervision miss mensah personnel department mr amoako office administration department miss larbi accounts department and mr asare sales department

CHAPTER NINE

THE USE OF PREPOSITIONS

English is an analytic language; therefore, prepositions play a large part in its structure and are the cause of difficulties to the second language learner. Little guidance can be given in any grammar book as to which preposition is the right one to use, since there is no logical reason why one is right in certain contexts and another one is wrong. In fact, the "rightness" or "wrongness" of a preposition especially in idioms is based on usage and not on logical or etymology. A good dictionary as well as wide reading with a sharp eye for the use of prepositions is the best guide. This chapter gives some general remarks that grammarians make on prepositions and then adds many examples on the use of those that may cause difficulty.

A preposition is a word, which expresses the relationship of one word with another, usually (but not always) a noun, a pronoun or a participle. Consider the following sentences:

in the house
near the stream
with a will
by hook or *by* crook
from me
with them

The words; *in*, *near*, *with*, *by* and *from* in the above phrases are prepositions.

Prepositions may be single words, e.g. at, after, down, since, with, off, below, across, for, up, above, beside, outside, beneath, towards, out with, past among(st), amid(st), inside, till, (until), on, unto, along, through, without, between, around, etc.

Prepositions may be two or more words ("group prepositions"). For example:

1. They will go *instead of* me.
2. The student stood *in front of* the teacher.
3. Kotey sat *at the back of* the room.
4. He said that *for the sake of* peace,...
5. What did the manager say *with regard to* my application?

The *italicised* words in the above sentences are prepositions. It is almost impossible to give all the meanings that prepositions help to convey. Originally, they denoted place or direction as in:

1. The man works *at* the textile factory.
2. He ran *to* school.
3. They live *in* Accra.
4. He threw the ball *through* the ring.

Some individual prepositions, which are used to express place are:

about, above, across, along, among, at, by, before, behind, into, beneath, beside, between, beyond, down, from, in, inside, near, off, on, over, past, round, through, to, towards, under, underneath, up

and the group prepositions are:

at the back of, in front of, at the side of, at the bottom of, at the beginning of, at the end of, away from, in the middle of, out of

Some of the above prepositions are also used to express time relations. For example,

We shall see them *at four o'clock*.
They will come *before dusk*.
John will speak *at the beginning of* the meeting.

The principal prepositions used to express time are:

about, after, at, by, before, between, during, for, from, in, on, since, till, through, throughout, at the beginning of, at the end of, at the time of, in the middle of, down to, up to.

Generally speaking, at, by, and on indicate a point in time. For example,

at six o'clock
by two o'clock
on Tuesday
on the 4th of December

The prepositions after, in, by, since, till, until, and before indicate a period of time. For example:

after Christmas
before Easter

since five o'clock
until seven o'clock

The prepositions to,in order to, and so as to, help to express purpose. They are used with an infinitive. For example:

A hammer is used for knocking in nails.
He came in order to arrest the thief.

One major function of the preposition is to make (with the noun or pronoun that follows it) a prepositional phrase. Such a phrase is usually an adverb equivalent. For example.

The man looked through the window. (place)
I shall visit them on Friday. (time)
He worked on a farm during the holidays. (time)
The teacher spoke in a loud voice. (manner)

The following prepositional phrases may also be adjective equivalents. For example

The house with the big garden is Mr. Mensah's.
That is the Garden of Babylon.
He received a letter from the Minister.
I don't like the sound of a locomotive engine.

Note that there are some words, having the form of participles, which act as prepositions. For example:

She said nothing concerning him. (about)
What did he say regarding my application? (about)

The Position of the Preposition

Prepositions normally precede nouns or pronouns. In two constructions, however, it is possible in informal English to move the preposition to the end of the sentence:

1. In questions beginning with a preposition – whom/which/what/whose/where. For example:
   To whom were you talking? (formal)
   Who were you talking to? (informal)
   In which drawer does he keep it? (formal)
   Which drawer does he keep it in? (informal)

It used to be considered ungrammatical to end a sentence with a preposition, but it is now accepted as a colloquial form.

2. In relative clauses, a preposition placed before whom/which can be moved to the end of the clause. The relative pronoun is then often omitted. For example:
   The people with whom I was travelling ... (formal)
   The people I was travelling with... (informal)
   The company from which I bought my TV set ... (formal)
   The company I bought my TV set from... (informal)

However, in phrasal verbs the preposition or adverb remains after its verb, so the informal type of construction is not possible.

1. The children I was looking after

could not be written as,

* The children I was looking after whom.

Similarly

2. Which bridge did they blow up?

could not be written with

* up + which.

Prepositions and Adverbs

It is a mistake to attempt to state what part of speech a word is in isolation. One needs to decide the part of speech of a word by examining the function the word is performing that is the work the word is doing. Consider the following examples:

(a) The boy came down the tree.
(b) The tree blew down in the wind.

(a) The students put the books on the table.
(b) Put your coat on.

(a) Aba came before four o'clock
(b) I have explained that point before.

(a) The students marched past the flag.
(b) The students marched past.

(a) Abena is in the garden.
(b) Kofi opened the door, and the cat walked in.

One notes that words *underlined* in the sentences marked (a) are different from the corresponding words in those marked (b). In the sentences marked (a) the words are prepositions whereas in the sentences marked (b), the words are adverbs, and form what is known as *Adverb complements.*

Thus, the same word may be either a preposition or an adverb, depending on its use in the sentence.

Prepositions used with Adjectives and Participles

Usually, particular adjectives and participles require particular prepositions. Some of these are given below. Others can be found by consulting a good dictionary, which after any adjective will give the preposition that can be used with it. Here are some adjectives with their prepositions.

absorbed in
according to
accustomed to
afraid of
anxious for/about
ashamed of
aware of
bad at/for
capable of
confident of
due to/for
exposed to
fit for
fond of
frightened of/at
good at/for
interested in
familiar to
involved in
keen on
liable to/for
nervous of
owing to
pleased with
prepared for
proud of
ready for
responsible for/to
sacred
sorry for/about
successful in
suspicious of
terrified of
tried of
used to

Let us consider how some of the above adjectives and their prepositions can be used in sentences.

Mary was absorbed in her book.
The children were afraid/frightened/scared of the dark.
According to the invigilator, it's 2:00 P.M.
Ato is bad/ good at chess (a bad/good player)
Running is bad/good for you (unhealthy/healthy)
Drivers exceeding the speed limit are liable to a fine.
I am sorry for your friends. (I pity them)
I am sorry about the tickets.

Verbs and Prepositions

A large number of verbs + preposition combinations are presented in this section. More can be found in any good dictionary.

accuse (somebody of)
apologise (to somebody) for
affinity with/between
apply to (someone) for something
ask for/about
attend to
beg for
believe in
beware of
blame (somebody) for
broad over/on
charge (somebody) with (an offence)
compare (something) with
congratulate on/for
comply with
conform to
consist of
deal in
die of
depend on
dream of
fight with (somebody) for
fight over

fine (somebody) for
hope for
insist on
live on (food/money)
long for
object to
occur to

Some of the above verbs and prepositions are used in sentences.

1. Do you believe in ghosts?
2. The man was charged with receiving stolen goods.
3. They have not complied with the regulations of the university.
4. For a month, Thomas lived on bananas and milk.
5. It never occurred to me to insure the car.
6. They persisted in defying the law of the land.
7. When his argument failed he resorted to threats.

In some expressions certain prepositions do not occur. For example,

You vacate a place

One can { stress / emphasise / highlight } a point

You can voice your opinion.
We can discuss an issue.
Things may comprise other things.
One may suffer a penalty.

The following verbs do not require prepositions:

concede	obtain	request
demand	return	maintain
examine	desire	obstruct
overlook	proceed	condone
profess	sustain	

Gerunds after Prepositions

It must be noted that a verb placed immediately after prepositions must be in the gerund form. For example

1. The man left without paying his bill.
2. He apologised for not writing before.
3. She insisted on paying for herself.
4. Before signing the contract, the Minister read the small print.

A few nouns + preposition + gerund combinations may also be noted.

There is no point in taking your phone if you are not allowed to use it there.
Is there any chance of his changing his mind?
I am in favour of giving everyone a holiday.

The only exceptions to the gerund rule are except and but (preposition), which take the bare infinitive.

I could do nothing except agree.
They did nothing but complain.

However if 'but' is used as a conjunction, it can be followed directly by either full infinitive or gerund. For example:

Being idle sometimes is agreeable, but being idle all the time might become monotonous.

EXERCISE 1

Write the prepositions in the following sentences.

1. During the intermission, the crowd rushed towards the snack bar.
2. A man jumped onto the train and shouted at the passengers.
3. Everyone but me saw the car crash into the fence.
4. We all felt better after our talk with the coach.
5. We have no objection to your proposal.
6. Whom did you address the package to?
7. Is there a law against fire works outside the city?
8. Because of the storm, most schools were closed on Friday.
9. Every night the dog sniffs around the kitchen for its dinner.
10. To the east, sharp peaks rose above the floor of the valley.

EXERCISE 2

Write the prepositions. After each preposition, write its object.

1. Prior to 1969 was an agricultural society controlled by nobles and farmed by peasants.

2. There was little contact with Western Europe.
3. A major problem was the lack of seaports.
4. When Peter the Great came to power, he immediately began plans for the introduction of Western culture throughout Russia, the capture of neighboring ports and the creation of a navy.
5. He made extensive trips to Europe, where he observed, studied and even worked as a carpenter for a shipbuilder.
6. When he returned to Russia, he brought a number of European scientists and craftsmen with him. He also brought European ideas of dress, politics, education, and military training, which he forced upon his subjects

EXERCISE 3

Each of the following sentences contains a preposition usage that is not a feature of Standard English. Write each sentence, changing the preposition to conform to Standard English usage.

For example:

- Mrs. Mensah is different than my grandmother.
- Mrs. Mensah is different from my grandmother.

1. Betty wanted to borrow some money off her little sister.
2. Our bus arrives to about 10:30.
3. Joe's policy about studying is completely different than mine.
4. Would you like to come by me to the store?
5. Where have you been on since I saw you last?
6. Someone has roped the label off of the package.
7. We should have called to see if they were home.
8. Where should we put these papers at when we finish?
9. May I borrow a piece of paper off of you to finish this test?
10. Don't blame it by Kara if her speech is too long.

EXERCISE 4

Each of the following sentences contains a prepositional phrase that acts as an adjective. Rewrite the sentences, placing the prepositional phrases at their right places. Underline each of the prepositional phrases.

1. Anna bought a plastic pail for her baby brother with two scoops.
2. Musa gave a bird to his little brother with blue feathers.

3. How you can save energy is the topic of Mr. Nyame's speech in the home.
4. The windows should be cleaned today in front of the house
5. Theo used a large atlas to took up the continent of Australia in my father's office
6. The student has several plants that need watering on the shelf.
7. The soccer team won the match on the bus.
8. The hat was a gift from his friends in the closet.
9. His leather boots were designed for riding horses from Italy.
10. That hound is a fine animal for hunting on my left.

EXERCISE 4

Complete the following by adding the correct preposition:

1. to account ----------
2. unmindful ----------
3. resp nsible ----------
4. an insight ----------
5. to contend ----------
6. interested ----------
7. to take exception ----------
8. to take stock ----------
9. concerned ----------
10. to transfer ----------
11. to negotiate ----------
12. to substitute ----------
13. to settle ----------
14. on behalf ----------
15. derided ----------

CHAPTER TEN

THE USE OF CONJUNCTIONS

A ***conjunction*** is usually defined as a word that joins words or groups of words. The most common conjunctions – *and*, *but*, *nor*, *for*, and *yet* are used to join individuals words, or groups of sentences. When a conjunction is used to join individual words, the words must be of the same word class.

1. **Joining Nouns**
   Teachers and *students* met to discuss the new schedule.
   Pens and *pencils* have been given to all candidates.

2. **Joining Pronouns**
   She will probably choose *you* or *me* for the job.
   This should be between *you* and *me*.

3. **Joining Verbs**
   Moru *draws* and *paints* well.
   Kofi *entered* and *stole* the meat.

4. **Joining Adjectives**
   The couple from India is *friendly* but *shy*.
   The house looks *beautiful* and *strong*.

5. **Joining Adverbs**
   She pulled off the bandage *quickly* but *painfully*.
   Smartly but *carefully* he prepared the teaching aid.

6. **Nouns and Pronouns** may also be joined.
   My *friends* and *I* enjoy listening to records.
   Either *John* or *you* must see me tomorrow.

Sometimes, the words that are joined by a conjunction have other words modifying them. For example:

You can use the aluminium and the *racket*, the fibreglass *one* in the garage.

Conjunctions can also join groups of words. The groups of words can be phrases, clauses, or sentences. Groups of words joined by a conjunction must be a parallel. The parallel groups of words have the same form or structure. Analyse the structure of the groups of words to make certain they are parallel.

John likes to swim in the lake *and* play in the sand.
The dog is probably hiding behind the couch *or* under your bed.

Coordinate Conjunctions

Coordinating conjunctions, the most common type of conjunctions, are used to join similar words or groups of words.

The following list shows coordinating conjunctions

and
but
yet
or
nor
for
so

1. Ama looks angry *and* upset.
2. Ansah *and* Dela are ploughing the ten acres in the north.
3. Look for the roller states in the front closet *or* on the laundry room shelf.
4. The man told us to get off the lake, *for* a storm was heading our way.
5. We couldn't find an open gas station *so* we decided to go home and rest.

When a coordinating conjunction joins more than two words or groups of words the conjunction comes between the last two items in the series and a comma is used immediately before the conjunction.

1. Jane's lasagne recipe calls for basil, bay leaves, *and* oregano
2. She wore a faded pair of jeans ,a red pullover sweater. *and* a navy blue coat

Correlative Conjunctions

Correlative Conjunctions always occur in pairs: they are never used alone. In the following list of correlative conjunctions, the dots indicate that other words come between the conjunctions.

both...and
not only...but also
either...or
neither...nor
whether...or

Like coordinating conjunctions, correlative conjunctions connect items of the same kind.

1. **Either** Etor **or** her brother can baby-sit tonight for the wrongs.
2. The water in the stream was **both** icy cold **and** clear.
3. Adwoa Hayford plays tennis **not only** in the school team **but also** in a city league.
4. **Either** you have a little more patience, **or** I won't continue helping you.
5. Esi hasn't decided whether to go to college **or** to look for a job.

Subordinating Conjunctions

Subordinating Conjunctions are used only at the beginning of a subordinate clause.

after	*as though*
although	*because*
as	*before*
as far as	*unless*
as if	*until*
so that	*when*
than	*while*
that	*if*
though	*in order that*
whenever	*provided that*
as long as	*since*
as soon as	*so long as*
whether	

Subordinating conjunctions are used to join groups of words that would otherwise be separate sentences. A subordinating conjunction may occur at the beginning or in the middle of the new sentence. For example:

1. We waited in line. The post office opened.
   We waited in line until the post office opened.
2. Dan has made three close friends. He moved to Accra.
   Dan has made three close friends since he moved to Accra.
3. The mango is yellow. It still tastes sour.
   Although the mango is yellow, it still tastes sour.

Using Conjunctions

Coordinating conjunctions can join two items or a whole series of items. In a series, the coordinating conjunction may be replaced by a comma.

Mensah can play the drums *and* trumpet and guitar.
Mensah can play the drums, trumpet, *and* guitar

Whenever a conjunction joins items in a series, the last two items are separated by a comma and a conjunction.

Do you want yoghurt, honey, or watermelon?
I have called the office several times, written twice, and even visited in person.

Both coordinating and correlativejoin words or groups of words of similar structure. When the structures of the words are not similar, or parallel, the resulting sentences sounds awkward. For example:

1. * Ama is witty and a sincere person.
   [wrong]
   - Ama is witty and sincere.
   [correct
2. *Ato doesn't like to ride a bicycle or ball.
   [wrong]
   - Ato doesn't like to ride a bicycle or play ball.
   [correct]

The subordinating conjunction tells how two ideas are related.

I never forget Joana's birthday. It is the same as my father's.
I never forget Joana's birthday because it is the same as my father's.

2. You have already finished your work. Let's go to a movie.
   Since you have already finished your work, let's go to a movie.
3. I'm planning a party. Phyllis comes to town in January.
   I'm planning a party when Phyllis comes to town in January.

A subordinating conjunction is always followed by a subordinate clause. When a subordinate clause begins a sentence, the clause is usually followed by a comma. A clause is a group of words with a subject and verb.

After we met, we dated for a year.
Unless he gets his way, Simon is impossibly moody.
Wherever we looked, we saw mushrooms growing.

When the subordinate clause appears at the end of a sentence, however, a comma is usually not necessary.

We dated for a year after we met.
Simon is impossibly moody unless he gets his way.
We saw mushrooms growing wherever we looked.

EXERCISE 1

Rewrite each of the following sentences. Whenever necessary, replace conjunctions with commas and correct wrong structures. If a subordinating conjunction is given in parenthesis, use the conjunction to combine pairs of sentence. For example:

Jane's parents argue. It upsets her. (Whenever)
Whenever Jane's parents argue, it upsets her.

1. Rose has applied to a department store and a nursery school and a bookstore for a holiday's job.
2. The luxury liner Titanic, with hundreds on board, sank. It hit an iceberg. (after)
3. The names of many states and cities and rivers come from native Ghanaian languages.
4. The first capital of Ghana was Cape Coast. Ghana declared its independence from Britain.(before)
5. The cow is a mammal. It nurses its young. (because)
6. Harmattan occurs most frequently in Buipe and Abitifi Kwawu and Accra and Kumasi and less frequently on the East and West North.
7. The Delaware nation lived on the present site of Philadelphia and Delaware. The Europeans arrived in the early 1600s. (before)
8. The offspring of a tiger and lion is called tiglon or tigon or tiger.
9. Petrified wood is formed. Water seeps through mud or sand.

EXERCISE 2

Rewrite each of the following sentences. Whenever necessary, replace conjunctions with commas and correct wrong structures. If a subordinating conjunction is given in parentheses, use the conjunction to combine pairs of sentence.

1. Microscopic animals and plants called plankton are an important food source for marine animals. Bodies of water exist. (whenever)
2. The German explorers introduced cashew nuts to West Africa in the 1840s. They found them being cultivated by the Zulus in South Africa. (after)
3. Humans began to cultivate land. Plant seeds.
4. They are birds. Penguins and turkeys and ostriches cannot fly. (although)
5. Oleander and foxglove and mountain laurel are poisonous to people.
6. The Battle of Lookout Mountain is also called the "Battle above the Clouds". Lookout Mountains is more than 2,000 feet above the city of Chattanooga which is in the state of Tennessee. (since)
7. Most of the world's tin is mined in Malaysia and Bolivia and Indonesia and Thailand. (since)
8. A pregnant woman gains too much weight or smokes or drinks or takes drugs. Her baby's life and health are endangered. (when)
9. Police officers in training study psychology and sociology and law and use of weapons.
10. You will need a compass, and some graph paper, and a protractor. You can complete your mathematics assignment correctly. (so that)

EXERCISE 3

Combine sentences using subordinating conjunctions. Pairs of sentences are given below. Join the two sentences by using the subordinating conjunction given in parentheses and write each new sentence. Example:

(a) The pictures didn't come out. The film was overexposed. (because)
The picture didn't come out because the film was overexposed.

(b) I called Joyce. She sounded so happy with her new school. (when)
When I called Joyce, she sounded so happy with her new school.

Now answer the following questions:

1. Many people left the movie starring the new actor. It was over. (before)
2. Please call Martin or Wisdom. You can't come to the party. (if)
3. We searched all round the spot. We had camped in the woods. (where)

4. We try to talk. We end up fighting. (whenever)
5. You should stay in bed. Your temperature is normal. (until)
6. Mrs. Kuma says there will be no homework over the vacation. All of the students turn in their research papers. (provided that)
7. Yaw found homes for all the kittens. Efiaa decided she wanted one (after)
8. This is not the right house. I am lost. (if)
9. She finished singing her solo. Her throat was terribly sore. (although)
10. Elder Mireku played his violin. Cape Coast electrified. (while)

EXERCISE 4

In each of the following sentences, replace conjunctions with commas wherever necessary. Then correct any awkward sentences by changing the structure of the word groups so that they are parallel. Underline the coordinating or correlative conjunctions in your new sentence. Example:

Betty showed us her collection of dried plants and herbs and leaves and flowers. *Betty showed us her collection of dried plants, herbs, leaves and flowers.*

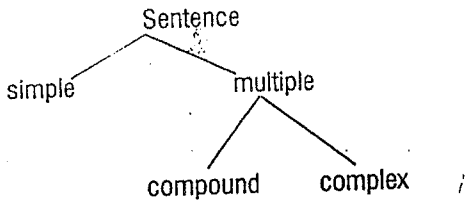
1. Yakubu squinted into the dry wind that blew the tremble weeds against the fence and think about his home.
2. Do you have a pencil or a ballpoint pen or a felt tip marker?
3. Sometimes I like to just sit quietly and listen to the radio or talking to a friend.
4. You must either start your research sooner or to choose a less difficult topic.
5. Kwaku is not only generous but also thoughtful.
6. We found old pictures and postcards and letters.
7. Patricia loves to read, ski, and swimming.
8. During the downpour Martin had neither boots nor was she carrying an umbrella.
9. Jerry is good at writing and acting and making ceramics.

CHAPTER ELEVEN

DEVELOPING WRITING SKILLS

THE SIMPLE SENTENCE

A sentence is made up of at least one clause. However, there are sentences that have more than one clause. Thus, sentences can be classified into two groups namely, the simple sentence and the multiple sentence. This can be presented diagrammatically as



A simple sentence has only one clause. A multiple sentence has more than one clause. As you can see from the diagram, the multiple sentence is put into two groups. A compound sentence can be got by means of co-ordination whilst the complex sentence can be got by means of subordination. These will be discussed in Chapter 12.

In the present chapter, however, we shall be dealing only with simple sentences. A simple sentence is one that contains a finite verb (and only one finite verb). It does four things:

1. It makes a statement.
2. It asks a question.
3. It gives a command or makes a request.
4. It expresses feelings.

For example,
Mr. Lumor teaches this class. (statement)
John has bought the house. (statement)
Do you understand me? (question)
Why did he say that? (question)
Could you lend me your book. (request)
Please help me with my work. (request)

How cold it is! (exclamation)
It's wonderful! (exclamation)

STRUCTURAL DESCRIPTION OF THE SENTENCE

Parts of the Sentence

Quirk and Greenbaum (1973), among other grammarians, identify five parts to the English sentence. The parts are *the subject*, *verb*, *object* (both direct and indirect) *complement* (both subject and object) and *adjunct*.

The subject of a sentence is the word (or group of words) denoting the person or thing about which something is said.

E.g.

The boy hit the dog.
Books are expensive these days.

In the sentences above, both "The boy" and "Books" are subjects.

The verb element is what is said about the subjects, e.g.

The boy ran.
The man slept early.

Both ran and slept constitute the verbs of the sentences above. There are various classifications of the verb as for example the transitive, intransitive, di-transitive, linking and complex transitive. Depending on the kind of verb chosen, a particular kind of element (that is object, complement and adjunct) may become obligatory in the sentence.

The Basic Sentence Patterns

Erkesley and Erkesley identify twenty - four sentence patterns. Quirk and Greenbaum (1973) simplify these into seven basic sentence types. These are:

SV	→	Subject	+	Verb				
SVA	→	Subject	+	Verb	+	Adjunct		
SVC	→	Subject	+	Verb	+	Complement		
SVO	→	Subject	+	Verb	+	Object		
SVOA	→	Subject	+	Verb	+	Object	+	Adjunct
SVOC	→	Subject	+	Verb	+	Object	+	Complement
SVOO	→	Subject	+	Verb	+	Indirect Object	+	Direct Object

These sentences have been established on some principles. Only those obligatory elements are required. Other sentence types are only repetition of the seven basic types.

For every basic sentence type, the syntactic behaviour and the semantics of the elements have been taken into consideration. For example:

Sentence type 1 = Subject + Verb

(i) The man / died.
(ii) John / slept.
(iii) Time / flies.
(iv) The lion / roared.
(v) Who / is speaking.

The verb used in this pattern is one sub-classified as intransitive. The intransitive verbs are those that do not take *an object*. These include verbs such as, dance, walk, speak, run, etc.

Sentence type 2 = Subject + Verb + Adjunct

(i) Mary / is / in the house.
(ii) They / live / in Accra.
(iii) They / are / here.
(iv) He / tries / hard.

Here, the verb is *intensive*. These are verbs such as, "be" seem, look, grow, seem, etc. Verbs of the *'be'* family are (is, was, were, are, and am).

One also notes from the sentences above that the element that follows the verb is *an adverbial*. [Note that the adverbial element is regarded as *complement* by some grammarians. Thus, they consider the sentences above as SVC types.]

Sentence type 3 = Subject + Verb + Complement

(i) The boy / is / a student.
(ii) John / grew / mad.
(iii) Who / are / you.
(iv) Nelson / was / a Sailor.

Here, the verb is also intensive as we saw in type 2. The element that follows the verb is, however, different from what we saw. The element that follows the verb is either *a noun phrase* or *an adjective*. In addition, what follows the verb refers to the subject. That is, the subject and what follows the verb are *co-referential*. Thus, what follows *the verb is referred to as a subject complement*.

Sentence type 4 = Subject + Verb + Object

(i) Cain / killed / his brother.
(ii) Peter / lost / his temper.
(iii) He / did / the work.
(iv) (Do) you / know / the answer?

The verb here is referred to as a *mono-transitive* verb. That is, a verb which requires one object. What follows the transitive verb is termed as the object. Some examples of the mono-transitive verb are, *beat, kiss buy, catch*, etc.

Sentence type 5 = Subject + Verb + Object + Adjunct

(i) He / put / the glass / on the table.
(ii) She / placed / the book / on the shelf.
(iii) He / pulled / the man / out.

Here, the verb is *a complex transitive* one because it requires an object as well as an adjunct obligatorily. The adjunct is normally one of place, for example, "on the table", "behind the door", "on the shelf", etc. It must be noted that verbs that require both object and adjunct are few in English.

Sentence type 6 = Subject + Verb + Object + Complement

(i) We / proved / him / wrong.
(ii) He / called / his cat / Sally.
(iii) They / have made / Richard / captain of the team.

The verb element here is also *complex transitive* since it requires both *object* and *complement* obligatorily. Such verbs include *make prove, elect, appoint, choose. baptise, call, nominate, proclaim, christen, name,* etc. There are not many verbs that are used in this pattern.

One notes a close relationship between the object and the complement, that is, they are co-referential. That is why the complement is referred to as an object complement.

Sentence type 7 = Subject + Verb + Object + Object

(i) Frank / gave / me / the book.
(ii) The man / gave / her / expensive presents.

The verb element obligatorily requires two objects. The first element after the verb is the indirect object and the second is the direct object. The verb in this sentence is thus, referred to as a di-transitive verb. It would be noted that the sentences above could be rephrased as,

Frank gave a book to me.
The man gave expensive presents to her

Test for Objects and Complements

To find out whether a sentence has an object or a complement, one important means is by applying the passive transformation test. Whenever it is possible to transform the sentence such that the element that follows the verb becomes the subject of the sentence, then such an element is an object. For example,

The man stole the goat.

becomes

The goat was stolen by the man.

Therefore "the goat" is the subject of the sentence,

The man stole the goat.

Another example is,

John called the people.
The people were called by John.

If the transformation is impossible, then the element that follows the verb is a complement. For example:

He / is / a student

It is not grammatical to transform it as,

* A student is by him.

Therefore, what follows the verb that is, a student, is a complement.

Complementation

The elements DO (Direct object), C (Complement), and A (Adjunct) in the above patterns are obligatory elements of clause structure in the sense that they are required for the complementation of the verb. By this, we mean that, given the use of a particular verb in a particular sense, the sentence is incomplete if one of these elements is omitted:

I / put / the book. (Type SVOA)

And

He / resembled. (Type SVO)

are unacceptable. In some cases, however, a direct object or object complement in one of these patterns may be considered as grammatical.

He's eating – He's eating an apple (Type SVO).
He made her career – He made her career a success (type SVOC).

Our approach, however, will be to regard these as cases of conversion, whereby a verb such as "eat" is transferred from the transitive to the intransitive category.

Thus,

~~He's~~ eating.

is an instance of clause – type SV rather than SVO (with an optional deletion of the object).

Optional Adverbials

The sentence patterns can be expanded by the addition of various optional adverbials. For example, the adverbials in brackets can be deleted.

SV: (Sometimes) Mary sings (beautifully). - (A) SV (A).
SVA: (In Ghana) most students are (now) on vacation. - (A) SV (A) A.
SVOO: She (kindly) sent him some apples. - S(A) VOO.

EXERCISE 1

Put the following sentences in their clausal elements.

1. It seems that both of you were wrong.
2. Seeing is believing.
3. The two men are in prison.
4. John bought the kind woman a ring.
5. He said that he had seen a ghost

Exercise 1

State whether each of the following sentences is simple, compound or complex:

1. The truck carrying a load of timber from the forest put into Kiel for repairs.
2. The truck, which was carrying a load of timber, put into Kiel for repairs.
3. The ship had a load of timber and put into Kiel for repairs.
4. There have been disturbances in Somalia which may have the effect of bringing about an improvement in prices.
5. The disturbances in Somalia may have the effect of raising prices.
6. There have been disturbances in Somalia and a rise in prices is likely to be the result.
7. The paper we have been using is unsatisfactory inasmuch as it will not keep its colour on the walls.
8. Because of its tendency to fade, the paper we have been using is unsatisfactory.
9. The paper does not keep its colour on the walls and it's, therefore, unsatisfactory.
10. The paper, being liable to dislocation, is unsatisfactory.

Exercise 2

Turn each of the following sentences into a compound, or complex sentence, stating whether your sentence is compound or complex.

1. Having dealt with the firm for so many years I have no hesitation in recommending them.
2. I had the pleasure of meeting your director yesterday for the first time.
3. The premises in Millennium city are for sale.
4. The ship sailed from the port of Takoradi at dawn.
5. We are enclosing samples showing the various colours we stock.
6. Prices, including delivery to your works, can be arranged.
7. Acting on the instructions of the chairman, the secretary signed the contract.
8. To help you to come to a decision we are sending you samples by separate post.
9. Having heard of your recent removal into the district we are sending a copy of our catalogue.
10. We thank you for your letter enclosing a copy of your latest price-list.

FEATURES OF A GOOD SENTENCE

Since we express our thoughts in sentences, the sentence should be regarded as the unit of composition. We must first learn how to write a good sentence. To consider how this is done, let us examine three aspects of the sentence:

1. its **form**;
2. its **length** and

3. the **qualities it should possess – Unity, Emphasis, Coherence** and **Variety** of **structure.**

The Form of the Sentence

There are two forms of sentence – **the loose** and **the periodic**.

(a) The Loose Sentence

The distinguishing characteristic of the loose sentence is that it makes the principal statement at the beginning. It is in fact a grammatically complete statement followed by one or more explanatory or qualifying phrases or clauses. Its continuous running on after grammatical completeness has been reached and when it may be thought that the sentence has come to an end:

> We are not surprised to learn that the cheque has been dishonoured, /as there have been rumours that the financial position of the drawers is unsatisfactory/on account of their inability to raise capital/ necessary to finance their new extensions.

The main idea in this sentence is contained in the first clause.

The sentence is grammatically complete at the word *dishonoured* and could have finished there. It could also have finished at either of the other two line divisions.

(b) The Periodic Sentence

The distinguishing characteristic of the periodic sentence is that it reserves the principal statement for the end. It is not grammatically complete until the end of the sentence is reached, and in consequence the mind of the reader is kept in suspense until the sentence is finished.

> As there have been rumours that the financial position of the drawers is unsatisfactory on account of their inability to raise capital necessary to finance their new extensions, we are not surprised *to learn that the cheque has been dishonoured.*

(c) Loose and Periodic Sentences Compared

Loose	Periodic
I have written to the lady's employer, /as suggested.	As suggested, I have written to the lady's employer.
We do not, feel justified in declaring a dividend/until these claims have been settled.	Until these claims have been settled, we do not feel justified in declaring a dividend.
It is a matter of serious concern to us/that your account has remained unpaid for so long.	That your account has remained unpaid for so long is a matter of serious concern to us.
Your daughter will be given a copy of her new time-table/when she reports next Monday/and has paid the tuition fees/due for the term.	When your daughter reports next Monday and has paid the tuition fees due for the term, she will be given a copy of her new time-table.
The steps taken at the time is justified, /since there were no circumstances that would have anyone to suspect/there was anything wrong.	Since there were no circumstances that would have caused anyone to suspect there was anything wrong, the steps taken at the time were justified.

In the examples, given of loose sentences, the statement preceding the obliques are grammatically complete in themselves and the sentences could have finished there, where as there are no intermediate points in the periodic sentences at which the statements could end. In the periodic sentences the full meaning is suspended until the end of the sentence is reached.

The periodic style is more dignified and forceful than the loose style. It tends to induce brevity and precision, and above all to maintain the unity of the sentence, and leaves one with a sense of completeness. On the other hand, it demands greater concentration and if the sentence is long the thread of the various subordinate statements made may have been lost by the time the main statement at the end of the sentence is reached.

The loose sentence has the advantage of being easy, flowing and natural and is, thus, admirably suited to a plain straight forward style of narrative. It is more in keeping with style of the spoken language and calls for, less effort on the part of the reader. It is, therefore, particularly suitable for business letter writing. Its danger is that it may degenerate into slipshod construction and become involved and obscure.

Whether the loose or the periodic style is preferable depends upon the connection in which it is used. Each form of sentence has its own special advantages and drawbacks, and neither can be regarded as superior to the other. The practice of the best writers is to make use of both forms, though for letter-writing it is better that the loose form should tend to predominate.

Exercise 1

Analyse the following complex sentence into its constituent clauses, writing each one out in full. State what kind of clause each is, and show its connection with the rest of the sentence.

When I asked the boys if they would be responsible for any damage that might occur while they were using the premises, they said they hadn't thought about that.

Exercise 2

Recast the following loose sentences in periodic form

1. He gave me an order the first time I called, and with little or no trouble on my part.
2. Cost of production is a vital factor for the manufacturer, in fact just as vital a factor as the selling price.
3. The chairman's report provided almost unlimited opportunities for questions and criticism, and this was not surprising in view of the difficult time through which the company had just passed.
4. We should be very glad to go into this matter in greater detail on receipt of further particulars from you, including the submission of drawings and estimates.
5. As Mr. Yeni Apaana is a thoroughly good businessman, I should have no hesitation in granting him a credit to the amount you mention.
6. The responsibility for managing such a large organisation was more than Mr. Blavo Benjamin could carry, as he was never had any previous experience of the sort that would help.

CHAPTER TWELVE

THE SENTENCE

The Sentence Structure

To analyse a sentence means to break it into its component grammatical parts for the purpose of determining the relationship of these parts to one another. The structure of the sentence may be:

1. simple
2. compound
3. complex
4. compound-complex

1. The Simple Sentence

This is the sentence in its simplest form. It contains only one finite verb and can, therefore, make one, and only one, complete and independent statement:

(i) He has been promoted.
(ii) Wealthy people are not always the happiest.
(iii) Success is the result of hard work.

2. The Compound Sentence

A compound sentence is one consisting of two or more coordinate main clauses, that is, clauses of equal grammatical value, none of which is in any way dependent upon any another, or in any way enters into the construction of the other.
It is formed by linking together two or more simple sentences by the use of co-ordinating conjunctions (see chapter 1)

(i) She went to Accra early.
(ii) She worked in a rich company.
(iii) She was not a success.

Linking these sentences we have:

She went to Accra early, and (she) worked in a rich company, but (she) was not a success.

This forms a compound sentence, better expressed by the omission of the pronouns in brackets

3. The Complex Sentence

The complex sentence consists of two parts:

(i) one main clause, and
(ii) one or more subordinate clauses, which may be an adjective, an adverb or a noun clause, linked to the main clause (see chapters 1 and 2)

a. The man *who lives next door* is a lawyer. (Adjective clause)
b. She will succeed *because she is persevering*. (Adverb clause)
c. I know that *I shall pass*. (Noun clause)

The following complex sentence includes three subordinate clauses:

a. When he learned (adverb clause modifying *left* in clause (c))
b. that you could not see him (noun clause, object of *learned* in clause (a)
c. he left immediately. (main clause)

The following complex sentence includes two subordinate clauses:

a. The trader (subject of main clause)
b. who called this morning (adjective clause qualifying *trader*)
c. when you were out (adverb clause modifying *called* in clause (b))
d. promised (verb forming predicate of main clause)
e. (that) he would call again (noun clause forming object of *promised*)

4. The Compound-Complex Sentence

We often meet with sentences that are neither wholly compound (two or more main clauses) nor wholly complex (one main clause and one or more subordinate clauses), but a mixture of both. Such sentences are called *compound-complex*. They consist of:
Two or more main clauses (like a compound sentence together with one or more subordinate clauses (like the complex sentence).

a. As soon as the enemy had left it (adverb clause modifying *entered* in clause (b))
b. he entered the town (main clause)
c. (he) occupied the largest building (main clause)
d. (that) he could find. (adjective clause qualifying *building* in clause (c))

6. The milk tastes sour.
7. The Headmaster spoke for an hour.
8. They sold me some apples.
9. He slimmed through the window of his shop.
10. He wished them "A Merry Christmas".

EXERCISE 2

Write sentences to illustrate the following type of sentences.

1. SVOC - The lecturer made John his secretary.
2. SVOC
3. ASVOC
4. SVOAA
5. SAVCA
6. ASVOC
7. AASVC
8. SAVCA

EXERCISE 3

Construct three sentences with each of the following patterns.

1. SVA
2. ASVCA
3. SVOOA
4. SAVA
5. ASVOCA
6. SVAA
7. ASVO
8. ASVOAA

EXERCISE 4

Form sentences using the following verbs and state the sentence pattern used.

1. tell = They tell the children stories (SVOC)
2. leave =
3. consider =
4. suspect =
5. choose =
6. deny =

7. rise =
8. baptise =
9. proclaim =
10. feel =

EXERCISE 5

Put the sentences in the following passage in their clausal elements:

1. I like books that are full of suspense.
2. For his flight to Paris, Amo, who sought no reward, won a prize.
3. Christopher Columbus, who was a man of great patience, spent two dismal weeks in the seaweed of the Sargasso Sea.
4. Hockey, which keeps spectators on the edge of their chairs, is an ancient game.
5. An average person who lives in the Western Hemisphere eats about forty-five tons of food during his lifetime.
6. Alex arrived as the sunset.
7. Clouds formed before the darkness arrived.
8. As if it were angry, rain beat against the windowpanes.
9. When I have the time, I enjoy a good mystery.
10. While we were looking for an old scrapbook, we found a box of Indian-head pennies in an old attic trunk.

EXERCISE 5

Put the sentences in the following passage in their clausal elements:

1. In the centre of the town clock chimed two o'clock.----------
2. In an abandoned house on the outskirts of the town, an owl hooted as if to signal to Sergeant Abora and Constable Abaidoo to wake up from slumber.----------
3. They had patrolled the town for hours and were heavy with sleep.----------
4. The night was so cold that he shivered under his thick overcoat,.----------
5. Abaidoo also picked the sound. ----------
6. Both listened attentively and realised that a late traveller was coming up the road.
7. They took cover behind two opposing trees.----------
8. As he reached where Abaidoo was hiding, the traveller stumbled over what looked like the root of a tree. ----------

Exercise 3

Recast the following periodic sentences in loose form

1. As soon as Sukah arrived, and almost before he had sat down, the office manager began asking him about his previous job.
2. In spite of all the indications to the contrary present trends in market prices are likely to be reversed.
3. Although, looking back, it seems only like yesterday, it is now five years since we placed our first order with your.

The Length of the Sentence

The length of a sentence is a matter of no less importance than its form, but no hard-and-fast rule can be laid down as to what the length of a sentence should be.

The short sentence has the merit of simplicity and directness, and is particularly suitable for effective introductions and conclusions, for driving home leading points in argument, and for summing up. A succession of short sentences, however, tends to produce an unpleasant jerky effect.

> We shall be leaving at 10:30. We hope the car will be ready. Beatrice will be coming with us. You know her. You met her at the library last week. She will be twenty-three tomorrow.

The long sentence is more suitable for the development of reasoned argument and complex thought. But it calls for skill and practice, as well as the power to think clearly and coherently. In unskilful hands it tends to become obscure. Moreover, a succession of long sentences is, therefore, more suitable for letter-writing though, to avoid monotony, there must be a judicious blending of the short with the long. The foregoing short sentences sound much better when rewritten as follows in sentences of varying length.

> We hope the car will be ready at 10:30, when we shall be leaving (medium). Beatrice, whom you know, since you were at the library last week, will be coming with us. (long) She will be twenty-three tomorrow. (short)

The Qualities of a Good Sentence

A good sentence must have *unity* and *coherence*. It must pay attention to *emphasis* or must be *focused* and be *varied in structure*.

Sentence Unity

The sentence is built up on a regular plan, with each part grammatically related to some other part. But this grammatical unity is not by itself enough. There must be a unity of thought or ideas. That is, the sentence must contain one and not more than one main idea. Each of the several parts must be closely related to the main thought the sentence is intended to convey. For instance, it would be appropriate to write:

> A cheque for two million cedis was transferred yesterday, and I hope you received it safely.

because the second statement is related to the first. It will, however, be inappropriate to write:

> A cheque for two million cedis was transferred yesterday, and you will be interested to know that I shall be going to Accra tomorrow.

Since the sentence contains two main ideas, "the cheque" and "the visit to Accra" the ideas cannot be said to be related. Each of these main ideas should appear in a sentence of its own. Another example is as follows:

> We are very much interested in the drama, which was performed entirely by the Theatre Department, who are all professionals, which is connected with the Faculty of Arts, and a considerable asset to the town.

This sentence contains three main ideas relating in turn to:

(i) the drama;
(ii) the performers; and
(iii) professionals.

These separate ideas are more clearly presented in three separate sentences as follows:

> We were very much interested in the drama. The performers are all professionals. The Theatre Department, which is connected to the University of Cape Coast, is a considerable asset to the town.

The suppression of subordinate clauses in favour of separate sentences, as in the above example, is desirable only when the ideas to be expressed are not associated. Complex sentences, instead of separating simple sentences, should be used when the ideas to be expressed may be definitely associated. For example:

> Long ago, there was a Queen. She had a palace surrounded by a most beautiful garden. It contained the rarest trees and flowers.

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1. As soon as Sukah arrived, and almost before he had sat down, the office manager began asking him about his previous job.
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> Long ago, there was a Queen. She had a palace surrounded by a most beautiful garden. It contained the rarest trees and flowers.

The ideas contained in these sentences are closely related and are better expressed in one complex sentence like:

Long ago, there was a Queen, who had a palace surrounded by a most beautiful garden which contained the rarest trees and flowers.

Sentence Coherence

A sentence is not good if it is not coherent, that is, unless its component parts are arranged in good logical order. Incoherence may either result either from lack of *balance*, or from failure to observe proximity rules. When we talk of a balanced sentence, we are referring to the stylistic device by which those parts of a sentence similar in thought are made very similar in form or structure. For example:

(i) Reading maketh a full man; conference a ready man; writing an exact man. (Bacon)
(ii) Every lesson is a lesson in English, and every teacher a teacher of English.
(iii) What is needed today is not broad, unenforceable promises, but precise, enforceable agreements.

A well-balanced sentence has an attraction that is lacking in one that is not. A balanced sentence is simple and sounds well. It is useful in making comparisons and contrasts. but it must not be carried to express. It should, therefore, be used sparingly.

Proximity in Sentences

Those parts of a sentence that are closely connected in thought – sequence should be placed as near together, as possible. This is referred to as the Rule of Proximity. For example:

We shall be pleased to show you samples, if you will call tomorrow, of the goods advertised.

You will observe that the ideas in the above sentence are awkwardly arranged. The phrase:
"If you call tomorrow" should be placed at the beginning of the sentence. If this proximity rule is not properly observed the sentence that results may be absurd. Look at the following sentences:

1. Erected to the memory of Rowena Smith, accidentally killed as a mark of affection by her brother.

To correct this, the adverb phrase:

as a mark of affection by her brother

should follow the verb *erected* which it modifies.

2. A piano is offered for sale by a lady with carved legs.

This sentence will be more meaningful if the adjective phrase

with carved legs

should follow *piano* which it qualifies.
The lack of proximity may produce ambiguity. Consider:

3. He took a note from his wallet, and with an angry gesture, threw it on the counter.

Here, it is not clear what he threw – The note or the wallet? If it refers to the note the sentence should be rearranged so that

threw it on the counter

will follow *note*.

Emphasis in Sentences

Emphasis is another important feature of a good sentence. The purpose of emphasis is to heighten effect by giving prominence to the particular word, phrase or clause. It is obtained in various ways.

1. By inversion of word order. In other words, the order of words in the sentence will change. For instance, instead of the

Subject + verb + object

qualifying words and phrases being placed as near as possible to the words that they qualify, any variation may be effected for emphasis. This change of order surprises and therefore, attracts attention to the word or words *abnormally* placed; especially if placed at the beginning of the sentence or at the end. Look at these sentences:

a. The amount owing on your account is one million cedis.

This can be written for emphasis as:

On your account, the amount owing is one million cedis.

Here, the emphasis is on the amount.

b. I had a meeting yesterday with the works superintendent.

This can be written as:

Yesterday, I had a meeting with the works superintendent.

The emphasis is on the date of the meeting yesterday.

2. A qualifying phrase or supporting clause normally follows the word or words it qualifies. The phrase or clause is emphasised if it is placed before. For example:

a. He resigned on grounds of health.

can become

On the grounds of health, he resigned
The emphasis is laid on the cause of the resignation.

b. He did not realise what had happened until I told him.
This can be:
Not until I told him, he did not realise what had happened.
The time of the realisation is emphasised.

3. Contrast can be used in emphasising ideas. In this case, a phrase is contrasted with another. Look at these:
   a. *Down* came the rain; *up* went the umbrella.
   b. Men *build houses*: but women *make homes*.

Can you identify the ideas that have been contrasted? They are put in italics.

4. Effect can also be got by the use of correlative conjunctions. For instance:
   a. She is young and beautiful.

can be:
She is *not only* young *but also* beautiful.
b. If you can allow we credit will place an order
can be written as:
If you allow can credit *then* we will place an order.

5. We can also make an idea effective by the use of a prefatory *it is* or *it was*. For example:
   a. We regret to have to complain.

can be written as
It is with regret that we have to complain.
b. Fortunately, your letter arrived before I left.
can be written as
It was fortunate that your letter arrived early.

Variety of Sentence Structure

The usual word order of **subject + verb** or **subject + verb + object** is the most common and most suitable order for making declarative statement or intentions, which form the subject matter of most official/formal documents.

However, it is not advisable to build sentences to a uniform pattern; otherwise the writing will become monotonous.To maintain variety in sentences one may do the following:

(i) create a mixture of loose and periodic sentences.
(ii) use sentences of varied length.

(iii) introduce a variety of balanced sentences.
(iv) change the normal word order of sentences.

It is advisable to use varied openings. Monotony may be avoided by beginning sentences with different words and avoiding repetition of the same parts of speech, especially when the parts of speech are similar in form. A sentence like:

> The universities did not favour the original plan. They do not think it has been sufficiently considered, and they do not believe it can succeed; consequently they have decided to reject it.

can be improved as:

> The university authorities did not favour the original plan because, in their view, it has not been sufficiently considered, and consequently has little chance of success. They have, therefore, decided to reject it.

Then again,

> Invariably he calls on his way home, usually about five o'clock, but occasionally a little later.

can be improved because the repetition of adverbs make it sound monotonous. Compare this to the above sentence:

> He always calls on his way home, about five o'clock, but sometimes later.

Finally, we may make our writing more interesting by varying the plan of the sentences. Most ideas can be expressed in several ways, and a practised writer is able to obtain variety by planning his/her sentences differently. Look at these:

(i) We will certainly send the documents if we can.
(ii) Certainly we will send the documents if possible.
(iii) If we are able to send the documents we shall certainly do so.
(iv) If it is all possible we shall certainly send the documents.
(v) You may rely on our sending the documents if we possibly can.
(vi) Unless prevented from doing so, we shall certainly send the documents.

To sum up, this chapter has looked closely at how to write a variety of sentences to make our writing aesthetic and effective. We noted the four types of sentences – simple, compound, complex and compound- complex. We also observed the structure that our sentences should possess in order to maintain the effects we want them to have on our readers.

We shall now start looking at how to put our well-constructed sentences together to form paragraphs.

Exercise 1

Point out the ambiguity or absurdity in each of the following sentences and, by changing the order of the words or phrases and making any other necessary changes, rewrite or type the sentences to give the meaning probably intended.

1. Every now and again the trader goes for a talk with his manager to find out how he stands.
2. The accounts should be passed to me for payment not later than 30th September.
3. The manager told his clerk he was a careless man, and could not keep his accounts properly.
4. Bills are requested to be paid in advance.
5. I shall return the copy of the book which you sent me for inspection during the course of next week.
6. I should be glad if you would let me know the number of children attending the classes before the end of the month.
7. We learnt that the parcel reached you with much satisfaction.
8. The speakers for next week will be found pinned on the notice board.
9. The daughter of a retired Indian civil servant, educated in England, seeks employment as a secretary.
10. He gave an account of his travels soon after his return to one of the leading newspapers.

Exercise 2

Recast the following sentences so as to improve them in any way that you think necessary.

1. Air transport is the quickest of all the various forms of transport, but it is very much dearer, and they only carry small parcels of high value.
2. A retailer would keep his reserve capital in a deposit rather than a current account to gain interest and to work for him instead of lying idle.
3. The goods in a department store can soon be found by boards indicating where to look for them.
4. The reason why so many people buy things on hire-purchase is because for an ordinary working man it is impossible for him to pay for expensive articles straight away.

5. It was announced last night that the *News of the World* is to absorb the *Empire News*, which circulates monthly in the industrial areas of the North, from Sunday, October 23.
6. Goods taken by road is a much better form of transport than goods taken by rail.
7. The reason for his absence, which now extends to almost two months, is because he has had a serious illness.
8. Until we receive confirmation of this information, I do not think it should be made public.
9. The enclosed sample of cloth is the nearest we can supply to the colour required, from stock, which we trust will meet with your approval.
10. The shopkeeper must have somewhere he can keep and fetch his goods from.

Exercise 3

Recast the following sentences so as to improve them in any way that you think necessary.

1. Without transport motor cars would not have been able to be produced in the first place.
2. The importance of transport in connection with commerce is so great that it could not function properly without it.
3. Trade is when a shopkeeper buys from a wholesaler and sells to a customer.
4. The department store sells most things required by a customer, so that they don't have to travel about to get what they require.
5. The large store has escalators instead of trudging up flights of stairs.
6. The bank provides a safe place to deposit money instead of keeping it in the house.
7. Without transport goods, if they were perishable, would be no use at all.
8. A current account does not earn interest, the reason being because it is not kept by the bank for a long period.
9. Goods that are easily broken are not advised to be transported by rail.
10. A department store often has a restaurant which is very convenient and also very reasonable prices.

Exercise 4

The following paragraph is made up of many short, jerky sentences. Rewrite it in an easy-flowing style by combining them to form a smaller number of larger sentences. You may alter or omit words, and re-arrange the order of the sentences, but do not change the meaning.

Tom Thumb had heard everything they had said. He heard their voices. Then he got out of bed. He had come softly to the fireplace. He had got under his father's seat. He had not been seen. He knew what his father and mother were going to do. The little boy went back to bed. He had no more sleep that night. He was turning over in his mind how to keep himself and his brothers safe from a cruel death. Early morning came. He went down to the river. He filled his pockets with small white stones. Then he came back to the house. A short time passed.All the boys then went together with their father and mother. (*R. S. A. Elem.*)

Exercise 5

1. *Combine each of the following groups of short sentences into not more than two sentences each, making only minor changes.*
   a. The train ran through the station. It was a fast train. It did not stop. There were crowds of passengers. The passengers were waiting on the platform. Most of the passengers were in a great hurry.
   b. The old man settled in his chair. It was his favourite armchair. He was tire. He had done a hard day's work. He had reached home. His wife was busy. She was preparing his tea. (*R. S. A. Elem.*)
2. *Combine the sentences in each of the following groups into one good sentence.*
   a. I locked him in his room. I pocketed the key. I then returned to the kitchen. I made up a blazing fire. I lay down and fell asleep.
   b. By this time my ears had grown accustomed to the quiet. I could hear the ticking of the clock inside. It slowly counted out the seconds. The fellow kept deadly still. He must have held his breath. (*R. S. A. Elem.*)

Exercise 6

1. *Rewrite each of the following groups of sentences as one long sentence. Do not use* ***and, but, so,*** *or* ***then****. No information must be omitted, but the order of the sentences may be changed.*
   a. The garden was beautiful. It contained flowers of many different colours. I was very impressed by it.
   b. The letter was long. It was very badly written. I did not read it.
   c. The man worked hard. He deserved to succeed. He never gave up trying. He had failed many times. (*R. S. A. Elem.*)
2. *Show your skill at sentence structure by combining the following in the way that seems most suitable.*

The sugar cane is a perennial. It belongs to the same botanical order as wheat and oats. It attains a height of 15 to 20 feet. It is propagated from cuttings. These are taken from the stem. It takes about 270 days to mature. This is near the equator. In sub-tropical countries it grows more slowly. The ripe canes are cut. They are sent to the factory. The buried root-stock lives on. It produces new crops. These are called ratoons. This continues for several years. Juice is extracted from the sugar cane. The stem is crushed. A series of mills is needed. Water is sprayed on the canes. This is done during the crushing process. The crushing is done slowly. It is very thorough. About 96 per cent of the sucrose is extracted. (R. S. A. Inter.)

Exercise 7

Combine the following sentences in the most interesting and suitable ways:

The word "electric" comes from the Greek word "elektron". This word means "amber". Amber is the name given to a fossil. This fossil is made of resin. This substance must be briskly rubbed. Then it attracts other substances. These must be small and light. William Gilbert first studied frictional electricity. He lived at Colchester. This is a town in England. He has been called "the father of electricity". He wrote a book. It was published in the year 1600. It concerned the magnet, magnetic bodies, and our earth as a magnet. All over Europe, men became interested in electricity. Sometimes progress was made Chance played a certain part. There is an example. Two Germans tried to electrify water They took a hand machine. This machine could produce electricity. They suspended an iron chain from it. The other end of the chain was dipped into water. This was in a jar. The result was interesting. It was the starting point. From this point were developed condensers. These condensers play a part today. They are important. They are used in wireless apparatus and in telephones. (*R. S. A. Inter.*)

CHAPTER THIRTEEN

CORRECT AGREEMENT (CONCORD)

Subject and Serb

1. "Two *baby is picked* for the contest."
2. "Each man does *their* share of the work."

CORPRAL ATTIPOT

Our ear tells us that something is wrong with the above sentences, and that the trouble lies in the italicised words. Now, look at these:

1. Two babies <u>are picked</u> for the contest.
2. Each man does <u>his</u> share of the work.

When we substitute the correct verb and the correct pronoun, we feel at once that the sentences are right. A verb must agree in number with its subject, and a pronoun must agree in number and gender with its antecedent. We shall discuss these in this chapter.

Agreement of Subject and Verb

A verb agrees in number with its subject. Two words agree in number if both of them are singular or both of them are plural. (A word is singular when it refers to a single thing; a word is plural when it refers to more than one thing.) Thus, if the subject of a sentence or clause is singular, the verb must be singular, if the subject is plural, the verb must be plural. For example,

Singular: The box was marked "fragile".
Plural: The boxes were marked "fragile".

Singular: Either student does satisfactory work.
Plural: Both students do satisfactory work.

Most students have little difficulty in distinguishing between the singular and plural forms of nouns and pronouns. Almost without thinking, you can tell which word in the following list refers to one thing or person, and which refers to more than one.

ox	oxen
class	classes
that	those

datum	data
woman	women
neither	both
child	children
agendum	agenda

Similarly, most students can easily tell the difference between the singular and plural forms of the verb. Examples are:

is ⟶ are
was ⟶ were

Despite their understanding of agreement, beginning writers often commit "agreement" errors in their sentences. Usually, the writers more specifically fail to see the true subject of the sentence. Certain constructions tend to make the number of the subject obscure. Let us consider some of them.

Intervening Nouns and Phrases

In a great many English sentences, a noun or phrase intervenes between the subject and the verb. This intervening noun may or may not agree in number with the subject. When it does not agree, writers often become confused about the number of the verb. They forget the basic principle of agreement. Example:

<u>The box</u> of gifts <u>has not been</u> opened.
<u>The money</u> invested in government bonds <u>is</u> safe.
<u>The authorship</u> of the retrieved books <u>is</u> very much doubted.

It would be observed in the sentences above that the number of the subject is not usually changed by the phrase following the subject.

Next, the number of the subject is not changed by explanatory or parenthetical phrases, such as *along with..., as well as..., accompanied by..., in addition to ..., including..., together with, besides..., other than...* etc. For example:

1. This report, together with the final examinations, completes my work for the term.
2. The entire production, including the music and the sets appeals to everyone.
3. The national players no less than their coach have a good reason to be happy.

In addition, the following words are singular:

each	everybody
either	no one
neither	nobody
one	anyone
everyone	someone
somebody	

When standing alone as pronouns, all the above words take singular verbs. Likewise, when they are followed by phrases, they take singular verbs. A phrase intervening between such a subject and its verb does not affect the agreement of verb and subject. For example:

1. Each of my reports was given an *A*.
2. No one of us knows all the answers.
3. Somebody is trying to write the report.

The following pronouns may be either singular or plural:

some
most
all

They are singular when they refer to a quantity of something. They are plural when they refer to a number of things. For example:

1. Some of the milk was spilled.
2. Some of the bottles were broken.
3. Most of the story was exciting.
4. Most of the stones are beautiful.

In addition to the above, the following pronouns may be either singular or plural:

none
any

They are followed by a singular verb when the speaker has one person or thing in mind; they are followed by a plural verb when the speaker has two or more things in mind. For example:

1. None of the so-called volunteers was really willing to go.
2. None of the so-called volunteers were really willing to go.

3. Any of the motors starts instantly.
4. Any of the motors start instantly.

The following words are plural:

both
few
many
others
several

1. Both of those books are out of point.
2. Few of the group are below standard.
3. Several of the questions seem difficult.
4. Many of the students work hard.

Compound and Alternative Subjects

Most compound subjects joined by 'and' are plural and take a plural verb. e.g.

A dictionary and an atlas belong in every library.
Mercury, Venus, Earth and Mars make up the inner planets.

When a compound subject is considered as a unit, not as two or more distinct things, it takes a singular verb. For example:

1. Corned beef and cabbage is always served on Monday. (one dish is served).
2. My son and secretary is coming.

Two or more singular subjects joined by *'or'*, *'nor'*, *'either...or'*, *'neither..., nor...,* are considered singly and take a singular verb. Example:

1. Neither the President nor the Vice-president was in the country at the time.
2. Either John or Arthur wins the race.

When two subjects, one of which is singular and the other plural, are joined by *'or'* or *'nor'* the verb agrees with the nearer subject.

1. Neither the coach nor the players like the new dressing room.
2. Neither the players nor the coach likes the new dressing room.

Whenever possible, this construction should be avoided. It is one of several English constructions which are grammatically correct but seem awkward to the eye and the ear. Thus, the above sentences can be recast as:

The coach does not like the new dressing room, and neither do the players.

Other Problems in Agreement of Subject and Verb

When the subject comes after the verb, be especially sure that you know the true subject and make the verb agree with it. Example:

1. There are a great many angles to this problem.
2. Where are my hat and coat?
3. Are there students in the hall?

A collective noun may take either a singular or a plural verb. A collective noun is singular in form but names or stands for a group of persons, animals or things.

audience
herd
majority
flock

By its very nature, any collective noun may have either a singular or a plural meaning.

It takes a singular verb when the speaker is thinking of the group as a single unit; it takes a plural verb when the speaker is thinking of the individual parts or members of the group. Example:

1. The committee has approved the plan. (committee considered as a unit)
2. The committee have approved the plan. (individual members of the committee)
3. The team leaves for Kumasi this afternoon. (the team as a unit.)
4. The team leave for Kumasi this afternoon. (individual players of the team).

Nouns expressing quantity or amount (of time, money, weight, length, volume, etc.) usually take singular verbs. Example:

1. Twenty years is a long time.
2. Three yards of materials is enough for one dress.
3. Twenty million pounds is a lot of money.

The Exceptions to the Rule

a. When the quantities are considered in terms of individual parts,
   e.g. *Twenty years have passed since we came to this house.*
b. When a fraction of the money has been spent.
   (i) Three fourths of the money has been spent.
   (ii) Three fourths of his friends live very close by.

c. The title of a book, a story, a work of art, etc. takes a singular verb, even if the title is plural in form.
   (i) The "Times" is my favourite newspaper.
   (ii) Swift's Gulliver's Travels was one of the first books we read as children.
   (iii) Sons and Lovers is an interesting novel.

d. Words, which are plural in form but singular in usage, should take singular verbs. Example:
   aeronautics
   mathematics
   civics
   economics
   measles
   mumps
   news
   physics
   whereabouts

Agreement of Pronoun and Antecedent

A pronoun agrees with its antecedent in number and gender. The antecedent of a pronoun is the word to which it refers or for which it stands. In the phrase:

John and his sister,

the pronoun *his* has the noun *John* as its antecedent. Similarly, in the phrase:

Mary and her mother

her mother refers to *Mary*.

In the examples below, both pronoun and antecedents are underlined. Notice that, like subjects and verbs, antecedents and pronouns agree in number. That is, a pronoun is singular when its antecedent is singular and plural when its antecedent is plural. Notice,

also, that a pronoun is masculine (i.e. *he, him, his*) when its antecedent is masculine, feminine (i.e. *she, her, hers*) when its antecedent is feminine, neuter (i.e. *it, its*) when its antecedent is neuter. This second kind of agreement is agreement in gender.

1. Mr. Amoah has done his share.
2. Each boy has his own locker.
3. He took the apple, but he did not want it.
4. The girls took their breakfasts with them.
5. Neither of these books has all its pages.
6. Joanna may have been here, but I haven't seen her.
7. The children can come along if they behave themselves.

The following antecedents take singular pronouns:

each no one

either	nobody
neither	everybody
one	anybody
everyone	someone
anyone	somebody

A phrase after any of these antecedents does not change the number of the antecedent. For example:

1. Each of the men has chosen to go his way.
2. Nobody on the team is so important that he can afford to ignore the others.
3. One of the girls seems especially tall for her age.

When the antecedent may be either masculine or feminine, it is advisable to use only the masculine pronoun in referring to it.

1. Everyone wants his place in the sun.
2. Anyone may hand in his paper as soon as he is finished.
3. Nobody is expected to leave this hall unless he obtains permission.

When two or more singular antecedents are joined by ***and***, they should be referred to by a plural pronoun. For example:

1. When Zaratu and Frank get here, tell them I'm almost ready.
2. Only Aisha, Betty and Joyce have prepared their assignments.

However, when two or more singular antecedents are joined by ***or*** or ***nor*** they should be referred to by a singular pronoun. For example:

1. Either Kwaku or George will get his certificate next week.
2. Nether Yaa nor Ivy looks as though she wants a job.

The number of a relative pronoun is determined by the number of the words it refers to, that is, its antecedent. For example:

1. These regular regulations apply to everyone who takes this course.
2. This is the finest of the books that describe life in the British colonies.
3. Esi is one of the lecturers who work efficiently.

It must be noted that strict agreement between pronoun and antecedent is sometimes abandoned to prevent an unnatural construction. On rare occasions, a singular antecedent is used with a meaning that is clearly plural. Whenever this occurs, rigid adherence to the general rule of agreement between pronoun and antecedent can lead to a construction so absurd that no one would use it. For example:

When everyone has arrived, send him directly to the office.

In this sentence, everyone is clearly plural in meaning and the pronoun him, though grammatically correct, is confusing and unnatural. It is better to say:

When everyone has arrived, send them to the office.

EXERCISE 1

Choose the appropriate verbs in each of the following sentences.

1. The first match of the semi-finals (is, are) now going on.
2. The pictures taken in our school kitchen (looks, look) almost good enough to eat!
3. Rivulets of dew (covers, cover) the canvas top of my sleeping bag.
4. One computer for two or more students (seems, seem) inadequate.
5. During the winter months, the road linking the three towns (has, have) always been closed.
6. Neither of those arguments (convinces, convince) me.
7. Most of the voters in the district (is, are) Democrats.
8. The student in charge of the awards (does, do) not choose the winners.

EXERCISE 2

Re-write the passage correctly.

The average motorist have no conception of the construction of his car's petrol tank. He does not know what shape it is or what are inside it, and has only a vague idea of where it is. The only part of it that he sees regularly are the top end of the filler pipe when he stops to buy petrol.

The petrol tank fitted in most cars are made of two pieces of mild steel sheet. The steel is coated on both sides with lead or tin to prevent corrosion. The two pieces are cut out and pressed into shape with regular ribs and hallows to give them rigidity. Onto the bottom section baffles is welded. These are a system of steel walls or barriers which prevents the petrol being thrown violently from one end of the tank to the other as the car turns a sharp corner or come to a sudden halt.

EXERCISE 3

In each sentence, which word or expression in parenthesis is the correct or never-questioned one?

1. Two thirds of the members of the club (own, owns) single-lens reflex cameras.
2. (Was, Were) you surprised to learn that President Ford was originally named Leslie Lynch King, Jr.?
3. Neither the pitcher nor the in-fielder (was, were) able to get to the burn in time to throw out the runner.
4. When Mrs. Maison was young, 75 pesewas (was, were) enough for a good dinner.
5. A number of cities (are, is) celebrating the centennial of our state.
6. In the rear of the bus (was, were) two musicians, each with a bass violin leaning against the seats.
7. As we flew into New York, the first sight we saw (was, were) the twin towers of the World Trade Centre.
8. The slippery surface of the tennis court, not the high winds, (was, were) responsible for our slipshod play.

EXERCISE 4

Underline the verb that agrees with the subject in each of the sentences below.

1. Mr. Addo (don't/doesn't) take cream in his coffee.
2. Araba's feet (has/have) blisters from her new shoes.

3. The lenses for this camera (is/are) very expensive.
4. The gorillas in the zoo (was/were) making faces at all visitors.
5. (Is/Are) the Girl Scouts in the parade this year?
6. Some friends of my brother's (is/are) coming for dinner.
7. One of the triplets (have/has) brown hair.
8. Neither of the students (want/wants) to miss the spelling bee.
9. Each of the shirts (have/has) a monogram on the pocket.
10. Here (is/are) the strawberries.
11. Everyone with perfect attendance (get/gets) a free ticket to watch the game.
12. Where (is/are) the new magazines?

EXERCISE 5

Write a pronoun that will fill the blank in the corresponding sentence, correctly agreeing with its antecedent.

1. Each student has ---------own special problems.
2. One of these rivers winds ---------- way through a peaceful valley.
3. Both Sally and Mary said that ---------- would come.
4. If anyone wants this seat, tell ---------- that it's reserved.
5. Many of the boys have ---------- own bicycles.
6. Not one of the soldiers deserted ---------- post.
7. Neither the president nor the treasurer has ---------- copy of the minutes.
8. Either Steve or Henry can have ---------- way, but not both of them.
9. One of the women said that the watch was ----------
10. It sounds as though somebody is practising for ---------- piano recital.

EXERCISE 6

Replace the expressions underlined by pronouns, using the word-order pattern without to or for.

1. John gave the book to Henry.
2. Jane bought some sweets for her mother.
3. Tell the answer to the students.
4. My sister and I told a story to my little brother.
5. Alec and Mary gave some chocolates to my sister and me.
6. You and I must give a present to John.
7. Jane will find her coat for Mary.
8. Henry and Alec gave a cake to my wife and me.

9. Give this one to the baby.
10. My friend and I told John about our journey last week.

EXERCISE 7

Choose the right words

This island belongs to (we/us) who were here first.

1. Who's there?' 'It's only (me/I) and my friend Maisie'.
2. That's (she/her). It's (she/her) that we saw at the scene of the murder.
3. Let Cyril and (I/me) play a duet.
4. There's friendly agreement between Mr. Tumbrill and (me/I).
5. What would you do if you were (he/him)?
6. Let you and (I/me) be friends!
7. Who did that?' 'Please, Sir, it wasn't (I/me)'.
8. She rang me up this morning and asked my friend and (I/me) to tea.
9. Well, let's pretend for a moment! I'll be (her/she) and you be (I/me). Now imagine there's a quarrel between (her/she) and (I/me). How would you settle it?

EXERCISE 8

Choose the correct or never-questioned pronoun within the parenthesis in each sentence.

1. Aunt Elizabeth sent Joe and (I/me)a postcard from Australia.
2. Awuku rode in the front seat with Mom and (he/him).
3. No, I didn't see Susan and (her/she) at the hockey game.
4. Will you go for a swim with Anita and (I/me) this afternoon?
5. Have you read the letter from Uncle Christian and (he/him)?
6. Akua gave Chioma and (I/me) the instructions for building a bookcase of bricks and planks.
7. One day, in a men's clothing store, Uncle Devine and (he/him) saw a chimpanzee being fitted for a new suit.
8. (He and I/Him and me) lent Eddie and Derrick our tennis racket.

EXERCISE 9

Insert the appropriate verb, is, or are, in each of the following sentences.

1. Economics ---------- the science of wealth.
2. The statistics ---------- submitted to the university.
3. Geriatrics ---------- the medical care of the aged.
4. Tactics ---------- the science and art of disposing forces for battle.

5. The acoustics of this large room ---------- very good.
6. Paediatrics ---------- the treatment of children's diseases.
7. The aerobatics of the pilot ---------- interesting to watch.
8. Athletics ---------- an essential part of school life.
9. The politics of this speaker ---------- those of a communist.
10. Tactics ---------- subordinate to strategy.

EXERCISE 10

A few of the following sentences are correct. Identify them and copy the remaining sentences, making such corrections as may be necessary.

1. Each of the part have been made separately.
2. The United Nations Charter is one of the most important documents that has ever been prepared.
3. We wish you to thoroughly and completely investigate the matter.
4. The great variety of styles we are able to offer to customers ensure our ability to please.
5. A complete set of patterns were sent to you by post yesterday.
6. All being well we will be able to complete the work on Saturday.
7. If neither of them are to be trusted there is little point in referring to t ,em.
8. I wish categorically to deny the accusation.
9. Mr. Appiah, as well as Mr. Koomson, are coming here today.
10. Mr. Boateng has four clerks and every one of them is capable.

EXERCISE 11

A few of the following sentences are correct. Identify them and copy the remaining sentences, making such corrections as may be necessary.

1. A new set of files have been prepared.
2. He is one of those who is never happy unless he is in the limelight.
3. His bread and butter are at stake should he lose his job.
4. To carefully overhaul the machine is a matter of urgency.
5. Tact and discretion is an essential part of a secretaries make-up.
6. Which of the two men are likely to be appointed?
7. We hope to speedily finish the job.
8. The financial results were as good and even better than ever.
9. He laid there for an hour as if in a dream.
10. A suite of furnished rooms, were available, but at a prohibitive rent.

CHAPTER FOURTEEN

PLACEMENT OF MODIFIERS

Misplaced Modifiers

Efficient writers make their meaning clear to their readers at once. If a reader is puzzled by what you write and has to read the sentence or passage several times, he wastes valuable time, becomes confused and loses interest in what you have written. A misplaced modifier is an obstruction to understanding. The following sentences, at first glance are confusing.

Ghanaians cheered the American President as he rode down the avenue in his official car waving their hats.

or

Waving their hats Ghanaians cheered the American President as he rode in his official car down the avenue.

Another confusing sentence is:

I caught the prowling cat dressed in my new bathrobe.

We do not expect a prowling cat to be dressed in a new bathrobe. The sentence becomes quite clear when we place the phrase "dressed in my new bathrobe" near "I" which it modifies. For example:

Dressed in my new bathrobe, I caught the prowling cat.

Therefore, it is better to place phrase and clause modifiers as near as possible to the words they modify.

Dangling Modifiers

A modifying phrase or clause must clearly and sensibly modify a word in a sentence. When there is no word that the phrase or clause can modify sensibly, then the modifier is said to dangle. For example:

Eating dinner quietly, the explosion occurred.

It is clear that the "explosion" could not be eating dinner. Here is one way in which the sentence can be corrected.

Eating my dinner, I jumped up when I heard the explosion.

In this instance, a word has been added (I) which is modified by the participial phrase. Another way of correcting the sentence is the following:

While I was eating my dinner, the explosion made me jump up.

Here the participial phrase has been changed to an adverb clause. Consider the following. You will note that, usually, there is more than one-way to eliminate such an error.

* While correcting papers, the message came from the principal.
  - While correcting papers, we received a message from the principal.
* Dashing madly for the train, Mary's books and papers fell out of her arms and scattered.
  - While she was dashing madly for the train, Mary's books and papers fell out of her arms and scattered.
  - Dashing madly for the train, Mary dropped her books and papers.

In fact, grammar requires that opening phrases should – with certain exceptions – relate to the first noun, pronoun or other noun equivalent that follows. Further examples include:

* Having prepared the night before, the test was not difficult.
  - Having prepared the night before, I found the test not difficult.
* By planting early, the garden will produce a crop of beans by mid-summer.
  - By planting early, the gardener hopes that his garden will produce a crop of beans by mid-summer.
* Finding no one at home, a note was left under the door.
  - Finding no one at home, I left a note under the door.
* Driving to the Elmina Castle, a huge crocodile was seen.
  - Driving to the Elmina Castle, we saw a huge crocodile.
* Sitting on top of the building, objects on the ground look ludicrously small.
  - Sitting on top of the building, one notes that objects on the ground look ludicrously small.

EXERCISE 1

Each of the following, sentences is confusing because of a dangling modifier. Remove the danglers by revising the sentences.

1. Looking up from the street, the Empire state building seems enormous.
2. Fastened to the tree stump, range and despair filled the heart of the captive.
3. Ailing and near starvation, both fame and fortune had abandoned the once-celebrated poet.
4. All bundled up in a new blanket, the baby's first outing was a brief one.
5. Having deposited the weekly cheque, the cashier said that the bank was about to close for the day.
6. After eating the usual breakfast, the dog's morning seemed to be one of a difference.
7. While doing his homework, John's father read the newspaper.
8. Tying the scarf tightly around his neck, the wind blew violently.
9. Living in Elmina every holiday, the fishing vessels were familiar to him.
10. After drinking many toasts to the happy couple, the reception lasted for hours.
11. Having written the last poem, the book was now ready for the printer.
12. While running with the ball, my ankle twisted.
13. Going at full speed, the accident occurred at Dunkwa.
14. To get an "A" in Physics concentrated studying is necessary.

EXERCISE 2

Rewrite each of the following sentences, eliminating all misplaced or dangling modifiers. For example:

Obsessed with locating the sunken treasure, the ocean floor was scoured.

This becomes:

Obsessed with locating the sunken treasure, the divers scoured the ocean floor.

1. Being newcomers to the community, the one-way streets confused the Mensahs.
2. Ben watched the parade riding his bicycle.
3. Roasted over charcoal, we particularly like corn on the cob.
4. After being sequestered in the jury room for ten hours, the need for food was left by the jury.
5. As a guest in their home, the Coopers urged us to use their car freely.

EXERCISE 3

Each of the following sentences is confusing because of a dangling modifier. Remove the danglers by revising the sentences.

1. Talking on the telephone, the tea kettle began to whistle.
2. To become a good archer, a strong arm and a keen eye are needed.
3. Opening the kitchen door with one brawny arm, the parrot squawked, "Anybody home?"
4. Entering the restaurant, the headwaiter greeted us pleasantly.
5. Reading a recent article on the migration of birds, Quacoe's interest in ornithology was aroused.
6. On the way to school this morning a freight trained delayed our bus ten minutes.
7. While driving by the church, the organist was giving a concert.
8. Reaching for my whip, the monkey gave a frightening chatter.
9. Having jumped from the top of the piano with a happy bark, Marian gave the puppy a biscuit.
10. Sitting on their nests on a rocky island, the eggs of the gannet are kept warm by impatient parents.

EXERCISE 4

Correct or ignore the following sentences by re-arranging the elements of each sentence.

1. My brother Joe works for a company that repairs jewellery three hours a week from one o'clock until three-thirty.
2. There is a recipe that tells how to make sandwiches in this cookbook.
3. Dan promised after lunch he'd take Jamie skating.
4. Theo edged closer as the deer sniffed suspiciously and snapped the picture.
5. I could hear my cat Oliver purring while doing my work for the school debate.
6. Cubans from all walks of life had laboured to achieve statehood long and hard.
7. Little white boxes of ice cream were given to all the guests tied with white satin ribbon.
8. Erupting volcanoes not only spew out lava but also dust and gases.
9. I could see a boy fishing through my window.
10. I jumped out of bed as the sun rose and took a swim.

CHAPTER FIFTEEN

AMBIGUITY

The word "ambiguous" comes from a Latin word "ambiguus", which means 'wandering about', 'uncertain'. It must not be confused with vagueness, for vagueness, according to the Webster's Third International Dictionary, refers to something that is, "not clearly expressed: stated in general or indefinite terms.Not clearly defined, grasped or understood. Not thinking or compressing one's thoughts clearly or precisely".

From the above, it is clear that whereas ambiguity is simply being open to more than one interpretation, vagueness implies stating in very general terms.

John Lyons et. al (1987) state that ambiguity is the single most important problem in language. In fact, natural languages are riddled with ambiguities at every level of description from phonetic to the sociological, and in this respect, such languages differ radically from formal languages such as the prepositional calculus. Yet as users of natural languages, we are blithely unaware of this pervasive ambiguity; it comes to our attention only in the guise of such linguistically marginal phenomena as puns, misunderstandings and contested libel suits.

Ambiguity may be planned or unplanned. When it is planned, it is intentional and this is so carefully done that it does not impede communication. For example, in literature, ambiguity may occur in the form of metaphors, puns, symbols, assonance, etc. Consider the following line of poetry:

His behaviour towards her was ambiguous.

Or

An agent's relationship with an author is undoubtedly an ambiguous and suitable affair.

In most advertisements, ambiguity is very carefully planned to give an added meaning to what the advertiser wishes to say. Consider the following:

We dispense with accuracy.

A firm of furniture-removers advertised itself as:

Removers of distinction

Similarly, comedians make use of intentional ambiguity to give entertainment.

It must be noted that planned ambiguity is for special effect and one needs time to reflect on the intended meaning. This is why reading literature and especially poetry requires a lot of time.

Unplanned or unintentional ambiguity is one that occurs in ordinary speech and writing. The speaker may not even be aware of the ambiguity. In any case, this type of ambiguity is obviously an obstacle to clear communication and care is to be taken to avoid it.

Levels of Ambiguity

Ambiguity may be phonological, structural or semantic. Therefore, unless you are aiming deliberately at a comic or poetic effect (or deliberately hoping to mislead your listener) ambiguity stands out as a serious blemish on what you say or write.

(i) Phonological Ambiguity

Phonological ambiguity is one that results from sound phonemes. The sounds of English are sometimes the source. Two quite different words might sound the same, whether spelt alike or not. For example,

Maroon [mæru:n] means 'to cast away" or "abandon" in a lonely position.
Maroon [mæru:n] also means "purplish brown"
"sail" and "sale" have the same pronunciation and the occasional misunderstanding might arise as a result.

Similarly, two distinct phrases or words may sound very similar. For instance,

I scream [ai skri: m]
Ice cream [ais kri: m]
"blackboard" and "black board"

In practice, most apparent ambiguities in English speech are avoided, because intonation and word breaks distinguish one sense from another. "I scream" and 'ice cream" do not in fact sound identical when spoken rightly, anymore than 'blackboard" and "black board" do. Thus, many phrases, which are ambiguous in written English, would not be in danger of being misunderstood if spoken. Consider the following:

1. An African History teacher
2. A large man's suit

They are both ambiguous when written, but when stressed and timed in two different ways, the intended meanings can be brought out. For example:

a. a (large) (man's suit), that is a man's suit that is large, and
b. A (large man's) suit, that is a suit for or belonging to a large man.

Thus, when one fails to articulate the sounds properly, one's speech is likely to be ambiguous. Therefore, good pronunciation, intonation, stress and word breaks are the tools for disambiguating phonological ambiguity.

(i) **Semantic or Lexical Ambiguity**

Semantics has to do with lexis or meaning; therefore, semantic or lexical ambiguity comes about as a result of the word that is chosen. Some words have more than one meaning. That is, they are homonymous. For example:

"I saw the man going to the bank".

The utterance is ambiguous because of the homonymous word "bank". It may mean:

a. a financial institution
b. the side of a river
c. a wall of earth, often sloping.

Which of the above meaning is intended by the speaker?

Let us consider an excerpt from a newspaper article.

The Oxford United coach was held up in a traffic jam and arrived with only three minutes to spare – "The Times"

It became clear later in the article that the "coach" referred, not to the man in charge of training a team, but to the bus carrying the team to its match.

Another example is:

Spotted man wanted for questioning

The source of ambiguity in the sentence is the word "spotted" which may mean, "to see" or "dotted".

To disambiguate lexical ambiguity, context is sometimes helpful. For example, if one said:

The man said he had saved some money at the Barclays Bank. I saw him going there yesterday.

Or

I saw the man going to the bank. It appears he has saved some money there.

In the above examples, the probability of one meaning of "bank" (that is a financial institution) is high.

As a matter of fact, a processing account of large comprehension must provide some explanation for how the lexical ambiguity is resolved. This involves specifying extra mechanisms for filtering out syntactic (grammatical), semantic analysis that are inappropriate. Katz and Fodor (1963) originally proposed selectional restrictions as a way of manipulating ambiguity. This is good, for instance, when one is certain that the ambiguity is caused by only one lexical item and nothing else.

(iii) **Structural/Grammatical Ambiguity**

Structural ambiguity or what is referred to as grammatical ambiguity has to do with ambiguity resulting from the coming together of words or syntax. It is probably the most common kind of ambiguity. Let us consider some instances:

2. It may result from an adjacent prepositional phrase that is followed by a relative clause. For example:

Joyce wants to work in a hospital in a company with modern equipment.

It is not clear how much of the sentence is contained in the dominion of the prepositional phrases:

in hospital, and
in a company

Thus, the post modifier and its antecedents have created the ambiguity since it is not clear whether it is the hospital or the company that has "a lot of equipment".

A similar sentence is:

The lady wants to marry a man in a city with a lot of respect for ladies.

It is not clear whether it is the man or the city that has a "lot of respect for ladies".

3. Ambiguity may result from unclear modifications. For example:

The president decided against attending any more dull musicians' performances.

The above utterance may mean that the musicians are dull or the performances are dull.

A similar example is:

The principal has refused to enter dirty students' houses.

It is not clear whether it is the students that are dirty or the houses.

To disambiguate the above sentences, one has to restructure the sentences for the intended meaning. For example,

"The president has decided against attending dull performances by musicians".

Or

...performances of dull musicians.

The principal has refused to enter students' houses that are dirty.

Or

...houses of students who are dirty.

4. One of the commonest causes of ambiguity is careless word order. It is important to structure sentences in such a way that the intended relationship between words and phrases is clear. Formally, it is necessary to place related words as near to each other as possible. Consider the following:
   a. A piano is being sold by a lady with carved legs.
   b. Erected to the memory of John McFarland. Drown'd in the Water of Leith. By a few affectionate friends.

   In each of the above utterances, the final phrase should have come earlier in order to relate to the correct noun or verb ("piano", "erected"). By being left until the end, each phrase relates grammatically to the wrong noun or verb ("lady", "drown'd"), and suffers the consequences.

5. Another common source of ambiguity in a sentence is the ambiguity of a word or a phrase within it. There are many traditional examples. Consider the pessimistic interpretation that could be put on the optimistic proverb:
   a. Visiting aunts can be a bore

Or

   b. No news is good news

The phrase, "visiting aunts", can be understood here to mean both "to go and visit aunts" or "aunts who come to visit".

6. The nominalisation process creates ambiguity in terms of what the deep structure and the surface structure refer to.
   a. *The dismissal of the managers annoyed the public.*

The question is who have been dismissed? Was it the managers who were dismissed, or the managers dismissed some people? In other words, the managers are either victims or the agents of the dismissal. A similar example is:

   b. *The arrest of the policemen surprised everyone.*

Again, the policemen are either the victims of the arrest or agents. To disambiguate the sentences, their structure must be changed, as in the examples below:

   a. The public were annoyed when the managers were dismissed *or*
   b. The public were annoyed when the managers dismissed their subordinates.

And similarly,

   a. When the policemen were arrested, everyone was surprised.
   b. Everyone was surprised when the policemen arrested the men.

7. A word can be quite unambiguous in itself and yet create ambiguity in a sentence by failing to make clear what part of the sentence it refers to. This is especially true of pronouns. Consider this simple example:
   a. If the baby does not thrive on fresh milk, boil *it*.

'Boil' could refer to *milk* or to "the baby".

   b. Men chase women until *they* catch up with *them*.

   The natural interpretation of the sentence here is undercut by the use of "they" which can refer to the "men" or "women".

A more complicated one is:

   Where were you wounded?

The use of "where" may either refer to the geographical location [in terms of land], or the part of the body.

8. When a reason clause follows a negative statement, the utterance may be ambiguous. For example:

I didn't come to school because I want to marry.

This may mean,

a. I came to school not to marry
b. I failed to come to school since I wanted to marry.

In other words, the speaker either came to school or failed to come. The structure of the sentence must be changed for the intended meaning. A similar sentence is:

c. James didn't go to Accra because he got his loan.

9. Indefinite pronouns may cause ambiguity. For example:

a. All the ministers arrived in a car.

The sentence may mean,

(i) One car was used in conveying all the ministers.
(ii) Every minister came in his own car.

b. All the dancers came in a band.

As the name implies, indefinite pronouns are so indefinite that the least carelessness involved in their use will result in confusion.

10. The lazy omission of words on the one hand and the overzealous attempt to pack up too much meaning into too little space on the other, or thoughtless brevity is another source of ambiguity. They are responsible for many an awkward construction or outright blunder. As the Roman Poet Horace puts it:

"I toil to be brief, and become obscure."

A traditional example is:

He likes me more than you.

The context must indicate which of the two possible meanings is intended here. If not, the ambiguity must be eliminated by the addition of a word or phrase. When interpreted, we may have on the one hand:

"He likes me more than you do"

and on the other hand,

"He likes me more than he likes you."

A similar example is:

I've just read in "Options" Magazine that a young woman called Luella from Plymouth has won a tycoon-of-the-year award for her meteoric success in the widow business. I wish Luella had come to me instead of Sid. Arnold, "The Observer".

This may mean:

I wish Luella rather than Sid had come to me.

Or

I wish Luella had come to me instead of going to Sid.

One must be careful how one completes the structures in order to disambiguate the utterance.

11. Ambiguity may also depend on the interpretation we are giving an utterance, that is, whether an adverbial or adjectival. For example:

Please, carry the block over there

This may mean:

Carry the block to a place (over there) in which "over there" is used as an adverbial or over there where it is considered as an adjectival, post modifying the block.

12. There are utterances that have multiple ambiguities. For example,

a. The police are instructed to stop drinking at football matches.
b. Watchmen are trying to stop stealing in the university in the night.

Sentence (a) may be interpreted as

(i) The police are to abstain from drinking.
(ii) The police are trying to prevent other people from drinking.
(iii) The police are to drink at other times but not during football matches
(iv) The police are to stop other people from drinking during football matches but to allow the people to drink on other occasions.

13. Careless punctuation, finally, is a major cause of ambiguity. Telegrams are a traditional source of such ambiguities. One joke has it that Stalin received a telegram from Trotsky which he read as an apology:

a. "You were right. I should apologise."

What Trotsky had in fact meant was:

"You were right? I should apologise?"

Consider:

b. Frederick says Voltaire is an ass:

This is another example from Shakespeare.

c. Consider then we come but in despite we do not come as minding to content you, our true intent is. All for your delight we are not here. That you should here repent you. The actors are at hand.....

- Quince, in *A Midsummer Night's Dream*

A more correct reading would be:

Consider then: we come (but in dispute we do not come) as minding you to content you. The actors are at hand.....

Sometimes the context will make clear which meaning is intended in the utterance, but it is perhaps advisable to avoid all possibility of misunderstanding by rephrasing the sentence into a completely unambiguous form.

In fact, the way to avoid ambiguity in speech and writing is very simple – and very difficult. The trick is merely to think carefully before you speak, and check carefully after you write. Sensitivity to language is something that everybody has in some measure or other – but not everybody is patient or concerned enough to use it, let alone develop it. The more you monitor your own writing (and that of others), the more instances of carelessness and ambiguity you are at first likely to discover. In addition, the more you will in due course, find yourself perpetrating.

EXERCISE 1

Having gone through the various sources of ambiguity, the student should be able to determine the sources of ambiguity in the following sentences and make a conscious effort at disambiguating them.

1. John loves matriculating students.
2. He will never stop people from showing contempt for others by preaching to them.
3. There was a discussion last week on matriculating students at the Registrar's office.
4. Your argument is sound, nothing but sound.
5. Advertisement: Antique desk, suitable for professor with dainty legs and large drawers.

6 It all came back to him so plainly; a picture of the loveliest girl he had ever seen hanging in the living room
7 Children, this food must not be eaten without washing first
8. Following several new leads, police have made a number of arrests
9 She told me to slow down with great impatience
10 On government orders, a volley of gunsho s was used to disperse the riot by the police

EXERCISE 2

Determine the sources of ambiguity in the following sentences and disambiguate them.

1. I sat contentedly in the park. watching the dogs playing and smoking my pipe
2 The committee made recommendations for educational reforms in 1981
3. We have decided to cancel tonight's performance in honour of Sir William
4 They are trying to get the project started again
5 I did not come because I lost the election
6. The courts were able to convict for technical reasons
7. The machine only seems to go wrong when Jessie operates it
8. Flying planes can be dangerous
9. Health Minister appeals to nurses.
10 Bigamy is more common than I thought in U. S.
11 A copy of Shakespeare will be given to the winner of the essay competition bound in real leather.

EXERCISE 3

Now carefully study the following utterance and see if you notice any ambiguity Attempt disambiguating them when necessary.

1 The country had no capital at the time.
2. He was driven from his home by his wife.
3 I must replace the astray.
4. Iceland fish talks.
5. You must meet my old friend.
6 How would you like to die?
7. He dragged the box from the car s bonnet and sat on it
8 The president told Mr. Jones that his own hometown would not get special treatment.
9. The moths have attacked all my five imported hats.

10. Tom phoned his brother before he left for work.
11. I refuse to admire the play, simply because the acting is excellent.

EXERCISE 4

Determine the sources of ambiguity in the following sentences and make a conscious effort at disambiguating them.

1. I could see a girl fishing through my window.
2. If you mail this coupon promptly you will get a pen that writes under water for only ten thousand cedis.
3. Mother nearly finished reading her book on how to analyse new selling techniques while flying from Accra to New York.
4. A ship must run between huge icebergs that make sailing dangerous before reaching America.
5. The guide told us before sunset we'd be deep in the forest.
6. I chased Godwin as he ran around the pond on my bike.
7. Eddie tiptoed out of the house as the burglar filled a bag with silver from the dining-room buffet and ran next door to call the police.
8. Charles took a picture of a squirrel running cross the telephone wire with his camera.
9. Baskets were given to all the children filled with eggs.
10. Dad told us Tuesday we could go swimming.

CHAPTER SIXTEEN

DOCUMENTATION

In writing your essay or research paper, you might have used ideas or direct quotations from other writers.You must now document this information.Documentation is the process by which you acknowledge the sources of the information used in your research. In fact any direct quotation, facts which have been taken from someone else, and expressions of opinion which are not your own, must be well documented. Documentation includes **footnotes** and a **bibliography.**

FOOTNOTES

A footnote gives the author and publication from which you have taken information. Whenever you use information that is not your own, footnote it. To do so, place a **superscript**, or raised number, in the text above the line at the end of the information. In the corresponding, give the author and publication information.

If you look through many books, you will discover a considerable variety of form in footnotes. It is advisable, however, to learn one form which gives all the information that is necessary and to use this form consistently. This saves comparing, checking for completeness, and other delays.

The following rules will help you to know when to use footnotes:

1. Footnote your source when you quote an author's exact words. Use direct quotations only when the author's wording is important or when the exact phrasing strengthens the point that you are making.

   "Before the model, we really had no way to determine what kinds of stresses were put on an insured joint," explains Dr. Murray.

   "Now we'll be able to develop rehabilitative exercises"

2. Footnote your source when you use an author's idea, even though you have not used the author's exact words. For example,

   Ariel also showed that, for baseball pitchers, training the wrist is useless, since the speed of the wrist movement is a result of a whip action of the legs, back, and shoulders, not a muscle contraction of the forearm.

3 Footnote your source when you give figures or statistics.

By following Ariel's advice, Wilkins increased his throw from 219 feet inch to 232 feet 6 inches, broke the world record in discus throwing, and won an Olympic gold medal.

Modern practice demands that a couple of footnotes include the following.

a. *The name of the author of the work:* If an author is not given, the name of the editor must be cited. Sometimes the names of both author and editor are included in a footnote.

b. *The title of the work:* If the title is of a book or periodical, it must be underlined. But if the title is of an article in a periodical, a chapter of a book, or a poem or short story in an anthology, the title is placed in quotation marks. Titles of long poems, for example, *Paradise Regained* and titles of plays which are published as books are underlined.

c. *The edition (if there is more than one), place and date of publication* This information may be necessary to distinguish one edition of a work from other editions, either by the same or different publishers. The pagination of an earlier edition may be different from that of the one you are using.

d. *The volume, if there is more than one volume, and the pagenumber(s)*

A footnote numeral must be placed in the text of your paper following the passage to which a reference is being cited. Asterisks and other symbols at one time employed to indicate footnotes are no longer generally used.

The footnote numeral should be placed to the right and slightly above the close of the passage to which the footnote refers, whether that passage is a direct quotation sentence or paraphrase, or merely an allusion

At the bottom of the page two blank spaces or a typewritten line should separate the footnotes from the body of the text A footnote numeral corresponding to the one entered in the text is placed, indented and raised, before the footnote itself. The footnotes are single-spaced and separated by a blank space to allow for the raised footnote numbers

You do not need to footnote information that is commonly known even though you did not previously know that information yourself Information is considered to be commonly known if it appears in several sources. Try to avoid using too many footnotes in your

paper. Remember to document all of your sources in order to avoid *plagiarism*, which is using someone else's words or ideas as if they were your own.

Footnote Forms:

Use the following forms to footnote various types of sources, unless your teacher suggests other styles of acknowledgement. Notice that you do not include the word "The" at the beginning of the title of a magazine, a newspaper, or an encyclopaedia Notice also that subtitles are not included in footnotes.

Book with One Author

C.W. Thompson, *Manual of structural kinesiology,* 8th ed. (Louis: C. V. Mosby Company 1977).

Book with Two Authors

John Piscopo and James A. Bailey, *Kinsiology* (New York: John Wiley and Sons, 198

Book Compiled by an Editor

Edmund J. Burke, ed. *Toward an understanding of human performance,* (Ithaca: Movement Publications. 1977), P.17.

Article in a Collection

Aileen S. Lockhart, "The Motor Learning of Children," in *A textbook of motor development*, ed. Charles B. Corgin (Dubuque, Iowa: William C. Brown, 1978), pp

Unattributed Newspaper Article

"Bill Rodgers Wins 10-killometer Atlanta Regional Race," New York Times, 3 May 1981 Sec. 5, P.16, Col.4.

Personal Interview

Personal interview with Alex Humez. 9 April 1982.

Magazine Article

Jay Stuller, "Sports Scientists Train Athletes to Deby Old Limits," Smithsonian. July 1980, P.67

Television Transcript

"Race for Gold" narr. Hal Douglas; Writ. Prod. and dir. Paula S. Aspell, Nova, 1979.

Encyclopaedia Article

"Biomechanics," McGraw-Hill Encyclopaedia of Science and Technology, 1977 ed.

Pamphlet

US Bureau of the Census, Department of Commerce, Current Population Reports, Special Studies, Series P.22, No.59 (Washington D.C. GPO, 1976). p.1

You may have to refer to a particular source more than once in your paper. Give information in the footnote for the first reference. In later references, called **subsequent references,** you need to only identify the author (or the title if no author is given) and the page number, as shown here.

Thompson, p.106.

If you refer to more than one work by the same author, use a shortened form of the title to identify the particular work.

Piscopo, *Clues to Safety,* p.52.

You may place your footnotes in either of the following positions. First, you may place the footnotes that go with the material on a particular page at the bottom of that page.Leave three blank lines between the text and the footnotes and single-space the footnotes. Second, you may place all the footnotes for the paper on a separate page at the end. This is also referred to as "Endnotes". Put "Notes" or "Endnotes" at the top of the page, and place the page before the bibliography. Double-space the footnotes and indent the first line of each one. Your teacher will tell you which placement to use.

BIBLIOGRAPHY

The last page of your paper is bibliography. It includes all the works listed in the footnotes. It may include the works that you read as general background before the writing but did not use as sources of specific ideas, facts, or direct quotations. Check with your teacher to see if you are to include such works in your bibliography.

Arrange in alphabetical order bibliography cards that you prepared when you were planning and researching your paper. Make an entry for each card, using the following procedure.

Procedure

1. Alphabetise bibliography entries by the author's last names. If a source does not have an author, alphabetise the entry by the first word in the title, omitting A, An, and The.
2. Begin the first line of each entry at the left margin. Indent the succeeding lines five spaces.
3. Separate the parts of the entry with periods.
4. Include the subtitle if a source has one.
5. Give the author's name only in the first entry if there are two or more works by the same author. In subsequent entries, use ten hyphens instead of author's name. Put a period after the last hyphen, and then continue with the rest of the entry. For example:

   Fulmer, Robert M. Management and Organisation. New York: Harper and Row, 1980.

   ----------. The New Management. New York. Macmillan, 1982.
6. Do not number the entries.
7. Alphabetise the entries by titles when you are using more than one book by an author.

Exercise 1

Let us consider the following. Arrange the following in a proper bibliographical

a. An article entitled bilingual education in Canada: French and English was published in the journal case studies in bilingual education. This journal was edited by B. Spolsky and R. Cooper. The authors of the article were Swain, M. and H. Barik. The publishers were Newbury house located in Rowley in Mass. The article came out in 1978.

b. John W. Blassingame edited a book of two centuries of letters, speeches, interviews and autobiographies. It is entitled slave testimony. It is a book for enlightened scholars. It was published in 1977 in Baton Rouge by Louisiana State University Press.

c. A book, Mathematics is published in New York by time incorporated in 1963. The author, David Bergamini was once an internee in a Japanese internment camp during World War II.

d. Sub-Sahara publishers located in Accra published Ama Ata Aidoo's recent collection of eleven delightful stories. She calls the book the girl who can and other stories and this book came out in 1997.

e. The making of the African Diaspora in the Americas 1441-1900 is a book every Africa student must read. It was published in New York by Longman. and the author's name is Vincent B. Thompson.

The above information can be written bibliographically as follows:

Aidoo, Ama Ata. (1997).*The girl who can and other stories*. Accra: Sub-Saharan Publishers, Accra.

Bergamini, David. (1963).*Mathematics* New York: The Incorporated.

Blassingame, John W (Ed.). (1977).*Slave testimony*. Barton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press.

Swain, M. and Barik, H. (1978). "Bilingual education in Canada: French and English" in J. Spolsky and R. Cooper (Eds.).*Case studies in bilingual education*. Rowley, Mass: Newbury House

Thompson, Vincent B. (n.d.) *The making of the African Diaspora in the Americas 1441-1900* New York: Longman

Exercise 2

Write proper bibliographical notes for the following.

1. Methuen published a book written by D. A. Sholl in 1956 in London. The book was entitled The organisation of the cerebral cortex.
2. An article written by N. E. Miller was entitled Experimental Studies of conflict. It was published in the book Personality and the behaviour disorders edited by J. Mc V Hunt The book was published in New York by Ronald Press in 1944.
3. P Parlor's book Conditioned reflexes was translated by G. V. Anrep. It was published in London by Oxford University Press in 1927.
4. Variation in child language is an article written by G. G. Wells and was published at by Cambridge by Cambridge University Press in 1979. The article can be found in the book Language Acquisition: Studies in first language development It was edited by two scholars, P Fletcher and M Garman
5. The book entitled The Structure of language: Readings in the Philosophy of Language was edited by J A Fodor and J J Kate. It was published in 1964 by Prentice-Hall Inc Englewood Cliffs, in New Jersey

CHAPTER SEVENTEEN

COMMON ERRORS IN USAGE

The following pages contain an alphabetical list of words and phrases that often present usage problems. Each entry describes correct usage, and must entries include examples Cross-references help you to locate related information.

a lot, alot A lot means "a great number or amount" and is always two words: avoid using **a lot** in formal usage. **Alot** is not a word.

a while, awhile: While is a noun and can be preceded by **for a** or **in** *a* to make a prepositional phrase. **Awhile** is an adverb; do not use **for** or **in** before **awhile**

We have been here for **a while**.
We have been here **awhile**.

accept, except: Accept is a verb that means "to agree" or "to receive". **Except** is a preposition that means "leaving out" or "but".

We did not want to **accept** the expensive gift
Beth has taken every art course offered by the school, **except** the course on silk screening.

adopt, adopt: Adopt means "to change or adjust" or "to take or accept"

Since he had always liked a warm climate, it took Jerry several months to **adapt** to our cold climate.
The Yankson family has decided to **adopt** a child.

advice, advise: Advice is a noun that means "helpful suggestion or opinion" **Advise** is a verb that means "to give or offer counsel."

My accountant **advised** me to file my income tax form on time. Unfortunately I did not follow that **advice**.

affect, effect: Affect is a verb that means "to influence." **Effect** can be a verb that means "to bring about or achieve" or a noun that means "result"

Because our town was not directly **affected** by the flood we could offer refuge to several families who were forced out

The severe storm **effected** a change in our travel plans.[Verb meaning "brought about"]
The **effects** of the flood were less extreme that we had thought. [Noun meaning "results"]

aint: Ain't is non standard. Do not use it.

all ready, already: All ready functions as a compound adjective that means "entirely ready" or "prepared". **Already** is an adverb that means "before some specific time" or previously" Do not confuse the two.
Are you **all ready** to begin the test? I can't believe that you've **already** finished that typing!

all right, alright: All right means "satisfactory" "unhurt" "correct" or "yes, very well" **Alright** is an incorrect spelling; do not use it.
Because we were so late, we telephoned Uncle Jack to let him know that we were **all right. All right,** who has a better suggestion?

all the farther, as far as:All the farther should not be used for **as far as.**
Two miles is as far as I will run today [not **all the farther**].

all together, altogether: All together means "in a group". *Altogether* means "completely" or thoroughly".
We bought tickets **all together** because no one wanted to be responsible for choosing the seats.
They are **altogether** too late to be considered.

almost, most: Do not confuse the adverb **almost** with the adjective **most.**
Most people sleep **almost** eight hours.

although, though: Both of these conjunctions means "in spite of the fact" In conversation, **though** can be used as an adverb to mean "however" Avoid this usage in written English.
David goes to the gym to exercise, **although** (or **though**) the track season is months away. [conjunction]
He didn't mind going to a basketball game, **though,** when his friends were going [adverb].

among, between: Use *among* for comparison involving groups of persons or things. Use between when only two items are being considered at a time.
Only one **among** all the race car drivers would win.
Can you tell the difference **between** a Jonquil and a daffodil?

amount, number: Use amount with a noun that names something that can be measured or weighed. Use **number** to refer to things that can be counted.
A larger **amount** of snow fell last night.
A larger **number** of snow storms are expected next winter,

and/or: And/or means "either **and** or ***or***". It is confusing and should be avoided.

anxious/eager: Both words can mean "strongly desirous". But you should use **anxious** to suggest concern or worry.
Abigail was ***anxious*** to get to work before the storm broke.

any more, anymore: These terms are not interchangeable.The phrase **any more** describes quantity; **any** is an adverb modifying the adjective **more. Anymore** is an adverb meaning **"at present"** or from now on."
Is there any more traffic on the bridge than there is in the tunnel?
I don't drive to work **anymore.**

anywhere, everywhere, nowhere: Do not use in a plural form: anywheres, everywheres, nowheres.

appraise, apprise: Appraise means "to evaluate"; **apprise** means "to form."
Having **appraised** the old desk, the antique dealer **apprised** its owner that it was worth one thousand dollars.

apt, liable, likely: In informal usage, these words are often used interchangeably. In formal usage, only **apt and likely** are interchangeable, meaning "tending to" or "inclined to be" use **liable** to suggest the probability of a harmful, unfortunate, or negative event or to show exposure to legal action.
Robert is **apt** to be unpleasant when he first awakens in the morning.
Mark is **liable** to strain a muscle during the game if he doesn't start practising more regularly.

Barbara was **liable** for damages when her daughter accidentally knocked over a carton of glassware in the department store.

as. like: In formal usage, **like** is most often used as a preposition to introduce a prepositional phrase. **As** is most often used as a conjunction to introduce a subordinate clause.

Muller is **apt** to be unpleasant when he first awakens in the morning.
Wisdom is **liable** to strain a muscle during the game if he doesn't start practising more regularly.

Barbara was **liable** for damages when her daughter accidentally knocked over a carton of glassware in the department store.

as, like: In formal usage, **like** is most often used as a preposition to introduce a prepositional phrase. ***As*** is most often used as a conjunction to introduce a subordinate clause.

Margot thinks **like** her father [prepositional phrase]
Margot thinks as her father does. [Subordinate phrase]

In informal usage, **like** is sometimes used as a conjunction. Avoid using **like** as a conjunction in formal usage in place of **as, as if, or as though**.

avoid: The hikers felt **like** they had walked twenty miles.
use: The hikers felt **as if** they had walked twenty miles.

as far as, all the farther: See **all the farther, as far as**.

author: Do not use **author** as a verb. Books are written, not authored.

badly, bad: **Bad** is always an adjective, and **badly** is always an adverb Use bad following a linking verb.

You have a **bad** cold. Are you feeling **bad**?
The foundation **badly** needs repairs

because, on account of: **On account** of means "because of" or due to." The phrase functions preposition and takes an object. Do not use **on account of** nstead of **because** to introduce a subordinate clause

The flights to Tar are were cancelled **on account of** snow

I am going to be quiet now **because** I have talked enough in this meeting. [not **on account of**]

being as, being as how, being that: Do not use these expressions for **since** or **because**.

Since he had broken his arm, Akos could not help us lift the cartons [not **beingas**].

Because: He **couldn't** help lift the cartons, Akos volunteered to get us all cold juice. [not **beingas**].

beside, besides: **Beside** means "next to". *Besides* means, "in addition to"

I park the car **beside** our neighbour's truck.

between, among: See **among, between**

between you and me:

Never use the nominative case 'I' as the object to a preposition. **Between** is a preposition.

The discussion is **between** you and me [not **between you and I**]

borrow, lend, loan: A person **borrows** from and **lends** to another person. **Loan** is a noun meaning "that which is lent" or "the act of lending" You may also use **loan** as verb, but **lend** is preferred.

Dede **borrowed** a book from Jane. [verb]
Love **lent** (or loaned) Jones a book. [verb]
The **loan** of the book helped Michael to complete his homework **assignment**. [noun].

both, either, neither: When used to modify compound elements, place **both, either** and **neither** just before the compound construction. The elements in the compound construction should be parallel or similar in form.

Incorrect: Gordon intends **both** to study business and engineering.
Correct: Gordon intends to study **both** business and engineering.

bring, take: Use **bring** when you mean "to carry to" use **take** when you mean "to carry away"

Bring your swimming suit with you when you come to the party.
Remember, **take** your swimming suit with you when you go to the party

bust, **busted:** Do not use these words as verbs to substitute for **break** or **burst**. The verbs **bust** and **busted** are non-standard.

That little girl's balloon just **burst**. [not **busted**].

cannot, **can't help but:** In standard English, use **cannot** (**can't**) help followed by a gerund.

Martin can't help **wishing** that his brother could attend his graduation. [not **can't help but wish**].

can't **hardly, can't scarcely:** Avoid these terms, they are double negatives.

That insect is so tiny that I **can hardly** see it without a magnifying glass. [not **can't hardly**].

compare **to, compare with:** Use **compare** *to* when pointing out similarities; **compare with** when pointing out similarities and differences.

In that metaphor the bright yellow flowers are **compared to sunshine.**

Compared with a tornado, this is a minor windstorm.

consensus **of opinion:** Because **consensus** means "group or collective opinion" **Credulous** applies always to people and means "willing to believe" or "gullible."

It was a **credible** story; we did not need to force ourselves to become involved in the plot.

The movie director did a **creditable** job; the, movie won three awards.

Rude is a **credulous** young man; he thought that the science fiction about robots running the Pentagon was true.

data **is, data are: Data** is the plural form of the Latin **datum**. In formal English it should be followed by a plural verb. In informal English a singular verb may be used.

differ **from, differ with**: things (or persons) **differ from** each other if they are physically dissimilar. When persons **differ with** each other, they are in disagreement.

Children **differ from** adults.

I **differ with** Hawa about the need for a new stadium.

different from, different than: Use **different from**. Use the idiom **different than** only to introduce a subordinate clause.

My ideas are **different from** hers. [not **different than**].

My ideas are **different than** hers are.

disinterested, uninterested: implies a lack of self-interest; it is synonymous with **unbiased** or **impartial. Uninterested** implies a lack of any interest.

Although I am **disinterested** in which party wins the court case, I am not **uninterested** in the principles of law that are being challenged by the case.

double negative: A double negative is the use of two negatives where one is sufficient. Avoid using **not** or contractions with –**n't** with words such as no, none, never, and **nothing**.

Sometimes, I feel that I don't have **any** friends.

double subject: Do not use a noun and a pronoun together as a single subject.

Incorrect: **My friend she helped me** with the dishes

Correct: My friend helped me with the dishes.

Correct: She helped me with the dishes

each and every: Each and **every** is redundant. Use either **each** or **every**.

eager, anxious: See anxious. eager.

effect, affect: See affect, effect.

e.g., i.e. E.g. stands for the Latin words **exempli gratia**, meaning roughly ""ap example for free" means "for example" in English. I.e. stands for the Latin words **id est**, meaning "that is," and should be used to cite an equivalent. Use both sparingly.

either, both, neither: see both, either, neither.

eminent, imminent: Eminent means "prominent" or "outstanding in some way". **Imminent** means "about to occur".

We were fortunate that the **eminent** historian agreed to visit our school
The heavy, dark clouds indicated that a storm was **imminent**

et al: This is a Latin abbreviation for **et alii** and means "and others" (persons, not things). It is used most often in footnotes to refer to the members of a team of authors.

etc.: This Latin abbreviation for **et cetera** means "and other things" "and so forth" Avoid using etc. in formal writing; use *and so forth* instead. Do not use **and etc.**; it is redundant

every day, everyday: Every day means "each day". **Everyday** is an adjective meaning "ordinary"
I am supposed to check the mail **every day**
Joshua wore his **everyday** clothes to work

every one, everyone: Every one refers to each person or thing in a group and is usually followed by **of**. **Everyone** means everybody, every person...
Every one of us went home after the party.
Everyone went home after the party.

everywhere, anywhere, nowhere: See anywhere everywhere, nowhere

explicit, implicit: These adjectives are antonyms. **Explicit** refers to something that is directly stated. **Implicit** refers to something that is not directly stated.
Pattie was **explicit** in her description of the swearing in ceremonies
Betty's feelings about her mother were **implicit** in her willingness to help her in any way she could.

famous noted, notorious: Famous means "renowned or celebrated" Noted means "celebrated" Notorious means "known widely and regarded unfavourably."
The famous (or noted) economist predicted that inflation would continue
The **notorious** prankster was finally caught and punished

farther, further: These two words are not interchangeable. **Farther** means "more distant in space." **Further** means "more distant in time or degree, additional."
Bill swam **farther** than Tom did.
The **further** you investigate this story, the more confused the facts seem to be.
Conway **further** discussed his ideas about pedestrian safety.

fewer, less: Use **fewer** to refer to things that you can count individually. Use *less* to refer to quantities that you cannot count and to amounts of time, money, or distance when the amount is a single quantity.
There were **fewer** requests for help this week than last week.
I have **less** trouble with number concepts than he does.
I have **less** than three dollars in my pocket.

figuratively, literally: Figuratively and literally are antonyms. An expression that uses a metaphor to represent a fact is figurative; an expression that states a fact is literal.
Felix was speaking **figuratively** when he said, "It's raining cats and dogs out there." What he meant **literally** is that it was raining heavily.

first, firstly; second, secondly: Use **first** and **second** not **firstly** and **secondly** to mean "in the first (or second) place
First, put the flowers into a vase. [not **firstly**]

formally, formerly: These two words sometimes sound alike but have distinct spellings and meanings. **Formally** means "in a formal or official manner." **Formerly** means "previously" or "at an earlier time."
Beth spoke **formally** to the audience.
He **formerly** was a doctor.

former, latter: Of two things or persons named sequentially, the first is the former; the second is the latter.
Betsy and Peter will come to dinner tonight. The **former**
[Betsy] may be half an hour late, but the **latter** [Peter] will be on time.

further, farther: See **farther, further.**

good, well: Good is an adjective. **Well** can be an adverb or a predicate adjective meaning "satisfactory" or "in good health." The opposite of feeling sick is feeling **well.**

Fuller is **good** writer.
Oliver teaches **well**
Are you feeling **well**?

got, have: Got is the past tense of the get. It means "obtained." Avoid using got with or in place of have. Also avoid using don't got in place don't have.

I have to pick up Freddy this afternoon. [not **I got to**].
I don't have any other errands. [not **I don't got**].

had ought, hadn't ought: Avoid using **had** and **hadn't** with ought. Instead, use **ought**, which is usually followed by the preposition **to.**

Lewis **ought** to be ready for the concert. [not **had ought**].
He **ought**not to miss any rehearsal. [not **hadn't ought**].

half a: Use **a half** or **half a(n).** Do not use **a half a(n).**

Will drove by about **a half** hour ago. [not **a half an hour.**]

hanged, hung:Hanged and **hung** are alternative forms of the past tense and past participle of the verb to hang. Use hanged when referring to death by hanging. Use **hung** in all other cases.

The Scarlet Pimpernel was **hanged** at dawn.
They **hung** plants on the porch

have, got: See got, have

have, of:Have and **of** sound similar in rapid speech, but they are different parts of speech. **Have** is a verb; **of** is a preposition. Be careful to say and write have when completing a verb phrase, especially after the helping verbs **should, would** and **could.** Of is not a verb.

We should have visited him earlier. [not **should of**].

hisself, theirselves: Hisself and **theirselves** are both nonstandard. Do not use them. **Himself** and **themselves** are the correct forms for reflexive and intensive pronouns.

hung, hanged: See **Hanged, hung.**

ie., e.g. See e.g., i.e.

imminent, eminent: See **eminent, imminent.**

implicit, explicit: See **explicit, implicit**

imply, infer: Imply means "to reach a conclusion based on evidence or deduction." These words are not interchangeable.

I **implied** in my remarks that the council should approve the plans to build a new school
I **inferred** from the applause that followed my remarks that the audience supported my suggestion.

in, into: Use **in** to mean "within" and **into** to suggest movement toward the inside from the outside.

Ruth walked **into** the store to buy supplies for the camping trip.
While she was **in** the store, she found the lantern that she wanted.

individual, person: Use **individual** to distinguish one person from a larger group. Do not use **individual** generally in place of **person.**

Persons in the hospital should be treated as *individuals.*

ingenious, ingenuous: Ingenious means "clever" ingenuous means "naïve"

The **ingenious** child was always trying to invent questions that we couldn't answer.
The newcomer was so **ingenuous** that we had to explain even the most basic things to him.

irregardless, regardless: Do not use **irregardless;** it is non-standard. Use regardless instead.

We will call you when we arrive, **regardless** of the time.

its, it's : *Its* is a possessive pronoun; **it's** is the contraction for **it is**.
The bear was standing on **its** hind legs, ready to attack.
It's a nice day, so leave your heavy jacket at home.

judicial, **judicious: Judicial** means "of or pertaining to a court of law." **Judicious** means "having or showing good judgment."
The **judicial** proceeding was scheduled to take four days.
Jeremy's use of money is **judicious**; he is able to save even though his salary is rather small.

just **exactly:** This phrase is redundant. Use either **just** or **exactly.**
It's **just** thirty-five feet from my desk to yours.
It's **exactly** thirty-five feet.

kind **of, sort of:** In most writing do not use these colloquial forms mean "somewhat." See also these **kinds, this kind.**
The casserole is rather tasty. [not **kind of** or **sort of**].

latter, **former:** See **former, latter.**

lay, **lie: Lay** is a transitive verb that means "to put or to place something somewhere." It always takes a direct object. **Lie** is an intransitive verb that means "to be in or to assume a reclining position." It does not take a direct object.
Lay the placemats on the table before you **lie** down to rest.

learn, **teach:** Do not use these words interchangeably. To **learn** is "to receive knowledge" or "to acquire knowledge." **Teach** means "to give knowledge."
Maureen will **learn** to play the flute quickly if you will **teach** her.

leave, **let:** *Leave* means "to go away" or "to abandon." **Let** means "to permit" or "to allow."
Will you **let** me **leave** with them on the train tomorrow?

lend, **borrow, loan:** See **borrow, lean, loan.**

less, **fewer:** See **fewer, less**

liable, apt, likely: See **apt, liable, likely.**

lie, lay: See **lay, lie.**

like, as: See *as*, **like.**

likewise: Likewise is an adverb that means "similarly." Do not use it as a conjunction to mean "and" or "together with"
Her cheerfulness, **together with** her intelligence, made her the perfect candidate for the job. [not **likewise**].

literally, figuratively: See **figuratively, literally.**

many, much: Use the adjective **many** to describe things that you can count (pencils, people). Use the adjective **much** to describe things that you cannot (gas, truth, strength). When used as indefinite pronouns, **much** is singular and **many** is plural.
Many responded to out requests for volunteers.
Much was expected, but little gained.

may, can: See **can, may.**

may be, maybe: In the term **may *be*** is an auxiliary that indicates possibility. The adverb **maybe** means "perhaps."
Donna **maybe** able to attend the planning session
Maybe Donna will attend the planning session

more than one: This phrase, although plural in meaning, takes a singular verb

Morethanone child has the flu.

most, almost: See **almost, most.**

much, many: See **many, much.**

myself, yourself: Do not use reflexive pronoun in place of **I, me,** or **you.**

Incorrect: My brother and **myself** enjoy sightseeing together.
correct: My brother and **I** enjoy sightseeing together.

neither, both, either: See *both, either, neither.*

nohow, noway: Nohow *and* **noway** non-standard. Avoid using them. You can, however, use no way correctly as two words.

Incorrect: Noway can we finish on time.
Correct: There is **no way** that we can finish on time.

noted, notorious, famous: See **famous, noted, notorious.**

nothing like, nowhere near: In formal English, use **nothing like** to mean "not at all like"; use **nowhere near** to mean "not anywhere near."

This movie is **nothing like** the one that we saw last Saturday. [formal]
The studio is **nowhere** near my house [formal]
That book was **nowhere** near as suspenseful as I had thought it would be. [informal]

nowhere, anywhere, everywhere: See **anywhere, everywhere, nowhere.**

of, have: See have, of.

off, off of: Of is unnecessary. Do not use **off** *or* **off of** in place of from.

We lifted the chair **off** the carpet so that we could vacuum. [not **off** of]
Larry got that idea from his brother. [not **off**]

only: To avoid confusion, place ***only,*** before the element that it modifies. The placement of **only** can dramatically affect the meaning of your sentence.

Only Dale gave him a watch.
Dale **only** gave him a watch.
Dale gave **only** him a watch.
Dale gave him **only** a watch.

on to, onto: In the phrase **on to, on** is an adverb and *to* is a preposition. **Onto** is a preposition that means "to a position on" or "upon."

When we leave Denver, we will go **on to** Phoenix
He got **onto** the train Denver.

outside, outside of: Use **outside of** only when **outside** is a noun and **of** is a preposition.

Will you wait **outside** the room for a minute? [not **outside of**]
The **outside of** the box has been damaged in shipping.

passed, past: Passed is the past tense of the verb to **pass**, which means "to move on or ahead, to proceed." **Past** is an adjective that means "no longer current," "over," or "before the present", a noun that means "a time earlier than the present"; an adverb that means "so as to go beyond", and a preposition that means "beyond, after."

Jocelyn **passed** us without even waving [verb]
Don't let **past** events bother you now. [adjective]
Margaret likes to study the **past**. [noun]
Harrison drove **past** in a cloud of dust. [adverb]
It is **past** the time for the concert to begin. [preposition]

people, persons: Use **persons** when referring to a relatively small, specific group. Use people when referring to a large group in a collective sense.

Ten **persons (or people)** were winners in the contest.
Some **people** who are very pessimistic always expect to fail. [not persons]

persecute, prosecute: To **persecute** people is to harass or otherwise mistreat them. To **prosecute** is to bring a court action.

The bullies **persecuted** the small children in the neighbourhood.
The store owners **prosecuted** the alleged shoplifter.

person, individual: See **individual, person.**

precede, proceed: Precede means "to exist or come before in time." **Proceed** means "to go forward or onward."

Tim and Willy **proceeded** with the job, wishing that Max and Sam, who had **preceded** them in the use of the carpentry shop, had sharpened the saws.

provided, providing: In formal usage use **provided** as a conjunction meaning "on the condition that" or "if."

raise, rise: Raise is a regular transitive verb that means "to lift"; it always takes a direct object. **Rise** is an irregular intransitive verb that means "to move upward."

Adele **raised** her feet from the table when her mother scowled at her.

The moon **rises** early in the afternoon.

real, really: Real is an adjective; **really** is an adverb.

It is **really** fortunate that you found your wallet. [not real]

That is a **real** surprise!

reason is because, reason is that: Reason is because is redundant. Use **reason** is that or simply **because.**

incorrect: The **reason** that I am late is because I missed the bus.

correct: The **reason** that I am late **is that** I missed the bus.

refer back: Refer back is redundant. Use just **refer.**

I **refer** to our discussion of this morning. [not **refer back**]

regardless, Irregardless: See **Irregardless, regardless.**

regretful, regrettable: Regretful means "full of sorrow or regret." **Regrettable** means "deserving regret or sorrow."

Mark was **regretful** over the decision to close the theatre.

Closing the theatre was a **regrettable** decision.

respectfully, respectively: Respectfully means "showing respect or esteem" **Respectively** means "each in the order indicated."

Bob and Linda always spoke **respectfully** to their grandmother.

The librarian discussed the issue with Nate and Louise **respectively.**

rise, raise: See **raise, rise**

said, says, goes, went: Said is the past tense of the verb say; says is a present-tense form. Do not use *says* for **said.** Also, do not use goes or went for said.

Gary called and **said**, "Do you have a tent for the camping trip, or are you going to rent one?" [not **says** or **goes**]

second, secondly, first, firstly: See **first, firstly; second, secondly.**

seldom ever: Seldom ever is redundant. Use only **seldom.**

self, -selves: The suffix **–self** is singular; **-selves** is plural. Be sure to use the correct suffix to form a reflexive pronoun.

singular **myself, yourself, himself, herself**

plural **ourselves, yourselves, themselves**

set, sit: Set is a transitive verb that means "to place something," **Sit** is an intransitive verb that means "to rest in an upright.

Sit down next to the door, please.

Set your books on the floor next to you.

slow, slowly: Slow is an adjective that can be used as an adverb in informal speech, especially in commands or for emphasis. **Slowly** is an adverb; it is preferred in formal usage.

Our waiter is very **slow.** [predicate adjective]

He is walking **slowly** from table to table. [adverb]

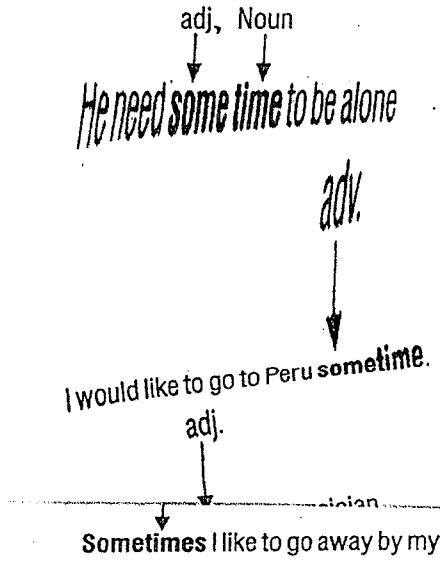
Do you think that someone told him to walk **slow?** [adverb informal]

so, so that: Both can be used to mean "in order that." However, explanatory or superlative qualifier of adjectives and adverbs.

Tilson went early **so that** he would be sure to get tickets for the nine-o'clock show. [for informally, so]

The six year-old was **so** excited about the circus **that** she could not sleep.

some time, sometime, sometimes: When you use two words, **some** is an adjective modifying time. **Some time** can be an adverb that means "at an indefinite time," or it can be an adjective that means "occasional." **Sometimes** is an adverb that means "occasionally, now and then."



sort of, kind of: See **kind of, sort of.**

Supposed to, used to: Supposed to means "expected to" or "required to." **Used t** means "accustomed to"; "familiar with." Be sure to spell *supposed* and used with a final *d*.

You were **supposed** *to* take the children shopping with you.
[not **suppose to**]
They are quite used to you now. [not **use to**]

sure, surely: Sure is an adjective meaning "certain" or dependable." **Surely** is an adverb meaning "certainly, without doubt."

Rob was **sure** that the dog was in the house.
The dog will **surely** return by morning.

take, bring: See **bring, take.**

teach, learn: See **learn, teach.**

than, then: Use **than** as a conjunction in a comparison. Use **then** as an adverb to show a sequence of time or events. Do not use either one as a conjunction between two independent clauses.

The play was, in my opinion, truer to the book **than** the movie was.

that, which, who: Use *that* as a relative pronoun to introduce essential clauses. Because it introduces an essential clause, do not use a comma before **that**.

The car **that** was crying at our door has just run away again.

Use **which** as a relative pronoun to introduce nonessential clauses that refer to things or to groups of persons. Always use a comma before **which** when it introduces a nonessential clause.

This book, **which** is one that I received for my birthday, is extremely interesting.

Use **who** or **whom** as a relative pronoun to introduce essential and nonessential clauses that refer to persons. Use a comma before **who** or **whom** when it introduces a nonessential clause.

The girl **who** won that prize Cathy's sister.
Nadia, **who** goes to the same school as I do, is a clerk in this store.

that there, this here: Do not use either construction. Use only **this** or **that**.

Where do you want **this** chair moved? [not **this here**]

theirselves, hisself: See *hisself, theirselves.*

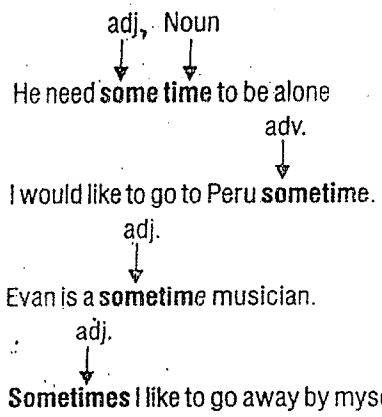
then, than: See **than, then.**

these kinds, this kind: Use **this** or **that** to modify the singular nouns **kind**, **sort**, and **type**. Use **these** and **those** to modify the plural nouns **kinds**, **sorts**, and **types**. Use the singular form of these nouns when the object of the preposition is singular; use the plural form when the object of the preposition is plural.

singular
This kind of book is easy to read.
plural
These kinds of books are more difficult.

though, although: See **although, though**

till, until: Both words are acceptable. **Until** is preferred as the first word in a sentenc



sort of, kind of: See **kind of, sort of**.

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teach, learn: See **learn, teach**.

than, then: Use **than** as a conjunction in a comparison. Use **then** as an adverb to show a sequence of time or events. Do not use either one as a conjunction between two independent clauses.

The play was, in my opinion, truer to the book **than** the movie was.
If we get home in time, **then** you may watch television.

that, which, who: Use *that* as a relative pronoun to introduce essential clauses. Because it introduces an essential clause, do not use a comma before that.

The car **that** was crying at our door has just run away again.

Use **which** as a relative pronoun to introduce nonessential clauses that refer to things or to groups of persons. Always use a comma before **which** when it introduces a nonessential clause.

This book, **which** is one that I received for my birthday, is extremely interesting.

Use **who** or **whom** as a relative pronoun to introduce essential and nonessential clauses that refer to persons. Use a comma before who or **whom** when it introduces a nonessential clause.

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Nadia, **who** goes to the same school as I do, is a clerk in this store.

that there, this here: Do not use either construction. Use only **this** or **that**.

Where do you want **this** chair moved? [not **this here**]

theirselves, hisself: See *hisself, theirselves*.

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singular
This kind of book is easy to read.
plural
These kinds of books are more difficult.

though, although: See **although, though**

till, until: Both words are acceptable. **Until** is preferred as the first word in a sentence. Do not use **til** or **'til**.

Until I have my homework finished, I cannot leave the library.

toward, towards: Both mean "in the direction of" or "approaching" but **towards** is preferred. **Towards** is the American form.

try and, try to: Use **try to** instead of **try and.**
Please **try to** be on time. [not **try and**]

uninterested, disinterested: See *disinterested, uninterested.*

used to, supposed to: See **supposed to, used to.**

very: Use **very** only sparingly. Overuse diminishes its effect.

way, ways: Do not use **ways** when referring to distance.
You have only a short *way* to go to reach the supermarket. [not ways]

well, good: See **good, well.**

where ... at: Do not use **at** after **where.**

which, that, who: See **that; which, who.**

wise: Avoid using **–wise** on the end of a word to mean "with reference to" or "concerning."
avoid Weatherwise, it is a pleasant week.
use The weather has been pleasant this week.

would have: Do not use **would have** instead of **had** in clauses that begin **with if.**
If he **had** let me know, I would have gone with him to the hospital.
[not **if he would have**]

yourself, myself: See **myself, yourself.**

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